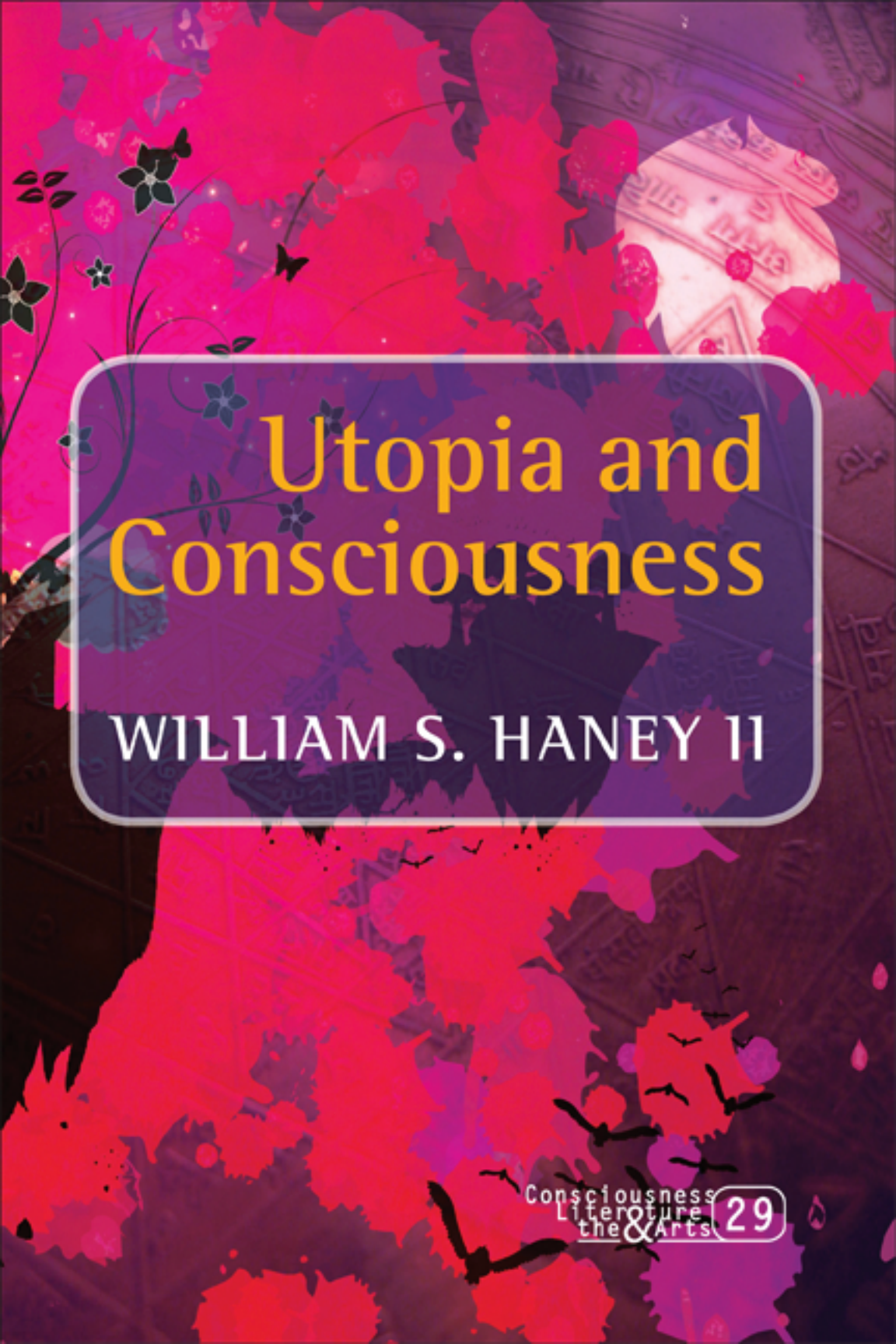

Utopia and Consciousness
WILLIAM S. HANEY II
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Utopia and Consciousness

William S. Haney II

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Preface

In his book *Archaeologies of the Future: The Desire Called Utopia and Other Science Fictions* (2007), Fredric Jameson analyzes the multiple components of utopia and the possibility of achieving utopia in the near future. As this book argues, however, human civilization will never achieve utopia unless humans reach a state of pure consciousness in which they will use their full mental potential and avoid making blunders in life that would undermine the possibility of a utopia. This book develops a non-teleological, comparative poetics between Western and Sanskrit literary traditions by analyzing their opposing theories of language, consciousness and meaning. This comparison seeks to demonstrate the complementary nature of their two perspectives: the objective, conceptual emphasis of contemporary Western theory; and the subjective experiential emphasis of Sanskrit poetics. The potential contribution to the West of Indian culture in general, and Sanskrit poetics in particular, centers on the phenomenon of direct experience. Without the direct experience of pure consciousness, humans will not achieve a state of utopia because they will remain entangled in materialism without access to idealism or spiritualism available only through the direct experience of the unity of pure consciousness or the void of conceptions. As Jenny Mezciems says in the "Introduction" to Thomas More's Utopia, "It may be a sobering experience for the comparatively affluent modern reader [. . .] to discover that the less acceptable features of the desirable Utopian life are mainly those that would deprive us of material luxuries or of means to express our individuality" (1992, x-xi). Most modern readers would object to giving up materialism unless they experienced the inner bliss of pure consciousness. Although Western theory through intellectual analysis questions the notion of unity in language and consciousness and the possibility of its experience, many non-Western traditions, while no less intellectually rigorous, have developed both the theory and experience of unity not only into an art but also into the likelihood of achieving utopia.

In *Utopia and Consciousness*, I address two interrelated theoretical issues relevant to utopia. First, the possibility that the opposites of unity and diversity, timelessness and history reach a point of coexistence when contemporary Western theory is complemented by Sanskrit poetics. And secondly, the possible effect of this complementarity on the relationship

between language and meaning, for this relationship in pure consciousness differs considerably from that in the ordinary state of waking consciousness in which humans only use five or ten percent of their mental potential. The approach centers on the opposing theories of language and consciousness of the two traditions, for language changes with the level of one's consciousness. The three ordinary states of consciousness are waking, sleeping and dreaming, while the fourth state is pure, transcendental consciousness, which, once it becomes stabilized, leads to the fifth state of cosmic consciousness, the basic state of consciousness required to achieve utopia. In each of these states of consciousness, the structure of language changes. Deconstruction, the main philosophical tenant of poststructuralism, defines language in terms of the movement of difference that prevents the stable unity of sound and meaning and decenters the notions of the humanist subject. Sanskrit poetics, in contrast, defines language as consisting of a temporal gap between sound and meaning in its lower or expressed levels of usage, but as reaching a unity of sound and meaning in its higher levels, which correspond to higher states of consciousness. Although in theory poststructuralists tend to deconstruct the experience of unity, I will argue that in practice the deconstructive freeplay of language has an effect similar to the experience of unity as describe by Sanskrit poetics. This effect as formulated by deconstruction, however, is nonlogocentric and nonteleological because it does not lead to a transcendental signified. Both traditions remain distinct, but in their complementarity their difference suggests a coexistence of opposites.

Many of the current issues in Western literary theory have been the topic of debate for many centuries in other cultures, especially those that believe in the possibility of achieving utopia. In *Orientalism* (1979) and *The World, the Text, and the Critic* (1983), Edward Said examines the history of East/West relations and discusses the parallels between deconstructive poststructuralism and the theories of meaning in 11th-century Islamic philosophy. The expanding field of multi-cultural works include K. C. Pandey's comparative *Western Aesthetics* (1972), and Harold Coward's *Derrida and Indian Philosophy* (1990), in which he analyzes the relation between deconstruction and various Indian philosophies of language and hermeneutics. But many Western scholars are either afraid to deal with non-Western traditions such as Sanskrit poetics, or conceal their interest like Michel Foucault, as Uta Schaub reveals in "Foucault's Oriental Subtext" (1989). Indian aesthetics incorporates the experience of yoga (union), but the Western tradition does not cultivate, and even maligns, this experience out of fear that the concept of a unified or transcendental self bears religious connotations. As evidenced by Paul Smith's *Discerning the Subject* (1988), the diverse interpellations of the

self in Western theory do not account for the experience of unity that Sanskrit poetics finds indispensable to the study of literature and to utopia. Yet as indicated by Suzi Gablik's *The Reenchantment of Art* (1991) and David Levin's *The Opening Vision* (1988), deconstructive postmodernism is being superseded by a reconstructive postmodernism in a move toward greater wholeness and ecological vision. Sanskrit poetics envisions this wholeness, which is necessary for utopia, through the experience of unity in language, consciousness and meaning. My purpose in supporting utopia is to facilitate the transition from deconstructive separateness to greater interconnectedness.

Utopia and Consciousness consists of seven chapters divided into two parts, the first theoretical and the second applied. The first two chapters provide the theoretical background for the following six, which need not be read in sequence. Chapter one, "Utopia, Deconstruction, Sanskrit Poetics" analyzes the relation between Derrida and Shankara, one of India's most influential philosophers. It attempts to fathom the impasse of the deconstructive paradox by proposing a subjective site of deconstruction: namely, the junction point between conceptual undecidability and the coexistence of opposites associated with the experience of unity, the basis for utopia. This chapters argues that the significance of Sanskrit poetics for poststructuralism hinges on the claim that the subject as a knower, the internal observer, can go beyond conceptual indeterminacy and experience transcendental consciousness, which in Sanskrit poetics subsumes rather than excludes the field of difference. Chapter two, "Utopia and Unity in Sanskrit Poetics," investigates the philosophical basis of the experience of unity and analyzes the development of unity through the principle schools of Sanskrit poetics, such as *rasa* (aesthetic delight) and *dhvani* (suggestion) schools. It compares these schools to their Western counterparts, such as new criticism, phenomenology, structuralism, reception theory and deconstruction, explaining how the two traditions are complementary rather than contradictory, although only Indian philosophy has the potential to lead us to utopia.

The third chapter, "Utopia, Presence, Repetition, and the Self and Vedic Philosophy," argues for a third type of repetition in addition to the two types described by J. Hillis Miller, the Nietzschean and the Platonic. This third repetition, explained in part by Clifford Geertz and Mircea Eliade and more fully by Sanskrit poetics, is based not on the mind alone but on the psychophysiology as a whole. It leads not away from but toward the experience of unity defined as a coexistence of opposites. This chapter also contrasts the poststructuralist and Sanskrit modes of self-referral as different ways of opening the awareness to expanded meaning and explains how the latter self-referral and the third type of memory provide an experience of bliss similar to necessary for utopia. Chapter four, "Utopia and James Joyce's

Ulysses," begins the applied section of the book, indicating how literature can lead to utopia. This chapter analyzes the dialogical relationship between Joyce, the reader and the characters. It considers two kinds of dialogue: the external Bakhtinian dialogues, and an internal dialogue based on the experience of self-referral that leads to a taste of utopia. My purpose here is to demonstrate in terms of Sanskrit poetics how the collectedness of the knower, known and knowledge in the internal dialogues of Joyce, Bloom and Stephen has a commensurate effect on the consciousness of the reader. Similarly, chapter five, "Utopia and Faulkner's *As I Lay Dying*," argues that the internal dialogue of Faulkner's reader leads to a kind of all-inclusive ore transcendental viewpoint, even as the reader remains within an historical context. I analyze Faulkner's narrative design and its resultant expanded viewpoints in terms of the theories of *rasa* (aesthetic delight) and *dhvani* (the power of suggestion), the basis for a taste of utopia.

Chapter six, "Utopia, Rhetoric, the Self, the Fantastic and Pynchon's *The Crying of Lot 49*," deals with the interconnectedness in *Lot 49* between mimesis, fantasy and consciousness. Although the rhetorical indeterminacy of this modern fantasy creates a sense of disillusion or aporia, I argue that it also creates an experience of *rasa* or aesthetic delight that goes beyond the intellect, providing Oedipa Mass and the reader with a taste of expanded consciousness, which is not a Platonic form but a coexistence of the transcendent and the earth that underlies utopia. The final chapter, seven, "Utopia, Soyinka's Ritual Drama and the Mistake of the Intellect," focuses on a similar coexistence between essence and materiality in two plays by Wole Soyinka, the Nigerian playwright and Nobel Laureate. In crossing from the earth to the transcendental reality or "the fourth stage," Soyinka's characters experience not a privileging of the latter pole but a coexistence of opposites shared by the audience. As seen through a comparative poetics, Soyinka's ritual drama portrays how literature is always implicated in the process of change, and how historical difference is never outside the field of unity.

Chapter One

Utopia, Deconstruction and Sanskrit Poetics

In poststructuralism, every act of understanding is embedded in a context of cultural preconceptions, and to interpret a text is to enter a "hermeneutic circle" without access to a higher theoretical or experiential order of knowledge independent of history. The reader necessarily interprets the text from a finite viewpoint, conditioned by personal, social and historical circumstances, with no way of transcending to an all-inclusive objective viewpoint. And yet the theory underlying the poststructuralist denial of the knower as transcendental consciousness—deconstruction—is paradoxically also the theory that most strongly suggests the possibility of making an enlightened critique from a higher perspective. Although in theory deconstruction attempts to undermine the possibility of transcendental consciousness, in practice the mechanics of deconstruction suggest a field of pure possibility at the basis of language that corresponds to the ineffable experience of transcendental consciousness necessary for utopia, which was first introduced by the inaugural text of Thomas More, *Utopia* (1517). In this way deconstruction bears a slight resemblance to Sanskrit poetics.

Indian philosophy has given rise to a language theory that underlies the entire tradition of Sanskrit poetics. Central to Indian philosophy is the distinction between theory and practice, conceptualization and direct experience, or as S. K. De notes in the *History of Sanskrit Poetics* (1960), *pratibhá* (vol. 2, 41-42). India's ancient heritage emphasized the philosophy of yoga (union), holding that nature, consciousness and language are inwardly akin. In recent Indian works on literary criticism, however, the importance of immediate experience or intuition for understanding the integration of language and consciousness has been neglected. An appreciation of union as the direct experience of transcendental consciousness or the Self, which is necessary for utopia, as suggested by Thomas More, is crucial for avoiding the preoccupation with formal, normative requirements that De has criticized in Sanskrit poetics in his book *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics* (1963, 72). In applying Sanskrit poetics to deconstruction,

I will emphasize the relationship between language and consciousness and show that what Indian philosophy defines as transcendental consciousness underlies the production and reception of meaning.

In the attempt to further the East-West exchange in literary studies, this book develops two major arguments related to the question of language, consciousness and meaning. First, that the principle of difference with which poststructuralists, or what Suzi Gablik in her book *The Reenchantment of Art*, calls "deconstructive postmodernists" (1991, 18-20), attempt to undermine the experience of unity in literary studies reflects a limited rather than a comprehensive view of the full range of language and consciousness. And second, that the knowledge of expanded awareness available through Sanskrit poetics hold that unity and diversity are not mutually exclusive, that unity is diversity, which underlies utopia, . As Jameson states in *Archaeologies of the Future* (2007), "Utopia is thus by definition an amateur activity in which personal opinions take the place of mechanical contraptions and the mind takes its satisfaction in the sheer operations of putting together new models of this or that perfect society" (35). Unfortunately, however, the mind cannot take its satisfaction by putting together new models of a perfect society based on language unless it has reached transcendental, pure consciousness. He also states, "Materialism is already omnipresent in an attention to the body which seeks to correct any idealism or spiritualism lingering in this system" (6), but without spiritualism utopia would be impossible.

The basic principles related to the question of language, consciousness and meaning found in Sanskrit poetics have their roots in Vedic literature, a vast corpus that derives from and supplies commentary on the basic four Vedas: *Rig-Veda*, *Sama-Veda*, *Yajur-Veda*, and *Atharva-Veda*. As Harold Coward notes in *The Sphota Theory of Language*, the first mention of the relation between consciousness and the four levels of language discussed in Sanskrit poetics is the Rig-Veda (1980, 130). In *A History of Indian Philosophy*, Surendranath Dasgupta writes regarding the dates of the Vedas that "Many shrewd guesses have been offered, but none of them can be proved to be incontestably true. Max Müller supposed the date to be 1200 B. C., Haug 2400 B. C. and Bal Gangadhar Tilak 4000 B.C." (1975, vol. 1, 10). Other Vedic texts include the *Upanishads*, *Aranyakas*, *Brahmanas*, *Vedangas*, *Upangas*, *Ithihasa*, *Puranas*, *Smritis*, and *Upaveda*. The *Ithihasa* consists of the well-known epics *The Ramayana* and *The Mahābhārata*, which includes *The Bhagavad-Gita*. Aspects of Vedic literature that are key to Sanskrit poetics are the *Rid-Veda*, the *Upanishads*, *The Bhagavad-Gita* and *Vedanta* ("Veda-end," as conclusion and goal), which as S. Radhakrishnan points out in *The Principle Upanishads* is a system of Indian philosophy based on the Upanishads. He also notes that the Upanishads of the Vedanta "belong to the

eighth and seventh centuries B.B." (1989, 22-24). As Müller says of these Upanishads in his book *The Upanishads*, they are "anterior to the rise of Buddhism," although other Upanishads are "no doubt, quite modern" (1962, part I, lxvii), that is, closer to the Common Era.

In terms of the difference between conceptualization and direct experience, the *Mundaka Upanishad*, as translated by Müller in *The Upanishads*, states that "Two kinds of knowledge must be known, this is what all who know Brahman tell us, the higher and the lower knowledge. [. . .] The lower knowledge is the Rig-Veda [and other Vedic literature]; but the higher knowledge is that by which the Indestructible (Brahman) is apprehended" (1962, part 2, 27-28). Similarly, the *Māndūkya Upanishad* defines three common states of consciousness as mentioned earlier—waking, sleeping and dreaming—and also a fourth, transcendental state. In Radhakrishnan's translation of the second verse, "All this is, verily, *Brahman*. This self is *Brahman*. This self has four quarters." As Radhakrishnan comments in *The Principle Upanishads*, the four quarters are "*viśva*, the waking state, *taijasa*, the dream state, *prājňa*, the state of dreamless sleep and *turîya* which is the state of spiritual consciousness necessary to achieve utopia (1989, 695). As Jameson says, "In More and even Plato, this could be achieved simply by banishing money [. . .]" (2007, 55). He translates a later verse on the fourth quarter as follows: "(*Turîya* is) not that which cognizes both of them, not a mass of cognition, not cognition, not non-cognition. (It is) unseen, incapable of being spoken of, ungraspable, with any distinctive marks, unthinkable, unnamable, the essence of the knowledge of the one self, that in which the world is resolved, the peaceful, the benign, the non-dual," which leads to utopia (*Ibid*. 698). This verse clearly distinguishes between conceptualization and the direct experience beyond thought of expanded consciousness. As Jameson notes, "money and commerce will have remained episodic, embodied in the decorative ostentation of gold on the one hand or the excitement of the great fairs on the other; but this enclave status of money is precisely what allows More to fantasize its removal from social life in his new Utopian vision" (2007, 16-7), for money does not lead to expanded consciousness.

The Bhagavad-Gita, which contains the essence of the knowledge of consciousness found in Vedic literature, makes a similar distinction in chapter II, verse 45, which describes the state of *turîya* or transcendental consciousness. An illuminative commentary on this verse and on the first six chapters of *The Bhagavad-Gita* is that of Maharishi Mahesh Yogi, who belongs to the tradition of Shankara's Vedānta. (He is best known for his multicultural integration of the Vedantic tradition of meditation with Western popular culture.) Maharishi in *On The Bhagavad-Gita: A New Translation and Commentary*, translates verse 45 in part as, "Be without the three gunas,/O

Arjuna, freed from duality, ever/firm in purity, independent of possessions,/ possessed of the Self" (1969, chapters 1-6, 126). He comments that Arjuna is told "that there are two aspects of life, perishable and imperishable. The perishable is relative existence, and the imperishable is absolute Being. [. . .] Arjuna should bring his attention from the gross planes of experience, through the subtle planes and thus to the subtlest plane of existence; transcending even that subtlest plane [. . .] [and arrive] at the state of pure consciousness" (*Ibid*., 128-29). As long as humans exist on the gross planes of experience, they will never reach utopia. This experience relates to the two kinds of Brahman referred to in the *Maitrī Upanishad*: sound and non-sound," the lower and the higher, quality and qualityless, *saguna* and *nirguna* (Radhakrishnan, *The Principle Upanishads*, 1989, 833). As Jameson states, Plato "insistently distinguished between sheer opinion and philosophical knowledge" (2007, 47-8), which cannot be achieved through the mind alone but requires access to pure consciousness.

These Vedic principles are essential to Sanskrit poetics, a tradition that has its roots in "unknown beginnings" (De, *History of Sanskrit Poetics*, 1960, 321) and extends from its Renaissance in the eighth-century A.C. to 1800. This complex tradition comprises diverse schools of literary criticism, which includes the four influential schools from around 400 to 900 A.D.: those of poetic figures (*alaňkāras*), poetic arrangement (*rīti*), suggestion (*dhvani*) and mood or aesthetic rapture (*rasa*). These schools overlap considerably and range from formalism toward increasing idealism. Indian critics consider historical development as a secondary concern to that of the special quality of poetic integration achieved on the basis of the unity of sound and meaning in language and the experience of expanded states of consciousness. Bhāmaha, the foremost exponent of the theory of *alaṅkāras* or tropes, writes in his Kāvyālaṅkāra (1970), as Tarapada Charkrabharti notes in *Indian Aesthetics and Science of Language*, that the absolute unity of sound and meaning found naturally in language is also a key attribute of poetry (1071, 47). Vamana, a critic of the *rīti* school, also notes the special poetic unity of sound and sense, and distinguishes *alaṅkāras* from gunas, essential qualities such as sweetness and lucidity. De describes in *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Poetics* the guna of *rīti*, or the special arrangement of words in a sentence, as the soul of poetry, and *alaṅkāras* as the body of poetry (1963, 26). Anandavardhana, the great critic of the *dhvani* school and author of the *Dhvanyāloka*, opposed formalist theories and, as noted by critics such as Chakrabharti in his book *Indian Aesthetics*, argued that suggestion more than denotation or connotation is responsible for conveying *rasa* (1971, 66).

One of the greatest works on *rasa* or aesthetic rapture, written by Bharatamuni in the fourth or fifth century, is the *Nātya Shāstra* (1987). G. H. Tarle-

kar explains in *Studies in the Natyasastra* that *rasa* is the relish not of an emotion in real life but of a permanent emotional mode (*sthāyibhāva*) as represented through the imagination of the poet (1991, 56). This permanent emotional mode is necessary for an experience of utopia, unlike the temporary emotion of real life lived without full mental potential. As De says in *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics*, "an ordinary emotion (*bhāva*) may be pleasurable or painful; but a poetic sentiment (*rasa*), transcending the limitation of the personal attitude, is lifted above such pain and pleasure into pure joy, the essence of which is its relish itself" (1963, 13). T. P. Ramachandran observes in *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty* that *śānta-rasa* (*śānta* relates to *śānti* or peace) gives one not only a foretaste of the bliss of *mokşa* [liberation, a necessity for utopia] but also an insight into the nature and source of that bliss" (1979, part 2, 111). Without this insight that takes one away from materialism, how can humanity reach utopia? One needs to be established in the Self to attain utopia, as Indian philosophy indicates. Many works seek to explain the process of the experience of rasa, the relation between *rasa*, *pratibhā* (direct intuition), *sthāyibhāva* (latent emotional modes), and *dhvani* (suggestion). As Ramachandran notes in *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Abhinavagupta, who lived during the Renaissance of Sanskrit poetics, developed a theory of *rasa* which became accepted as the standard and involved the experience of higher consciousness or *turīya* (1979, part 2, 103). As K. C. Pandey writes in *Abhinavagupta: An Historical and Philosophical Study*, Abhinavagupta thought "that the Santa Rasa is the highest of all Rasas because it is concerned with the highest objective of human pursuit and leads to final emancipation," without with humanity would not attain utopia because it would be immersed in materialism (1963, 244). Sanskrit poetics as conceived here follows the tradition of Shankara's Vedānda and Abhinavagupta, both sharing, as Pandey observes, a similar understanding of the nature of language and aesthetic experience (1963, 245, 728-29).

Because an analysis of these schools is beyond the scope of this book, I will limit my discussion of Sanskrit poetics to those principles of unity in language and consciousness necessary for utopia and that illustrate how poststructuralism simultaneously both denies and affirms the experience of expanded consciousness. Although Indian and Western cultures may seems to have little in common, one does not have to be an Indologist or Sansritist to appreciate, in the true sense of multiculturalism, the value of Vedic knowledge for Western literary theory and criticism and for the attainment of utopia. The academic point of this claim is that in spite of the language barrier, poststructuralists and other Western critics should have greater access to the important resources of Sanskrit poetics for their own critical work. The

analytical or discursive significance of Sanskrit poetics for poststructuralism, despite their cultural differences, depends on the subject as a knower, and that the knower can be seen as a function of pure consciousness, which the Sanskrit tradition more than the Western provides a means of understanding that integrates theory and practice, conceptualization and direct experience which underlies utopia.

As the main philosophical tenet of poststructuralism, deconstruction challenges "logocentrism," or "the metaphysics of presence," by reading texts in a way that uncovers the systematic contradictions that result from treating the verbal sign as containing an identity between sound and meaning. Jacques Derrida initially defined deconstruction in opposition to Edmund Husserl's transcendental phenomenology, a science of subjectivity in which the world is seen as a reflection of consciousness, and speech as an expression of absolute meanings that exist separately from language. A form of idealism that explores the world of unchanging essence and pure possibilities, Husserl's phenomenology holds that pure meaning exists first as a pre-verbal idea and then finds expression through the human voice. Speech constitutes an immediate expression of truth, whereas writing is but a secondary representation.

In this logocentric position, deconstruction finds a paradox: namely, that without the objective, linguistic appearance of writing, the ideal purity of a pre-linguistics absolute meaning would fall back into the field of subjectivity—an interior monologue—and the empirical formulation of meaning would never find a lasting historical form, given the ephemeral quality of the human voice. For Derrida the difference of writing "always already" contaminates the very essence of speech, which like writing depends on the linguistic sign as a function of difference for the act of communication. *Différance* precludes not only the possibility of a stable meaning or absolute truth, but also of transcendental consciousness itself. Deconstruction would undermine the notion of "phenomenological silence," the intuitive, pre-verbal self-presence prior to the representational and therefore divisive function of language. The consequences of precluding the transcendental identity of subject and object, sound and meaning, is the endless play of language, or what Derrida in his book *Dissemination* calls dissemination, a freeplay of the signifier that prevents the closure or completion of meaning, which would also prevent utopia (1981). As Jameson notes, "Is there indeed any formalist method for describing the august function of Coleridgean Imagination in Utopian textuality which does not find itself passing through content, and falling back on the various [. . .] Utopian schemes organized around the abolition of money, desire, non-

alienated labor, the liberation of women, etc.?" (2007, 72), which the freeplay of the signifier would undermine.

Deconstructive analysis, then, purports to undermine, expose, undo, or demystify the so-called traditional ideas, authoritative readings, consensus, or referential meaning of a text, whether fiction or nonfiction. The self-referral movement of *différance* replaces the mimetic function of language through which it reflects the world. Yet through a double stance of being both inside and outside of philosophy, Derrida conceives of deconstruction as effecting real changes in the institutional structures of knowledge and power. As he says in an interview, "My central question is: how can philosophy as such appear to itself as other than itself, so that it can interrogate and reflect upon itself in an original manner" (Christopher Norris, *Derrida*, 1987, 26). How can philosophy be itself and simultaneously go beyond itself and thereby transcend conventional meaning?

Even though deconstruction attempts to undermine the metaphysical tradition, privileged readings and the notion of absolute meaning, without which utopia will never be realized, its emphasis on rhetorical play reveals a tendency to break out of the boundaries of an individual or restricted viewpoint and return, as Coward puts it, to "the pure possibility of language" (*Derrida and Indian Philosophy* 1990, 101)—a possibility that Sanskrit poetics describes in terms of the relation between language and pure consciousness (*turīya* or *savikalpa samādhi*). As Robert Magliola writes in *Derrida on the Mend*, deconstruction is "on the verge" of another way of "knowing" (1984, 124). Even though Derrida does not concede to a "knowing" which is not language-bound and logical, deconstruction in practice does not seem to exclude entirely the "beyond knowing" of the transcendental experience—such as that described by Sanskrit poetics, an essential element for utopia.

Derrida has always claimed that deconstruction does not simply valorize rhetorical play and reject the rigor of traditional scholarship and argumentation. In *Of Grammatology*, he refers to the "argument" of his theory and asserts that "I have had to respect classical norms, or at least I have attempted to respect them" (lxxxix). A debate has nevertheless arisen over the compatibility of deconstruction with the ideals of truth and logical accountability that deconstruction attempts to undermine. John Ellis in "What Does Deconstruction Contribute to Theory of Criticism?" argues that deconstruction opposes the univocal by retaining the old meaning of a text and reacting against it, not in order to present something new but rather to focus on the act of deconstruction itself" (*New Literary History* 1988, 259-79). Richard Rorty, in asking "Is Derrida a Transcendental Philosopher?," rejects the claim made by Jonathan Culler that deconstruction integrates the

conflicting goals of rigorous argument and the displacement of philosophical attempts to order and master (*Essays on Heidegger and Others* 1991, 119-28). Rorty argues that because these goals are incompatible, Derrida has no choice but to opt for a new kind of rhetorical play.

In contrast, Christopher Norris, in *What's Wrong with Postmodernism?*, has written in defense of Derrida against those, such as Rorty and Jürgen Habermas, who misread him as confusing literature and theory, "extending the poetic function" of language "far beyond its reach [. . .] discounting those normative constraints upon language that save it from the infinitized 'freeplay' of an open-ended contextualized account" (1990, 58). Norris argues that deconstruction, properly understood, does not "dissolve philosophy into a textual, rhetorical or narrative genre with no distinctive truth-claims whatsoever," but rather constitutes a "'philosophical criticism' [. . .] that deliberately mixes the genres of literature and theory" (*Ibid*. 70). He writes that what Habermas's case against Derrida "cannot countenance is any suggestion that one and the same text might possess both literary value (on account of its fictive, metaphorical or stylistic attributes) and philosophy cogency (by virtue of its power to criticize normative truth-claims)" (*Ibid*., 65). Habermas, he notes, fails to recognize "the extent to which so-called 'ordinary' language is in fact shot through with metaphors, nonce-usages, chance collocations, Freudian parapraxes and other such 'accidental' features that cannot be reduced to any normative account" (*Ibid*., 67). I propose that from the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, which expands on Norris' viewpoint, rhetorical play is not incompatible with rational argumentation but rather forms its complement and even completion, to the extent that it opens the awareness to deeper levels of language and consciousness, but not necessarily to the ultimate level.

In applying the rhetoric/argumentation opposition to a critique of Derrida's *Speech and Phenomena*, J. Claude Evans notes in *Strategies of Deconstruction* that Heidegger's "de-struction" attempts to recover the "original experience" of Being, the "birth certificate" of the underlying concepts of Western ontology (1991, xix). On the one hand, the traditional concepts of Being cannot be discarded, "for they structure the very way we experience the world and Being itself"; on the other hand, we cannot revert to a pure beginning, since "it would always already" be concealed by conceptual understanding (*Ibid*., xix). As Derrida acknowledges in "Structure, Sign, and Play," the conceptual tools of deconstruction are implicated in the very strategies of deconstruction (*Writing and Difference* 1978, 279); or as Evans puts it, "There is no primal experience we can simply turn to, no neutral language, no neutral critical tools" (*Ibid*., xix). That is, the rhetoric of metaphor always plays a role in philosophical investigations.

Unlike Western theory, however, Sanskrit poetics conceives of Being (*savikalpa samādhi* or pure, transcendental consciousness) not as concealed and "pervaded by traditional concepts," but as accessible to experience through a process that integrates a unified presence and language as a system of difference, and particularly the language of tropes, which explains how the highest forms of art can lead to a taste of utopia. As Jameson puts it, "A collective wish-fulfillment, then—the Utopian text—would have to bear the marks of this inner reality principle as well, by which alone it manages to represent its successful achievement" (2007, 84). Sanskrit poetics can thus elucidate how Derrida communicates through a combination of rhetorical freeplay and grammatical argument. What his philosophy, and philosophy in general, cannot express grammatically, its metaphorical style conveys through the effect of *aporia*—the undecidability of a logical impasse. To anticipate my argument, Sanskrit poetics views *aporias* induced by the deconstruction of classical binary concepts (rhetoric/argumentation, speech/writing, nature/culture, etc.) as constituting an experience of the junction point between ordinary waking consciousness (*jagrat chetna*) and transcendental consciousness (*turīya chetna*). Whether or not one consciously transcends "traditional concepts," figural language has the effect of suggesting a realm of experience not accessible through logical discourse alone. Thus even in undermining logocentrism, deconstruction moves by way of linguistic freeplay toward an expanded meaningfulness in which awareness transcends particular concepts and gains a flavor of a state of consciousness, associated with the flavor of utopia, not accounted for even by "logocentrism," not subsumed by logic or the absolute signified defined "logocentrically" as a conceptual closure.

Of the two approaches to gaining knowledge distinguished by the Vedic tradition, conceptualization is a function of ordinary, historical perception, while direct experience is a function of intuitive self-awareness. The former involves object-referral, or the observer knowing the object; and the latter involves self-referral, or the observer curving back on the Self. Both approaches have their basis in *turīya* or transcendental consciousness, in which object-referral and self-referral can be experienced simultaneously as a coexistence of opposites. Object-referral alone, however, cannot lead to a taste of utopia.

While poststructuralism regards human potential as being confined to the three ordinary states of consciousness—waking, sleeping and dreaming—the Vedic tradition, as we have seen, describes the experience of transcending into a fourth (*turīya*) state of consciousness (*chetna*), or withdrawing from all mental, sensory and emotional experience without the loss of awareness. As scholars have noted (particularly Radhakrishnan and C. A. Moore, eds. *A*

Source Book in Indian Philosophy, Max Müller's *The Six Systems of Indian Philosophy*, and Maharishi Mahesh Yogi's *On the Bhagavad-Gita*), Vedic literature defines at least five states of consciousness: 1) deep sleep (*sushupti chetna*); dreaming (*swapn chetna*); 3) waking (*jagrat chetna*); 4) transcendental consciousness (*turīya chetna* or *savikalpa samādhi*—transcendental consciousness with breaks; and 5) cosmic consciousness (*turyateet chetna* or *nirvikalpa samādhi*—the fourth state being without breaks or permanent) (1957, 506-43; 1984, 106-83; 1969, passim). Each state of consciousness, moreover, has its own corresponding physiological style of functioning, as researched by scientists such as David Orme-Johnson and C. T. Haynes (1981, 211-17). This explains why higher states of consciousness are elusive and cannot be achieved, much less sustained, on the basis of conceptuality or thought alone, the basis of dystopia. Maharishi Mahesh Yogi notes that these states "are as different one from another as spectacles of different colors through which the same view looks different. When the same object is cognized in states of consciousness, its values are differently appreciated. Life is appreciated differently at each different level of consciousness," with utopia being available only at the highest level.

In the language theory developed by the fifth-century grammarian Bhartṛhari, ordinary waking and transcendental consciousness provide the experience of different levels of language. The language of ordinary waking consciousness corresponds to that described in Western literary theories. Because spoken language belongs to historical reality bound by space, time and causality, it involves temporal sequence and thus a gap between sound and meaning. As Coward explains in *The Sphota Theory of Language*, the temporal sequence of language that we are all familiar with consists of two aspects: *vaikharī* or outward speech, and *madhyamā* or inward speech or thought. In addition there are two levels of language beyond ordinary experience—*pashyantī* and *parā* (1980, 126-37). These higher levels of language consist of a fusion of sound and meaning without temporal sequence: all phenomenal differentiations disappear and meaning is apprehended as a noumenal whole. Although Bhartṛhari says that *pashyantī* is apprehended in *savikalpa samādhi* (the fourth state or *turīya*), and *parā* in *nirvikalpa samādhi* (the fifth state), a further distinction can be made on the basis of the Rig Veda and Vedanta that *pashyantī* corresponds to the junction point between historical waking consciousness (*jagrat chetna*) and transcendental consciousness (*turīya chetna*), between the relative and the absolute, where transcendental consciousness is enlivened and begins to rise in the impulse toward expression (Maharishi, *Phonology of Creation* 1972, part 2; Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics* 1971, 176). Without the fifth state, utopia would be unapproachable. The logic here is that because *pashyantī* is

apprehended in *savikalpa samādhi*, or temporary *turīya*, the awareness is not stabilized in transcendental consciousness but crisscrosses the junction point between it and historical waking consciousness.

Coward notes that Bhartṛhari did not comment on the highest level of language, *parā*, which is discussed in the *Rig-Ved* along with the other three and mentioned in the *Vṛtti* by Bhartṛhari's commentator Vṛṣabhadeva (Coward, *The Sphota Theory of Language* 1980, 130). As Subramania Iyer points out in his book *Bhartṛhari*, *parā* is considered to be ever present and eternal and belongs to pure consciousness or Brahman (1969, 144-45). As distinguished from pashyantī, the unity of sound and meaning in *parā* is without the impulse toward manifestation. A word spoken or thought in ordinary waking consciousness is only a partial expression of an eternal meaning or transcendental signified. But unlike the deconstructive notion of an absolute conceptual closure, *parā* is a level of infinite possibilities in language that requires at least *turīya* or transcendental consciousness to be experienced. Waking consciousness thus belongs to dystopia while pure consciousness leads to utopia. Because this meaning belongs to the transcendent and is not produced by human utterance, it is not a temporal effect and therefore not perishable. For Shankara, *parā* would correspond to the unity of knower, known and knowledge in *nirvikalpa samādhi*, the permanent experience of *turīya*, without which utopia would never be a reality.

Derrida in "Structure, Sign, and Play" writes that the difference between structuralism and poststructuralism, or deconstruction, is that the former is neutralized by the presence of a center, "that very thing within the structure which while governing the structure, escapes structurality" (*Writing and Difference* 1978, 279). This center is an unacknowledged absolute, though expressed in terms of its various finite manifestations by different theorists. Ostensibly, what Derrida and other poststructuralists attempt to deconstruct is the absolute truth value of any relative manifestation of the absolute rather than the absolute itself, of which they generally have no direct, shareable experience and therefore, strictly speaking, can neither undermine nor legitimatize. Direct experience, moreover, is essential for an experience of utopia. Deconstructionists argue that there is no absolute in the relative, and from this they infer that there is no absolute, that everything is language or difference. From the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, deconstruction is correct insofar that a concept cannot exhaust the thing conceived from the level of historical consciousness, which provides no access to utopia.

For Derrida, presence or wholeness—that is, absolute or shareable meaning—is only an illusory effect of the trace—of the movement of *différance*. Derrida defines the trace as "not a presence but a simulacrum of a presence that dislocates, displaces, and refers beyond itself" (*Ibid*., 156). In

the play of the signifier, the trace consists of the retention of all past signifiers and the protention of all future signifiers inherent in any particular signifier in a chain that infinitely defers the signified. Even though the trace is sometimes accused of being a transcendental signified, in Vedic terms it remains on the *madhyamā* level of language and thus only a temporal concept. The infinity of the chain of signifiers is an infinity of time and space which does not transcend the temporal dimension. The notion of *différance* and the trace are theoretically not privileged as absolute signifieds but rather conceived as ordinary signifiers. Derrida uses these words "under erasure," and says that the "tracing-out of *différance*," or play, remains a silent field beyond structuralist binary oppositions (*Ibid*., 135), beyond the structure of relative existence. In theory he seems to define the trace, *différance*, and the other terms in this series as if they belonged neither to *madhyamā* as the temporal level of language, not to *pashyantī* and *parā* as a transcendental signified, but to a grey zone somewhere in between. This in-between state of language, however, does not open the awareness to *turīya*, and therefore does not lead to utopia.

In *Derrida and Indian Philosophy*, Coward has brought to light important parallels between Derrida's deconstruction and traditional Indian philosophies of language and consciousness, including the two schools of Bhartṛhari and Shankara. Bhartṛhari begins his *Vākyapadīya* with the study of the relation between language and pure consciousness, characterized as the absolute or Brahman. As Coward notes, he conceives of language and consciousness as being coextensive in a field of temporal sequence, and as constituting "the dynamic becoming of reality itself" (148). Shankara, who came a century after Bhartṛhari (though some scholars place him 5000 years ago), has a more inclusive theory of language. One of India's best known philosophers and the founder of the nondual or Advaita School of Vedānta, Shankara for Coward seems to separate language from the real or Brahman (81-98), but in fact his notion of Brahman can be understood as encompassing all aspects of language and indeed the entire field of diversity. Brahman, therefore, underlies everything, as suggested by Ervin Laszlo who claims that "Evidence coming to light from the frontiers of science shows that on a deep level all things in the cosmos are connected with all other things" (2008, 152). This connection also holds true for the human brain; without this connectedness one would be immersed in the material realm and therefore excluded from utopia. As Ervin Laszlo points out, "Evidence coming to light at the frontiers of science shows that on a deep level all things in the cosmos are connected with all other things. This connection [. . .] holds true for human brains" (2008, 152).

Even though drawing on Bhartṛhari, Sanskrit poetics as formulated here follows in the tradition of Shankara's nondual or *Advaita* Vedānta. As Dasgupta says in *A History of Indian Philosophy*, Advaita Vedānta holds "that the ultimate and absolute truth is the self, which is one, though appearing as many in different individuals. The world also as apart from us the individuals has no reality and has no other truth to show than this self. All other events, mental or physical, are but passing appearances, while the only absolute and unchangeable truth underlying them all is the self" (1975, vol. 1, 439). As Shankara states in *Vivekacūdāmani*, "Brahman is plenary, without beginning or end, beyond comprehension, changeless; one only without second. There is no manifold here"; and "Qualityless, without parts, subtle, without change, without blemish, Brahman is one only, not dual" (1988, 439, 441). By incorporating on the basis of Shankara's Vedānta a fuller understanding of the link between language and consciousness, Sanskrit poetics, as I will argue, can exceed Coward in shedding light on the relationship of deconstruction to language, consciousness and meaning. Conceptually deconstruction may move toward infinity and the unity of language, consciousness and meaning; however, it cannot provide direct experience of this unity and therefore, unlike Brahman, cannot lead to *rasa* or a taste of utopia.

Coward asserts that Derrida and the grammarian Bhartṛhari both see language as beginningless, coextensive with consciousness and always present and a priori (*Ibid*., 27-48). Derrida rejects the classical Western view of language in which the voice has an immediate relation to the mind, and the mind is a reflector of the divine logos—the sum total of Platonic forms, or the internal rational principle of nature, language and consciousness. Logocentrism, as defined by Husserl and rejected by Derrida, makes the claim that logic or reason is centered, self-explicating and self-grounding, an absolute external to the play of difference. As is well known, in the classical relationship between the mind and language, speech is primary because it constitutes the inner reflection of logos and thus bears an immediate relation to the absolute or truth. In deconstructing this logocentric Western view of language, Derrida makes writing, as a movement of *différance*, the non-transcendental, non-logocentric origin of language, and thus the origin of speech as well.

Coward explains that Bhartṛhari also sees difference, or the sequencing of time, as the non-logocentric, non-transcendental originary state of language (*Ibid*., 49-80). Derrida's famous statement in *Of Grammatology* that "Il n'y a pas de hors-texte" ("There is nothing outside of the text") (1976, 158) means that no metaphysical "other" lies beyond writing or speech as the cause of language. Bhartṛhari, as Coward points out, would accept this proposition because he identifies language with the absolute or Brahman,

which he defines in terms of *Śabdatattva* or the Word-Principle (1990, 37). As we have seen, Bhartṛhari considers the highest level of language to be *pashyantī*, which he calls *sphota*, a unity of sound, meaning and impulse toward expression. Thus *pashyantī* is *Śabdatattva,* the word whole without manifest sequence but with a driving force toward expression in time and space. From this unity of sound and meaning, which for Bhartṛhari is the highest level of language, the impulse toward expression leads to *madhyamā*, the next ontological level of language characterized by temporal sequence.

Coward explains how the unfolding of language here occurs through kāla, the dynamical principle of temporizing that corresponds to Derrida's notions of *différance* and the trace. As opposed to logocentrism, which posits an absolute self-presence or wholeness of meaning in the form of the transcendental signified, the trace involves a dialectic of time in which the present meaning of a word exists in dynamical tension with its past meaning (retention) and future meaning (protention). When Derrida describes this temporalizing and spatializing of language in terms of play, it is a play not "in the world," which suggests the ability to step outside of play, but rather a play "of the world." Both Derrida and Bhartṛhari conceive of the movement of time or difference as being fundamental, with no transcendental or logocentric reality beyond its sway. As Coward puts it, they conceive of time, "as the sequencing of language, to be its [the real's] basic character and its constituting source" (*Ibid*., 47). But as we shall see, this play of time is confined within the realm of ordinary waking consciousness and does not account for the experience of *parā* or a taste of utopia.

From their diverse perspectives, Bhartṛhari and Derrida have developed elaborate systems of difference to explain how the individual subject and the phenomenal universe are coextensive with the temporal sequence of language. For Coward, both Derrida and Bhartṛhari see "the inherent trace consciousness of language as conditioning all psychic experience from deep sleep to dream to ordinary awareness and even to mystical states (states in which there is a direct supersensuous perception of the meaning-whole or *sphota*)" (*Ibid*., 60). He notes that Derrida finds "the Western experience of an unchanging *logos*, presence, or Self to be the suppression of the experience of difference in the psyche," and that Bhartṛhari rejects Indian schools that "equate the experience of the Self with something external to consciousness and language" (*Ibid*., 61). Both theorists regard the experience of the Self as an experience of the Word-Principle or arche-writing manifested in the play of difference. Just as the sign does not exist in the fullness of an absolute present, so the Self is not present unto itself beyond the boundaries of difference.

But to equate Bhartṛhari and Derrida in terms of difference as Coward does would put Bhartṛhari's idea of the Self more firmly within the realm of ordinary waking consciousness than he might have intended. Derrida, moreover, would not consider the Self to be a "mystical state" even if it were conditioned, as Coward says, by "the inherent trace consciousness of language" (*Ibid*., 60). To deconstruct the Self of its transcendental dimension is to render it a mere self (with a small "s"), not a mystical state but a temporal subject without wholeness, without the totality of a Word-Principle or *sphota*. This relativizing of the subject in deconstruction contradicts the notion of the Word-Principle attributed to Bhartṛhari, who does not dispense with the experience of transcendental consciousness but rather defines it in terms of difference. It thus seems that the notion of difference in deconstruction may be parallel to—as Coward suggests—but is not the same as that in Bhartṛhari.

While Bhartṛhari and Derrida both identify consciousness and language, the latter deconstructs the text, whereas the former follows the Indian tradition of regarding the Veda as a means for *mokṣa* or the realization of Brahman. For Derrida, the deconstruction of logocentrism leads beyond the metaphysical system of binary opposites to a condition defined as the *différance* of the trace. The movement of language involves the unfolding of the trace or arche-writing into speech or text, only to be reversed through deconstruction back to the play of *différance*. What is transcended here is presence as a conceptual stasis, a unity or closure of knowledge, in favor of a mode of action or becoming through which closure is infinitely deferred and knowledge remains open ended. The Vedas, although sacred texts, can be understood as pure knowledge which is structured in consciousness, not in texts, which in Western literary theory don't help humans have a direct experience of the taste of utopia. The Vedas are a means of attaining *mokṣa* (liberation). Moreover, Bhartṛhari considers the science of grammar as a yoga or a means to *mokṣa*, which is the only means to utopia. Since the Veda is a manifestation of the Word-Principle, which involves the science of grammar, grammatology as a science of the Veda is a form of yoga or direct experience. But the *Rig-Ved*, as Coward notes, makes reference not only to *pashyantī* but also to *parā* (Coward, *The Sphota Theory of Language* 1980, 129). Because Bhartṛhari does not deal with parā in describing language as an experience of inner transformation, one can argue that his form of yoga takes the awareness to a state in which the attainment of Brahman through self-referral does not reach the full potential indicated by Vedic literature.

Coward of course recognizes that Derrida and Bhartṛhari have major differences with regard to spiritual attainment. To begin with, Derrida would not accept Bhartṛhari's premise that to understand the meaning of a sentence

involves a flash of illumination (*pratibhā* or *sphota*). Bhartṛhari's illumination provides an experience of the culmination of the sequential manifestation of the Word-Principle in the words of a sentence. Derrida's archetrace, however, does not lead to the experience of a culmination of meaning, at least not conceptually. Rather it leads to the infinite deferral of the absolute signified, to a dissemination of meanings through the movement of *différance*. As Coward explains, "*Pratibhā* is the experience in which the twofold manifestation of the *Śabdatattva*—as language and world, as knower and known—meet. This intuition is neither a purely subjective event nor an intuition of a thing-in-itself. [. . .] It is rather the intrinsic luminocity of the world as a dynamic interrelated whole which is revealed by language" (*Derrida* 1990, 73-4). Derrida would question the idea of wholeness as a closure without remainder, for the movement of "supplementarity"—in which the signifier replaces the center—always adds something new, a surplus, a supplement (Derrida, "Structure, Sign, and Play," 1978, 289). For Derrida, "What happens is always some contamination" (*Acts of Literature,* 1991, 68). Nontheless, in the distinction between direct experience and conceptualization, both Derrida and Bhartṛhari reject a metaphysics that attempts to describe or conceptualize the experience of the interrelationship of language and the world. But unlike Shankara's Vedānta, neither Bhartṛhari nor Derrida in theory provide an experience that encompasses unity and difference, self-referral and object-referral, such that all levels of language and awareness, from the conceptual to the purely intuitive, are experienced simultaneously as a coexistence of opposites.

While Derrida's notion of the relation between language and the real approximates that of Bhartṛhari, it differs sharply from that of Shankara and his nondual or Advaita Vedānta—upon which the tradition of Sanskrit poetics used here is largely based. As mentioned earlier, Derrida claims that "There is nothing outside the text." According to Coward, Shankara claims that the real as Brahman exists over and above language (*Derrida* 1990, 83), a reality revealed only after language comes to silence. Brahman here means sat-chit-ananda—pure being, pure consciousness and pure bliss respectively. In his essay "Edmund Jabès and the Question of the Book," Derrida writes of a God who questions us "not by speaking but by keeping still, by letting silence interrupt his voice and signs" (1978, 67). Derrida and Jabès both seem to agree that language must be silenced for the real to manifest. But for Derrida silence is dynamic, a force inherent in language, whereas for Shankara Brahman is devoid of any impulse toward activity. In Coward's view, Shankara holds that Brahman, "the real, exists separately from language and actions and reveals itself only when language, its actions and questionings are cancelled out" (*Derrida* 1990, 85). Even the Veda in its

expressed form is part of maya (worldly experience or illusion). However, Shankara's notion of Brahman, the silence as pure bliss, has a vital dimension not included in Coward's description, a dimension that leads one to an experience of utopia.

In Coward's view of Shankara's theory, Brahman or the real is said to be separate from the differential structure of language. The notion of difference or materialism constitutes *avidya* or ignorance, and therefore obstructs the real and prevents access to utopia. Derrida would criticize Shankara for apparently choosing one side of the opposition difference/identity instead of maintaining a tension between the two, as figured in the indeterminacy of deconstruction. Coward claims that Shankara and Derrida regard their respective terms identity and difference as pointers to a reality beyond the oppositional structure of language, but that for Shankara the only way out is to transcend language through direct experience or *anubhāva*, whereas for Derrida the only escape is to stay within language on a middle path between its binary opposites (*Ibid*., 88). Yet deconstructive theory favors difference more than Shankara's *advaita* theory favors identity, for in Shankara's definition Brahman does not exclude difference as completely as Coward indicates.

Shankara's notion of language includes *parā* as the fourth and highest level unrecognized by Bhartṛhari. Coward indirectly refers to this level when he says that Derrida, as a typical Westerner, is locked within an existential struggle in the field of difference, whereas Shankara "goes on to the *nirguna* or qualityless level of experience where the existential frustrations of difference that characterize māyā or this world are totally transcended" (*Ibid*., 90). *Pashyantī*, as a unity of sound and form motivated by a dynamical force, corresponds to the juncture between the ordinary waking state (*jagrat chetna*) and transcendental consciousness (*turīya chetna*). But *parā*, as a unity of sound and meaning devoid of an impulse toward expression and therefore beyond qualities, corresponds to transcendental consciousness itself and as such belongs within the realm of Brahman. *Parā* therefore consists of a connectedness of sound and form within Brahman, whereas *pashyantī* consists of such a relation at the juncture between Brahman and *māyā*. Only *parā*, therefore, can lead beyond temporal/spatial relativity toward a taste of utopia.

For Shankara, Brahman does not, simply speaking, transcend *māyā* but rather encompasses all levels of reality, including *parā* and *māyā*, unity and diversity. In his book *Vivekacūdāmani*, Shankara states that "the Supreme Brahman is the real; without a second; compacted of pure intelligence; free from defect; serene; without beginning and end; actionless; of the nature of unremitting bliss; pure; beyond the faculty of reasoning; formless; subtle, without name; immutable; such as effulgence, Brahman shines" (1988, 254).

It would be inaccurate to say that for Shankara language and the real are separate. Brahman, which in Shankara's *advaita* theory, as Swami Prabhavananda points out in *The Spiritual Heritage of India*, is one with the universe, encompasses language in all of its aspects of unity and diversity (1980, 208-25). Even in the unified level of *parā*, diversity can be said to exist in the virtual triad of name, form and relationship.

In *Vivekacūdāmani*, as Candrasekhara Bharati comments, Shankara distinguishes between *savikalpaka* and *nirvikalpaka samādhi* in terms of the "triple distinction" of "knower, known, and knowledge": in *savikalpaka samādhi* (*turīya* as a temporary experience), the "triple distinction [. . .] remains"; but in *nirvikalpaka samādhi* (*turīya* as a permanent experience), the "triple distinction is dissolved so that "the state of mind [is] [. . .] as the lone Brahman. It does not shine separately" (*Vivekacūdāmani* 1988, 254). The "triple distinction" here coalesces into a unity-amidst-diversity, or a coexistence of opposites—a self-referral process that begins even in temporary *turīya*, or *savikalpaka samādhi*. In this transcendental experience of the Self, the knower, known, and knowledge are united, just as for Shankara Brahman and the universe are united. This coexistence thus defines the threefold structure of transcendental consciousness, or what Maharishi calls the *samhita* (collectedness) of *rishi* (knower), *devata* (process of knowing) and *chandas* (known). Here, *samhita* serves to describe the full unity of *turīya*: "The knower, the known, and the process of knowing which connects the knower with the known—when these three aspects of knowledge are seated one within the other, that is called *samhita*" (Maharishi, *Life Supported by Natural Law*, 1986, 26-7). In *parā*, then, language is a unity of the different values of sound, meaning and relationship experienced through the self-referral unity of knower, known and knowledge.

Brahman, one with the universe while itself remaining untouched by opposite values, contains both unity and diversity at every point. As Coward notes, Shankara would find Derrida's description of language and the real to correct for *saguna* or *māyā*, the lower level of reality, and Derrida in turn would say that the *saguna* level encompasses our "whole" experience of the real (Coward, *Derrida* 1990, 90)—without remained or surplus, if anything could possibly be without remainder in deconstruction. Although Derrida puts all deconstructive activity above stasis or presence, from Shankara's nondual perspective all action depends on thought, and thought has its basis in pure consciousness or *parā*. Deconstruction undermines the transcendental signified as a conceptual closure and thereby unmasks totalizations based on logic or reason. As an absolute meaning, however, *parā* does not constitute a conceptual closure but rather an unbounded experience of pure knowledge as a coexistence of opposites beyond the confines of the rational intellect. *Parā*,

therefore, does not fit under the "logocentric" conception of the transcendental signified and is essential for the experience of utopia.

In terms of Self realization, Shankara finds that Vedic literature contains statements dealing with the knowledge of Brahman or the Self. These Upanishadic statements or *mahāvākyas* (for example, the *neti*, *neti*—not this, not that—sentences of the negative way) are comprehensible by anyone of the verge of transcending difference through *anubhāva* or the direct experience of Brahman. For Derrida, as we have seen, deconstruction is the middle way that provides the force leading to the manifestation of the self—a dynamic process of becoming, of deconstructing the illusion of stasis or presence and thereby engaging in moral action. Although Shankara, as Coward observes, may seem suspicious of language in his desire to transcend all speech—even the *mahāvākyas*—into *mokṣa*, the very nature of Self-realization constitutes a coexistence of opposites in the form of *parā*, that level of language experienced not conceptually but through *anubhāva* or direct intuition. This experience constitutes *Samhita* or self-referral consciousness, the togetherness of three-in-one that is the seed value of all diversity. Whereas Derrida emphasizes play within the field of difference, Shankara integrates unity and difference through a level of language and consciousness that remains untouched by space, time and causality, yet which contains these qualities in virtual form in the nonmanifest dimension of Brahman. In terms of Sanskrit poetics, then, the true transcendental signified as *parā* consists of an unbounded conceptualization subsumed by direct experience, the basis for utopia.

Although deconstruction in theory purports to undermine logocentrism with a notion of difference similar to that of Bhartṛhari, in practice it achieves an effect closer to the experience described in Shankara's *Advaita* Vedānta, namely, of transcending the intellect though a form of direct experience. Derrida deconstructs the reality of the transcendent from the perspective of *madhyamā* and historical consciousness, and yet his theory of grammatology implements a mechanics of integration between the knower, known, and process of knowing similar to that of the coexistence of opposites in *turīya*, as well as *pashyantī* and *parā*. However, deconstruction comes close but doesn't reach the level of *turīya* necessary for a direct experience of utopia.

Even though Derrida and Bhartṛhari conceive of the real and language, including *pashyantī*, as being one and the same, *pashyantī* is a level of language that borders on two dimensions, both of which contribute to its makeup: refined ordinary waking consciousness (*jagrat chetna*), which determines the force of manifestation; and transcendental consciousness (*turīya chetna*), which determines the nonsequenced unity of sound and meaning. Although in theory Derrida rejects the latter, in practice decon-

struction expands the intellect almost to the point of transcendence so that paradoxically as taste of *pashyantī* is almost attained. That is, the rhetorical freeplay of deconstruction, by extending the meaning of a word or sentence toward indeterminacy, has the effect of expanding the reader's awareness to the extreme limit of the mind's powers of rational comprehension. In this expanded state the awareness reaches a point of transcending the intellect, and the knower can either resist this expansion or remain with the limits of rational logic, or take it as it comes and move toward the threshold of unbounded awareness. These alternatives correspond to two kinds of infinity: that of dissemination, of unlimited extension within space, time and causality; and that of *turīya* and *pashyantī*, of transcending space, time and causality. The first type is exemplified in the work of Mark Taylor, who applies deconstruction to the Western theological tradition.

In *Erring: A Postmodern A/theology*, Taylor demonstrates a conceptual infinity that nevertheless remains with the field of difference. By subverting the hierarchical system of binary opposites that characterize theological concepts, Taylor proposes a postmodern a/theology that would "create a new opening for the religious imagination" (1984, 11). As Taylor argues, if Jesus, being identified as word, is read as writing, then the "writing of God repeatedly appears as the unending dissemination of the word" (*Ibid*., 15). This play of the word he calls the erring of a/theology, the "eccentricity" of which leads to carnival as opposed to the transcendental signified of logocentrism: "In the absence of transcendence, interiority and depth give way to a labyrinthian play of surfaces: (*Ibid*., 15-6). The unboundedness of the erring word subverts the closed system associated with the transcendental signified, and thus opens the awareness to the "infinite interrelationship of interpretations" (*Ibid*., 16), to the "unending erring of scripture [. . .] [as] the eternal play of the divine milieu" (*Ibid*., 182). Thus, while apparently remaining within temporality, the "eternal play" of a/theology stretches the boundaries of conceptualization through interpretation. In a similar vein, Susan Handelman in *The Slayers of Moses* says that Derrida, through interpretation and dissemination, hopes "to redeem [Judaic] Scripture from the abuses it has suffered at the hands of Greeks and Christians" (1982, 177). She concludes that "the rebellious, profaning, heretical forces [. . .] have become part of the holy ritual itself, through interpretation" (*Ibid*., 223).

The expansion of the intellect through deconstruction leads, then, if not to the transcendent, at least to the limits of rationality at the door of transcending. The remainder of any expression or structure responsible for the experience of "aporia"—the residue which is not only unsaid but also unsayable—is caught in the last lines of Wallace Stevens' poem "The Snow Man": "For this listener, who listens in the snow,/And, nothing himself,

beholds/Nothing that is not there and the nothing that is" (*The Collected Poems* 1982, 9).

Stevens' nothingness, in the negative expression of *neti*, *neti* (not this, not that), comprises a logical impasse that Sanskrit poetics can recuperate through a combination of theory and practice that provides a means for the direct experience of transcendental consciousness and thus *pashyantī* and *parā*. Through the process of becoming "nothing himself," or transcending the emptiness of the ordinary waking state, the "listener" can behold the fullness that intimates pure consciousness and therefore access utopia. For deconstruction, what escapes language is the transcendental signified. But for Sanskrit poetics, the infinitely deferred transcendental signified of deconstruction is only an object of knowledge that is not integrated with the knower and the process of knowing; it remains caught in the temporal sequence of *madhyamā* and has not been integrated in *pashyantī* as part of a nonsequential coexistence of opposites. In the experience of pure consciousness, the knower, the known and the process of knowing are integrated in a fullness with no remainder, the coexistence of unity and diversity, Brahman and *māyā*—the "[n]othing that is not there and the nothing that it,"—even if this fullness remains unsaid, the silence of pure awareness knows itself. In terms of the experience of literature, the fullness available in *pashyantī* and *parā* is absent (nothing) in *madhyamā* and *vaikharī* without the experience of expanded awareness. And yet *pashyantī*, which integrates unity and diversity on the level of the finest intellect, can even be approached through the praxis of deconstruction, but not actually reached.

In an early work, *Edmund Husserl's Origin of Geometry*, Derrida argues that because the diverse function of language undermines the immediacy of a self-present identity, the "Difference would be transcendental" (1978, 153). In looking for the ground of transcendental consciousness, Derrida defines difference itself as a transcendental phenomenon. Because the trace or the movement of *différance* is older and more originary than unification, Derrida offers it as a form of absolute. Here he approaches Shankara's nondual definition of Brahman, nondual because Brahman is the omnipresent region where singularity and diversity coexist. In his later *Speech and Phenomena*, however, Derrida decides, as Peter Dews notices in *Logics of Disintegration*, that this formulation is incoherent (1987, 19). Here he speaks of *différance* as a "primordial nonself-presence" ("Writing and Difference" 1978, 81). He asserts that the movement of *différance* does not occur within the transcendental subject, or even tangentially to it as indicated by Bhartṛhari; rather *différance* as a non-transcendental, non-originary source of meaning paradoxically almost produces the transcendental subject.

Derrida claims in *Of Grammatology* that "What can look at itself is not one; and the law of addition of the origin to its representation, of the thing to its image, is that one plus one makes at least three" (1976, 36). In terms of Sanskrit poetics, however, the difference ascribed to self-presence is not an impurity but rather the essence of its self-interacting dynamism. Indeed, the attributes of *différance*—the movement of differing and deferring—can be said to pre-exist within *Samhita* as the unmanifest unity of three-in-one, the seed value of all diversity. Difference, which Derrida attributes to the expressed values of the "living present," resembles the unexpressed or timeless "presence" of pure intelligence, or pure consciousness, where the three elements of knower, known and knowledge interact among themselves in a state of balance. Difference thus almost inheres in the very unity of sound and meaning ascribed to *pashyantī* and *parā*, where the words of a sentence are experienced as a meaning-whole through the unity of *turīya* or transcendental consciousness. The practice of deconstruction expands the reader's awareness toward this wholeness through the movement of *différance*, which takes the awareness from the inscribed trace (or writing) and the spoken word to their common basis in arch-writing, the nonlogocentric arch-gram that Coward compares to *pashyantī* as a sequencing of time. As a result, deconstruction inadvertently suggests in practice what it cannot verify in theory based solely on the *saguna* level of *madhyamā* or temporal speech.

Yet given his theoretical stance, Derrida has no choice but to deconstruct the transcendental signified and subject. Like the German idealist philosophers, Derrida rejects the reflection model of consciousness in which the subject knows itself as an object through the process of self-referral, inasmuch as the implication that the subject pre-exists reflection, as Dews notes in *Logics of Disintegration*, is a contradiction and leads finally to an infinite regress (1987, 21, 29). The German idealist J. G. Fichte describes this infinite regress as the need for the subject in the subject-object relation to be the object of a higher subject, which in turn would be the object of a still higher subject, and so on. The move here seems to be away from unity toward increasing diversity—a function that the Vedic tradition terms the mistake of the intellect or *pragya parad*.

Fichte attempts to overcome this difficulty with the theory of the self as "positing" itself, as emerging absolutely into a relation with itself, yet the difficulty remains in reconciling the contradiction of the simultaneity of a self-present identity and the distinction of knower, known and process of knowing. Given the nonconceptual nature of this "intellectual intuition," Fichte rightly says in "First Introduction to the Science of Knowledge" that "Everyone must discover it immediately in himself, or he will never make its acquaintance" (1982, 38). He points out that in order to know this state you

have to experience it, but unlike the Vedic tradition, Western philosophy does not offer a direct means to this experience and thus no access to utopia.

Moreover, poststructuralist psychoanalytic criticism also attempts to subvert the unity of the self, as exemplified in the famous debate between Derrida and Jacques Lacan now collected in *The Purloined Poe*, edited by Muller and Richardson. On the basis of his claim in *The Four Fundamental Concepts of Psychoanalysis* that "the unconscious is structured like a language" (1979, 20), Lacan argues that the conscious self is subverted by the unconscious mind just as the signified is displaced by a chain of signifiers. In his "Seminar on 'The Purloined Letter,'" Lacan decenters Edgar Allan Poe's personified subjects by show how they are dispersed and fragmented, constituted by the "symbolic order" (*The Purloined Poe* 1988, 83-98). In "The Purveyor of Truth," however, Derrida critiques Lacan's method of being logocentric because it reduces the signifier of the purloined letter to a transcendental signified, namely that of castration and the absent phallus, rather than taking into account the fictional element of Poe's story as a dynamic process or movement of difference: "[Lacan's] Seminar never takes into account the very determined involvement of the narrator in the narration" (*The Purloined Poe*, 1988, 210). Extending this debate in "The Frame of Reference: Poe, Lacan, Derrida," Barbara Johnson critiques Derrida for using a logocentric method like the one he faults in Lacan, namely of designating the frame of Literature as the transcendental signified of the story (*The Purloined Poe* 1988, 228-30). As argued here, however, the poststructuralist notion of language and consciousness as a field of difference is only half the picture. In Lacan's claim that "the unconscious is structured like a language," the poststructuralist anxiety of the decentered subject results not from language itself, but rather from the experience of language on the level of *madhyamā*, with a temporal gap between sound and meaning, instead of on the level of *pashyantī* and *parā*. Lacan thus describes an anxiety that accrues from a conceptual process of self-reflection in the field of difference. But as deconstruction reveals, the subject attempting to find fulfillment in the temporal field of language and consciousness is always vulnerable to the pitfalls of logocentrism.

In terms of Advaita Vedānta, the duality of subject and object mind and body, sound and meaning is a mere notion of the intellect. Vedānta, as Dasgupta explains in *A History of Indian Philosophy*, holds that "At once he [an individual] becomes the truth itself, which is at once identical with pure bliss and pure intelligence, all ordinary notions and cognitions of diversity and of the many cease; there is not duality [. . .] the vast illusion of this world process is extinct to him, and he shines forth as the one, the truth, the Brahman" (1975, 47-75). As understood through Sanskrit poetics, Shankara's

definition of *parā* not only subsumes the special relation of *pashyantī* between the temporal and the nontemporal, it also includes a unity of singularity and diversity within the absolute itself. The one reality is Brahman or wholeness, which is accessible by transcending the intellect through *turīya* and experiencing the unity of knower, known and knowledge. The key significance of Sanskrit poetics is that it complements deconstruction by encompassing difference and its virtual dynamism with the field of unity itself.

Whether in language, consciousness or the material world, then, the unity of self-presence already encompasses an unmanifest spatial/temporalizing movement of *différance* that characterizes the deconstructive model. The differential structure of the ordinary waking state is a quantification of the self-referral connectedness of the knower, known and knowledge of the transcendental state. From a Vedic perspective, the apparent contradiction of this differential unity is an illusion of ordinary waking consciousness caused by the absence of direct experience of pure consciousness, the field of unity-amidst-diversity.

As I have argued here, deconstructive free-play, as a rhetorical or metaphorical experience of language in the ordinary waking state, not only uncovers the sedimentation of signifiers on the level of *madhyamā*; it also expands the reader's awareness through a spontaneous abstraction of thought toward an unbounded state that verges on but does not reach what Vedic literature calls pure awareness. One of the advantages of deconstruction is that without the textual movement of *différance* through which meaning expands to become a trace of all past and future signifiers, the reader's awareness in the ordinary waking state may become fixed on a signified determined by his or her immediate historical context. The reader may be led to believe that the bond between the signifier and the signified is natural when in fact it is still motivated by convention or politics.

In the deconstructive mode of self-referral, then, the play of the signifier infinitely defers meaning in *madhyamā*, rendering the text increasingly abstract, and thus in effect inadvertently pushing the reader's awareness in the direction of *pashyantī* and *parā*, without actually reaching the goal. The centrifugal self-referral of the text that pushes toward a general meaningfulness produces a corresponding centripetal self-referral experience within the reader that pulls toward the Self, without allowing him or her to actually experience it directly. This reciprocal self-referral of the reader and the text results in a meaning that may nearly render a taste (or *rasa*) of an absolute signified. The mutual self-interaction between the unboundedness of text and reader collapses the opposition between reference and self-referral, between objective and subjective angles of textual meaning. As a product of the

connectedness of knower, knowing and known, meaning is structured in consciousness, whether it be the self-referral of *turīya* or the object-referral of ordinary waking consciousness. That is, even the apparently mimetic or referential status of language is nearly experienced in terms of the knower. Both the real-as-referent (or thing) and the transcendental signified turn out to be the fluctuations of consciousness.

For Sanskrit poetics, the absolute signified is experienced not only conceptually as a sound or image as in deconstruction, but also acquires in *pashyantī* polysensory characteristics through which it is simultaneously heard, visualized, felt, tasted, and so forth. But the explain these experiences would require a discussion of the "Sidhis" (perfection of mind-body coordination) of Patanjali's Yoga Sutras (*The Science of Yoga* 1961, 272-73), which is beyond the scope of the present work. Although deconstruction would subvert the Vedas by conceptualizing difference, Vedic literature holds that the human nervous system, when developed fully enough to directly experience a coexistence of opposites, can function on the level of *Jyotish mati pragya*, "all knowing awareness." This totality of awareness from which everything can be known has been found compatible with recent theories of Western medicine by physicians such as Deepak Chopra (*Quantum Healing* 1989, 180-87; *Unconditional Life* 1991, 236). In Shankara's Vedānta, moreover, transcendental consciousness (the subject) has the potential to become fully integrated with empirical reality (the object), a process that culminates in unity beginning in the fourth and fifth states of consciousness (*turīya* and *turyateet chetna*).

To conclude, Shankara's *Advaita* Vedānta shows that Brahman as transcendental consciousness is coextensive with language s a field of difference. Derrida, however, fails to appreciate that the transcendental signified as an objectifiable meaning does not have to be separate from language, that language as difference exists not only on the temporal levels of vaikharī and madhyamā but also on pashyantī and parā, and that difference can indeed lead toward the transcendental as he tentatively asserted in *Edmund Husserl's Origin of Geometry* and later retracted.

Nevertheless, for Derrida, the infinite nature of meaning in *madhyamā* does not imply that "anything goes," but rather that meaning is determined by its context, beyond which it cannot exist. As he says in "Signature Event Context," "Every sign [. . .] can be cited. [. . .] This does not imply that the mark is valid outside of a context, but on the contrary that there are only contexts without any center or absolute anchoring" (*Glyph I* 1977, 185-86). Meaning is part of an interweaving context of language, authorial intention, reader response, culture and phenomenal world. Derrida's "absolute illimitable" contexts thus appear to have their basis in a single, underlying

reality—the play of *différance*. In his notions of *différance*, arche-writing and the trace, Derrida has still not surrendered the "idea of the first." This origin is analogous to the creative dynamism of pure consciousness, which does not generate diversity but is itself diversity. Moreover, *différance* leads to a temporal connectedness of all meaning in *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* that parallels the nontemporal connectedness of meaning in *pashyantī* and *parā*.

Meaning, therefore, belongs both to the "absolutely illimitable" contexts of temporality and to the nontemporal cosmic contexts of pure consciousness. As an all pervading coexistence of unity and diversity, this cosmic context is not a center in the logocentric sense. The fact that meaning for Derrida is both determined (not anything goes) and indeterminate seems to result from the unity-amidst-diversity of the cosmic context, that is, from the two aspects of knowledge or the real referred to in the *Upanishads* and *The Bhagavad-Gita*: *nirguna*, the unbounded, unmanifest yet dynamical aspect of self-interactions in *turīya*; and *saguna*, the manifest aspect of quantified expressions. The cosmic context of the real thus endows the sing with two aspects: one unmanifest and silent (*pashyantī* and *parā*), and one lively and sensible (*vaikharī* and *madhyamā*). Abhinavagupta argues, as Pandey observes (*Abhinavagupta* 1963, 728-32), that silent or suggested meaning can be glimpsed through literature as the mind expands toward the experience of pure consciousness. Because for Sanskrit poetics all language, including rational argumentation, consists of a latent unity of sound and meaning, the special feature of literary language, as Chakrabarti notes in *Indian Aesthetics and Science of Language*, is the emphasis given to unity through other figures of speech (1971, 47-75). The play of *différance* has the effect coming close to enhancing the connectedness of language and consciousness, primarily on the *saguna* dimension, but with a differential force that moves the awareness in the direction of the unmanifest difference of *nirguna*.

In the self-referral experience of the deconstructive model more than in other non-Vedic critical approaches, the observer moves in the direction of transcending boundaries toward a field of coexistence. But the movement of différance is a function of the ordinary waking intellect and therefore cannot provide a systematic, effortless experience of transcendental consciousness. Yogic meditation, in contrast, is designed specifically to provide this direct experience and thus access to utopia. From both viewpoints, however, the self-interaction between knower and known, reader and text results ultimately in meaning becoming a reflection of the knower's awareness. When the mind approaches the transcendental dimension, the coexistence of knower and know increasingly integrates the opposite values of metaphorical attributes and philosophical cogency, rhetoric and argumentation.

Chapter Two

Utopia and Unity in Sanskrit Poetics

In contrast to Saussurean semiology, which holds that "in language there are only differences without positive terms (Saussure, *Course in General Linguistics* 1986, 118), and to French theories of poststructuralism, which undermine the unity and presence of meaning and the individual self, including utopia, what distinguishes the Vedic theory of language is the principle of a natural unity of name and form, sound and meaning—as discussed in chapter one. Unlike the rational approach of Western philosophy, Vedic philosophy distinguishes two types of knowledge: conceptual and experiential. The principle of unity in language is thus derived not conceptually but through direct experience of higher states of consciousness. It bears emphasizing that Sanskrit poetics can be properly understood only in terms of the interrelation between Vedic language theory and the philosophy of yoga (union), that is, between unity of sound and meaning and the experience of *turīya*, the fourth state of pure, transcendental consciousness. In the absence of yoga, or direct, intuitive experience of *turīya*, poststructuralist thought has led blithely to the decentering and fragmentation of the subject. In the history of Western metaphysics, the classical subject, once held to be an object of intuitive self-presence, has become a mere article of faith. It is now stigmatized as being a tool for ideological hegemony and social oppression. Similarly, without the experience of transcendental consciousness or *savikalpa samādhi*, Sanskrit poetics would itself be no more than a collection of definitions, prescriptions and classifications. This chapter will investigate the relationship between pure consciousness and the key principles of Vedic language theory and Sanskrit poetics. Extending the argument of the first chapter, I will identify and re-evaluate the experience of unity in language, consciousness and meaning in the face of the postmodernist distortion and misappropriation of that experience, which would undermine the experience of utopia. Jameson quotes Freud, stating that "whoever understands the human mind knows that hardly anything is harder for man

than to give up a pleasure which he has once experienced" (2007, 45), referring here to material pleasures.

Although Saussurean semiology revolutionized linguistics by studying language itself, Vedic language theory goes a step farther by studying language both in itself, and in terms of its various manifestations at different levels of consciousness. Saussure's early theory of language as a system of differences and the later semiotics of the American philosopher Charles Sanders Peirce and Charles Morris provide an underlying theme for the disparate theories of structuralism and poststructuralism. According to Saussure's influential though misleading premise, there is no natural bond between sign and referent, or within a sign between sound and concept. Saussure further broke with tradition by dropping the "diachronic," historical method of research for the "synchronic," atemporal method of studying the structure of language at a given period of time—a method which led Terry Eagleton in *Literary Theory: An Introduction* to condemn structuralism as "hair-raisingly unhistorical" (1983, 109). As part of this approach, Saussure distinguished between the diachronic speech utterance of the individual (*parole*) and the synchronic system of rules governing speech in a particular language (*langue*). Structuralism, as Christopher Norris notes in *Deconstruction: Theory and Practice*, "took over from Saussure the idea that all cultural systems—not only language—could be studied from a 'synchronic' viewpoint which would bring out their various related levels of signifying activity" (2002, 25). As is well āknown, however, Derrida's poststructuralism soon undermined this opposition by showing how the meaning of any given synchronic moment or structure is infinitely deferred across the diachronic plane.

Vedic language theory takes an altogether different approach by positing a correspondence between the different levels of language and consciousness. It conceives of the subject and object of knowledge as forming an integrated whole that cannot be separated without falsification and misrepresentation. This approach takes into account the full diachronic and synchronic range of both subject and object. According to the Rig-Veda, as quoted by Coward in *The Sphota Theory of Language*, language or *vāk* consists of four levels which correspond to different levels of consciousness and which range from the spoken word to the subtlest form of thought in pure awareness (1980, 128-9), the only level that can lead to utopia. In order of increasing unity of sound and meaning, or name and form, these levels, as discussed in chapter one, are *vaikharī*, *madhyamā*, *pashyantī* and *parā*. In terms of Saussurean semiology, the first two levels correspond to the general field of *parole* and *langue*, whereas the thirds resembles Husserl's notion of a pure language that expresses consciousness. As defined by the grammarian-philosopher

Bhartṛhari, as noted by Iyer in his book *Bhartṛhari*, *vaikharī vāk* or outward speech is the most fully expressed temporal sequence of language and consists of a gap between sound and meaning (1969, 98-146; Coward 1980, 126-37). *Madhyamā vāk* or inward speech is associated with the mind or intellect, and like *vaikharī* consists of a distinction between word and meaning, but as an inner thought the temporal sequence is less pronounced. These two levels of language comprise historical meaning in which the subject (knower) is separated from the object (known) by a gap in time and space that must be bridged (the process of knowing)—although at these levels of language the bridge is never complete and does not lead to utopia.

Pashyantī vāk, the next innermost stage, consists of the word essence as a noumenal whole; it is without the temporal sequence and without the gap between word and meaning. This level of language resembles the phenomenologists such as Edmund Husserl and later the Geneva Schools of critics (J. Hillis Miller, Georges Poulet, and Jean Starobinski) who tried to fathom the essence of a writer's consciousness and language through its appearance in the critic's consciousness (Miller, *Poets of Reality* 1965). Because at this level of direct intuition meaning transcends the dependency on phenomenolization, it cannot be analyzed into parts as an ordinary expression. But the notion of an absolute unity of sound and meaning here does not mean that the two are inseparable in an ordinary sense. That is, the meaning or transcendental signified of *pashyantī* differs from the notion of a transcendental signified in *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*. A transcendental signified in *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* involves a conceptual closure in the sense undermined by deconstruction: the bond between the signifier and signified here forms a temporal stasis that excludes the unbounded possibility of the word's signifying potential. In the case of *pashyantī*, however, the transcendental signified is perceived not conceptually, but as a direct and open experience of unbounded wholeness that leads to utopia. Jameson notes that according to Plato, "the realm of Ideas and of some impersonal 'knowledge'" (2007, 48) can lead to utopia, not a limited personal idea.

Moreover, whereas *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* correspond to ordinary waking consciousness, *pashyantī* and *parā* correspond to different aspects of transcendental consciousness. In their attempt to describe how the underlying essence of a writer's language appeared to a critic's consciousness, phenomenologists and the later reader-response critics conceived a theory of language similar to that developed in Sanskrit poetics, but they fell short of fully appreciating how language changes in different states of consciousness. For Husserl, as Frank Lentricchia notes in *After the New Criticism*, meaning predates language such that knowledge operates within a pre-understanding (1980, 67-9). He tried to imagine a language that purely expressed con-

sciousness, but this language, in the wake of the linguistic revolution from Saussure and Wittgenstein to contemporary theorists, was found to be solipsistic. Meaning is now generally perceived not as something expressed or reflected in language, but as a product of language. For Sanskrit or Vedic phenomenology, however, to experience the underlying essence of a writer's language is to experience language in its unified phase of *pashyantī*. At this level the bond between signifier and signified is highly motivated or natural, and is experienced through *turīya*. It is unlike *vaikharī* or *madhyamā* experienced in the ordinary waking state where sound and meaning are separated by a spatial/temporal gap. *Pashyantī* is thus exempt from the distortion of freeplay or the movement of *différance* and leads to an experience of utopia.

Parā vāk, the highest level of language, consists of the same unity of sound and meaning found in *pashyantī*, but without the tendency toward expression. One might be tempted to say that *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* are diachronic because they involve temporal sequence, and the *pashyantī* and *parā* are synchronic because they transcend time and space. But in fact each level of language inheres in the other three in latent form. Like post-structuralism, Sanskrit poetics turns the synchronic/diachronic polarity into a coexistence of opposites, but it does so in a way that includes the transcendental.

Whereas *pashyantī* corresponds to *turīya*, known also as *savikalpa samādhi* or temporary transcendental consciousness, *parā* corresponds to *nirvikalpa samādhi* or permanent transcendental consciousness, known also as cosmic consciousness as noted by Chakrabarti in *Indian Aesthetics and Science of Language* (Part 2, 1971, 126). As defined in terms of Shankara's *Advaita* or nondual Vedānta, *pashyantī* belongs particularly to the juncture between the ordinary waking state and transcendental consciousness, since in *savikalpa samādhi* transcendental consciousness is not stabilized or permanent. Although each level of language contains within it the other levels in virtual form—including the complete unity of sound and meaning—a language user can fully appreciate this wholeness only from the level of pure consciousness, which allows for the direct perception of the *pashyantī* and *parā* levels of language as well as the direct experience of utopia. The unity of sound and meaning in *parā* is called *namarupa* (the unity of name and form), and is experienced on the level of *ritam bhara pragya*, "that awareness which knows only truth." Vedic language theory conceives of the first impulse of any sound emerging from parā through pashyantī into manifest expression as simultaneously constituting the first impulse of that sound's corresponding form in the manifestation of the physical universe (*ibid*., 125).

On the one hand, then, Vedic language theory and Sanskrit poetics hold that the natural bond between word and meaning, and more specifically

between signifier and transcendental signified, applies *within* each individual language, beginning with Sanskrit in which the bond is said to be the most complete. On the other hand, Saussure's notion of the arbitrary nature of the sign still applies *across* separate languages, but with the following qualifications. While the words *ashvah*, *cheval*, and horse are signifiers that mean HORSE in Sanskrit, French, and English respectively, this arbitrariness of the sign across languages applies only to the *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* levels, that is, to outward and inward speech. Within each language individually the signifier can still be experienced through pure consciousness on the *pashyantī* and *parā* levels, where the signifier corresponds to a transcendental signified, defined not as a conceptual closure but as an openness to the pure possibility of the word's signifying potential. From the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, horse and *cheval* as signifiers, though arbitrary in *vaikharī*, will lead to the same transcendental signified in *parā*. Some Sanskritist even argue that if the Sanskrit sounds can be said to be primordial, then at the level of *parā* the sound image of HORSE in any language would be the same as the sound image of *ashvah*. In any case, Saussure was right to say that the sign is arbitrary insofar that the transcendental signified is not available in *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* in the ordinary state of waking consciousness.

For Sanskrit poetics, as we shall see, literary language functions (like ordinary language to a lesser extent) by taking the awareness of the listener inward toward the revelatory states experienced by the speaker. Ramachandran asserts in the *Indian Philosophy of Beauty* that in various degrees all great literature leads the audience to a taste of *mokşa*, the bliss of Self realization or the liberation from desire essential for experiencing utopia (1979, Part 2, 109-11). In explaining *mokşa*, *The Bhagavad-Gita* organizes the human faculties according to six levels: the senses, mind, intellect, feeling, ego and Self or transcendental pure consciousness (Maharishi, *On The Bhagavad-Git*, 1969, chapter 3, verse 43, 242; and chapter 4, verse 38, 315). Even though all levels of the mind, from the senses to the Self, inhere within each level of language, access to *pashyantī* and *parā* requires the experience of *turīya* or the Self, the essential component for a direct experience of utopia. Poststructuralists reject the correspondence theory of language because they usually operate from ordinary historical consciousness, which provides no access to the unity of sound and meaning in *pashyantī* and *parā*. But as Sanskrit poetics indicates, the more an author creates from pure consciousness or the Self, the more he or she would integrate the absolute and historical levels of meaning. The literary work would be infused with greater wholeness, defined not as a closure but an openness to the unbounded potential of meaning, and as such be better able to expand the reader's awareness toward the experience of *mokşa* and utopia.

Bhartṛhari designates the eternal word essence or unity by the term *sphota*, derived from the Sanskrit word *sphut*, "to burst forth," as in illumination or sudden insight (Coward, *Sphota* 1980, 10). He defines *sphota* as having two characteristics: that of being revealed by parts such as the letters, the word, and the sentence; and that of being a total, indivisible content. Each sound of a word's letters or syllables serves to express the totality of the word essence, with the qualitative difference that succeeding sounds affect the revelation of the word essence by making it deeper and more complete. The most significant experience of meaning, which is called *Vākyasphota*, occurs through the direct perception of the total sentence or proposition as a whole idea (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics* 1971, 155). This intuitive understanding of the sentence constitutes an experience of the transcendental signified. But as Coward explains, the *sphota* does not end with the sentence. It may be extended according to a monistic hierarchy in which the sentence is an "unreal abstraction" of the paragraph, and the paragraph in turn is not the ultimate unity but an unread abstraction of the chapter of the book, and the book a part of a larger context, and so forth (*Sphota* 1980. 119-20). These parts or differences relate to an underlying identity, the indivisible and eternal principle of *pashyantī* (since Bhartṛhari does not consider *parā*), in which the unity of sound and meaning is identified with Brahman as the ultimate reality necessary for experiencing utopia. This unity of the absolute word, consciousness and reality is called *Śabda Brahman* (Coward, *Sphota* 1980, 119-20).

Unlike Bhartṛhari, who regards language and the real as comprising a field of differential dynamism like Derrida, Shankara regards Brahman as a field of absolute unity or Being, the only way through which one can reach utopia. But as noted in chapter one, Shankara's definition of Brahman also includes language, firstly in the form of *parā*, which constitutes an absolute unity of sound and meaning, and secondly in the form of the other three levels of language insofar that Brahman for Shankara is all-inclusive, encompassing both unity and difference, *turīya* and *māyā*.

As a result of Shankara's nondual theory of language and the real, Sanskrit poetics holds that language does not necessarily reflect the ordinary sensory aspect of the physical universe. Because meaning is intellectual, poetic expressions have a meaning-existence independently of their material validity on the empirical plane. The distinction between the intellectual and the material is arbitrary to begin with in terms of both Indian ontology, which posits a metaphysical basis to the phenomenal world, and Shankara's nondual Vedanta, which posits a unity of language and reality. I mention this distinction only to highlight the transcendental orientation of Sanskrit poetics. Like the pseudo-statements defined by the critic I. A. Richards in *Poetries*

and Sciences (1970, 22-7), literary expressions as conceived by Sanskrit poetics refer to intellectual signifieds that constitute their own justification. Comprised of meaning-existence rather than object-existence, the transcend the ordinary truth of fact and create an idealized world based on the writer's emotions or *bhāvas* and ultimately on the existence of bliss consciousness, the basis of utopia, which can be achieved, as Jameson says, "simply by banishing money, a solution which today raises more problems than it solves" (2007, 55). As Chakrabarti notes, while expressions such as "sprinkle with fire" or "the sky flower" do not correspond to the objective existence of skyborne flowers or fire, they nevertheless exist as intellectual meanings comprehensible to both speaker and listener (*Indian Aesthetics* 1971, 6, 121). As De observes in *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics*, literary expressions may be inaccurate in terms of objective reference, but they are thought to be profoundly accurate in terms of feeling (1963, 10). In this way they integrate sensory, historical images with universal, trans-temporal feeling that underlies utopia.

For Sanskrit poetics, moreover, the purpose of this integration in literature is to create bliss in the audience, and the transference of bliss occurs on the basis of the integration of sound and meaning in *pashyantī* as associated with *turīya* or transcendental consciousness. When the poet creates an emotionally powerful expression, he or she enlivens the meaning-whole, or indivisible *sphota*, which is always latent within the consciousness of every person. For Bhartṛharti, communication is not a process in which the speaker conveys meaning already present in the hearer's mind. These meanings consist of two aspects, relative and absolute: the knowledge associated with past experience, and the knowingness associated with pure consciousness. Different levels of language manifest or phenomenalize different degrees of wholeness or *sphota*. As we have seen, in *vaikharī* or *madhyamā* the *sphota* is historicized by temporal sequence, while in *pashyantī* (and *parā*) it flashes forth as a noumenal whole. In Sanskrit poetics the word *dhvani* (Coward, *Bhartṛhari* 1976, 31-51), is used to describe the poetic expression capable of inducing the revelation of the sentence meaning as a whole idea, or *vākyasphota*. *Dhvani*, as the highest form of suggested meaning, produces the experience of *rasa* or aesthetic pleasure. Both as an introduction to the theoretical schools of *dhvani* and *rasa*, I will discuss the underlying experience of unity in *turīya*, the basis for direct access to utopia.

It is important to define pure consciousness in terms of unity or connectedness, as Ervin Laszlo indicates in his book *Quantum Shift in the Global Brain* (2008). As Swami Prabhavananda notes in *The Spiritual Heritage of India*, each of the four Vedas is divided into several sections, the first of which is the Samhitas, or collections of hymns (1980, 26, 31-5). The hymns

each manifest one of three values: *rishi* (knower), *devata* (process of knowing) and *chhandas* (known), which are collected together in the Samhitas. In Maharishi's unique use of the term, the self-referral dynamics of pure consciousness is the *samhita* (unity) or *rishi* (knower), *devata* (process of knowing) and *chhandas* (object of knowledge).

> Because the awareness knows itself it is the knower, it is the known, and it is the process of knowing. This is the state of pure intelligence, wide-awake in its own nature and completely self-referral. This is pure consciousness, transcendental consciousness [turīya]. (*Life Supported by Natural Law* 1986, 29)

As we have seen, Shankara makes a similar distinction in terms of the "triple distinction" between knower, known and knowledge:

> The resting of the mental activity in the pure Brahman in that form without the merging of the distinctions of the knower, the known and knowledge is called *savikalpa samādhi*. [. . .] Giving up the consciousness of the triple distinctions, being firmly established in the known only is *nirvikalpa samādhi*. (*Vivekacūdāmani* 1988, 336)

As the experience of the Self becomes stabilize, the knower, known and knowledge begin to coexist until they become a unity-amidst-diversity.

The triple distinction between the knower, known and knowledge is not real but rather an intellectual construct, the ultimate reality being *turīya* or the unified *samhita*. The connectedness of *turīya* is experienced through the process of self-referral, of the awareness curving back upon pure consciousness or the Self. The threefold structure of transcendental consciousness parallels and sustains the three-in-one structure of *pashyantī* and *parā*—the unity of sound, meaning and relationship—because in *turīya* the sound (process of knowing) and meaning (object of knowing) of a word are both experienced in terms of the Self (knower). That is, the subject is united with the object, in such a way that the unity of language reflects the unity of *turīya* at the source of thought. *Turīya* constitutes the basis of the latent impressions enlivened through the experience of rasa or aesthetic rapture—an experience in which the self savors the bliss of its own unbounded Self, the only way for humanity to reach utopia collectively, for as Jameson says, the "gratifications of the narcissistic punctum" does not induce utopia (2007, 72).

The difference between Vedic or Sanskrit self-referral as just described and the self-referral of poststructuralism can be understood in terms of the experience of object-referral. On the one hand, poststructuralists such as Barthes, Foucault, and Derrida hold that the difference of object-referral precludes the unity of self-referral. That is, the ordinary experience of any object of awareness occurs simultaneously with the thoughts, impressions,

memories, and beliefs about the object as determined by the constraints imposed by an "interpretive community" (Stanley Fish) on the experiencing subject, who in turn is over-shadowed by these constraints. In contrast, Sanskrit poetics, as S. K. De notes in the *History of Sanskrit Poetics*, holds that under the proper conditions self-referral can coexist with object-referral (1960, vol. 2, 259-83). That is, through an experience of the object of awareness as the self in a state of intuitive self-presence, which for Sanskrit poetics is not incompatible with the everyday cognitive function of historical consciousness, the subject can entertain the object of awareness without being overshadowed by the thoughts, impressions, memories and beliefs about the object. In this case the self becomes the object, as in the experience of *pashyantī* and *parā*.

In "The Death of the Author," Barthes argues against this kind of self-referral or presence. He writes that "the modern scriptor is born simultaneously with the text, is in no way equipped with a being preceding or exceeding the writing, is not the subject with the book as predicate" (*Image Music Text* 1977, 143). The text as an object of awareness preempts the subject and originates from another object—namely, language as a system of differences. In *Speech and Phenomena* (1973), Derrida also decenters the subject as an intuitive self-presence. He argues that "presence," specifically "consciousness," is no longer "the absolutely central form of Being" but "a 'determination' and [. . .] an 'effect.' A determination or an effect within a system which is no longer that of presence but of *différance* through which the transcendental signified is infinitely deferred. Similarly, in "What is an Author?" Foucault says that "the author does not precede the work; he is a certain principle by which, in our culture, one limits, excludes, and chooses" (*Textual Strategies* 1979, 159). The poststructuralist subject, as Derrida conceives it in *Positions*, is not a presence but a function of repetition and difference, and self-referral becomes the self-interacting play of the signifier that defers or "temporizes" presence (1981, 29). For Sanskrit poetics, however, the subject as a non-ordinary state of expanded awareness includes difference by allowing the subject and object to be experience simultaneously, a situation that underlies the possibility of reaching utopia.

In the tradition of Sanskrit poetics, pure knowledge is equated with consciousness; and since no object can exist beyond this knowledge, consciousness makes up the one Reality. Because Vedic grammarians had already shown that, first, all language consists of a unity (*Śahitya*) of sound (*artha*) and meaning (*śabda*), and, second, that one can experience this unity at certain levels of consciousness, Sanskrit literary critics set out to discover what distinguished the unity and integration of poetry from the inherent unity of ordinary speech. Through their different approaches, the various schools of

criticism analyze how the resonance invoked in the reader's mind by the experience of aesthetic rapture is produced by the power of poetic elements, which include poetic excellence, figures and thematic content.

Sanskrit literary criticism has a long tradition of important contributions to what Roman Jakobson, the Russian formalist, in *Verbal Art, Verbal Sign, Verbal Time*, calls "the global science of verbal structure" (1985, 350). Four schools of literary criticism that arose during the Renaissance in the literary theory of the eighth-century A. D. are of special interest. These schools overlap considerably in the move from formalism toward increasing idealism, but for Indian critics their historical development has been a secondary concern to that of the special features of poetic integration that elicit the experience of aesthetic rapture or *rasa*. The oldest of these schools concerned itself with poetic figures, or *alankāras*, from which it derives its name. An early exponent of the *alankāra* school is the critic Bhāmaha, who lived from the last quarter of the seventh to the middle of the eighth century. The second school concerned itself with *riti*, the poetic arrangement of words. Its two major proponents were Dandin of the first half of the eighth century and Vāmana of the middle of the eighth to the middle of the ninth century. Taken together the *alankāra* (trope) and *riti* (verbal structure) schools resemble Russian formalism—which gave rise to structuralism and poststructuralism—and Anglo-American New Criticism. The third school, founded by Ananda-vardhana, emphasized *dhvani* or the power of suggestion, and the fourth school emphasized *rasa* or aesthetic mood or flavor. While reacting against the formalism of the two previous schools, neither the *dhvani* nor *rasa* schools rejected the importance of poetic figures. In their combination of formal and rhetorical elements, these schools resemble reception theory, reader response criticism and a modified phenomenological criticism.

As evidenced by their dates, any notion of development in Sanskrit literary theory is complicated by the question of chronology, such as whether Dandin, who gave an exhaustive treatment of alankāras, actually followed or preceded Bhamaha of the *alankāra* school. All of these schools of criticism have their basis in Vedic language theory, whether that of Shankara or Bharṭṛhari, which posits a unity of sound and meaning. The *dhavani* and *rasa* schools of Sanskrit poetics, moreover, can be understood in terms of *turīya*, the coexistence of unity and diversity in the self-referral connectedness of knower, known and knowledge. The general trend in Sanskrit literary theories was toward greater unity of self-referral consciousness. Yet because Sanskrit literary theory accepts the unity of sound and meaning, which is based on the experience of pure consciousness, the connectedness of knower, know and knowledge to some extent always pertains even in Sanskrit formalism.

As the foremost exponent of the theory of *alankāras* or tropes, Bhāmaha writes in his *Kāvyālankāra* that the absolute unity of sound and meaning found naturally in language also constitutes the nature of poetry (Chakrabarti *Indian Aesthetics*, 1971, 47). Later critics accepted the unity of sound and meaning as a key attribute of poetry. For instance, in his *Śŗngāraprakāśa* of the first half of the eleventh century, Bhoja describes two aspects of linguistic unity, a poetical and a grammatical aspect, and lists their twelve varieties: four poetical and eight grammatical (*Ibid*., 48). All poetic unity is also a grammatical unity, but the unity of poetry is of a special type (*Visesa*). In the earlier *Nātyaśāstra*, the critic Bharata says that all literary compositions are distinguished from ordinary discourse by at least thirty-six characteristics (*lakşanās*), such as poetic figures (*alankāras*), of which he lists only four: simile, metaphor, zeugma, and homophony. Abhinavagupta, one of the most influential scholars during the Renaissance in Sanskrit poetics, also emphasized the difference ordinary and poetic expressions. As Chakrabarti notes, however, Abhinavagupta held that the poet's imagination was "the real secret that elevates an ordinary expression to the position of a poetic expression" (*Ibid*., 53). Realizing the limitations of a formalist approach, Abhinavagupta says in anticipation of future schools that because poetic expressions are elevated through the power of the imagination, the poet's imagination is the highest attribute of poetry. The *alankāra* school begins by focusing on tropes as the known (*chhandas*) and on the process of knowing (*devata*), but then turns to the knower (*rishi*) in a move toward *turīya* or self-referral consciousness (*samhita*). Other Sanskrit critics generally agree that poetic genius depends less on the attributes of the text than on the quality of the poet's imagination.

In spite of the emphasis on the imagination, Sanskrit poetics generally gives great importance to poetic figures such as similes, metaphors and symbols. Bhāmaha defines poetic figures (*alankāras*) as the beautifying principle at the heart of literature. By figure as a beautifying principle he means not only the metaphors already found in language, but also the "extraordinary turn" given to an ordinary expression by the author. For Bhāmaha, this extraordinary turn, as a striking mode of figurative expression, is that special feature (*viśeşa*) of unity that defines poetry (De, *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics*, 1963, 23). The special poetic unity of sound and sense was also noted by the *rīti* school as expounded by the critic Vāmana, who in his *Vŗtti* distinguished *alankāras* from *gunas*, essential qualities such as sweetness and lucidity. *Rīti* is a quality of poetry associated with rhythm, the special arrangement of words in a sentence. As an attribute of sound and sense, the *guna* of *rīti* constitutes the soul of poetry, while *alankāra* constitutes the body of poetry (*Ibid*., 26). As mentioned earlier, Bhartŗhari points out that the

words, sentences, paragraphs and so forth that make up the body of a work are not fully meaningful each unto itself, but constitute a series of "unreal abstractions" of the ultimate wholeness of meaning defined as *pashyantī* and *vākyasphota*.

In their emphasis on tropes, sequences and wholeness, the *alankāra* and *rīti* schools both resemble and differ from the New Criticism of the 1930s and '40s. These culturally and historically distant schools are strikingly similar in their definition of rhetorical elements—the poem as a "verbal icon" (see W. K. Wimsatt, *The Verbal Icon* 1946). They both want to preserve the uniqueness of poetry by distinguishing between ordinary language on the one hand and poetic language, system and structure on the other. Here the Sanskrit emphasis on *alankāras*, unity and rhythm parallels the New Critical emphasis on irony, tension, paradox and ambiguity. The New Critics, in distinguishing their critical method from the workings of poetic language, condemned "the heresy of paraphrase," the idea that the meaning of poetic language could be translated into linear prose.

But Western and Sanskrit formalism also have major differences. While the New Critics conceived of the language of poetry as transcending human reason and the logic of ordinary language, poststructuralists such as Derrida and Roland Barthes have deconstructed this opposition by showing that all language is metaphorical. Literary and critical language both have their basis in a system of tropes that does not refer to a world outside the text. Critical language is not a metalanguage immune to figural play used as a master-code for interpreting other texts. Although Sanskrit poetics, like New Criticism, distinguishes between poetic and ordinary language, this difference is based on a shared unity of sound and meaning. While unity for Sanskrit poetics pertains to all language, it is heightened in poetry through a process that extends unity to the differential field of metaphorical play. Linguistic play characterizes both the field of unity and the field of difference. The self-deconstruction that poststructuralists such as Paul de Man attribute to all texts gets subsumed by the experience of unity in Sanskrit poetics. This unity is not a conceptual closure, but an openness to the pure possibility of language that results from the interplay between the knower, known and knowledge, a requirement for utopia, which induces the fear, as Jameson points out, "of losing that familiar world in which all our vices and virtues are rooted" (2007, 97).

The New Critics also conceived of the literary text as an autonomous aesthetic object, one that somehow included reality but should be read independently of its biographical, historical and social context (Winsatt and Beardsley, "The Intentional Fallacy," 1946, 3-18). By downplaying the author's intention and the role of the historical subject, the formalist approach

of New Criticism, structuralism and poststructuralism virtually excludes consideration of the *rishi* or knower, an element that in Sanskrit poetics is to some degree always present. Like the romantic symbol, the new critical poem has an absolute, mystical authority that resolves linguistic ambiguities through a solid structure. But the romantic symbol is based on the poet's transcendental experience, whereas the verbal icon seems to exclude, if not transcend humanity itself. Walter Ong relates the New Critic's concern with wit, irony and paradox to their religious belief: "At the point to which the trail of wit leads, the very texture of poetry itself [. . .] is seen to come into fundamental contact with the heart of Christian doctrine" (qtd. in Norris, *Deconstruction* 1985, 13). The new critical approach elevates poetic language while downplaying the creative subject. As Winfred Lehman notes, New Criticism directed its attention largely to form, not to the integration of "matter, form and style" ("The Presidential Address 1987: Woven Close," 1988, 243-53)—matter representing the object or content, style and the creating subject, and forms the link between them. The emphasis given to the object of knowledge and process of observation results in the poetic content or transcendental signified becoming a closed system that pretends to be whole or total, but in effect is only totalitarian. Because textual ambiguities are open-ended, formalist interpretations that exclude the knower or reflects an underdeveloped or stagnant knower cannot resist the forces that expand consciousness toward the transcendental signified as understood in terms of the openness of *pashyantī* and *parā*, an openness necessary for utopia. In terms of materialism, as Ervin Laszlo states, consciousness is spiritual and "can be separated from the brain" (2008, 161).

The theory of *rasa* can be compared to the concept of defamiliarization in Russian Formalism and to the alienation effect in Bertolt Brecht, which Tony Bennett describes as the means "to dislocate our habitual perceptions of the real world so as to make it the object of a renewed attentiveness" (*Formalism and Marxism* 1989, 20). Through the intervention of *rasa*, the audience can remain detached from all specific passions and thereby appreciate the whole gamut of possible responses without running the risk of being overshadowed by any one of them. Since the tasting of *rasa* involves the tasting of an idealized flavor and not a particular transitory mental state, it differs from the perception or memory of an actual experience and can thus lead to utopia. Sanskrit poetics, unlike post-Saussurean semiotics, is not impressed by the split between signifier and signified, by the notion that language does not related directly to things or concepts. This split occurs naturally in the *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* levels of language, whereas in *pashyantī* and *parā* the sound and referent are united on the level of *turīya* or transcendental consciousness, the direct experience that leads to utopia. By

invoking the emotional states latent within the mind through direct intuition, *rasa* or aesthetic rapture constitutes an experience of the subtler levels of activity of the mind itself. As in the Formalist notion of defamiliarizing, *rasa* strips the veil of familiarity from our perceptions, but it does so not only for the world or the object of knowledge but also for the knower who has not yet experienced utopia directly.

Without the critical distance from the actuality of Emotional Modes provided by *rasa*, the aesthetic purpose of art would be negated. As an aesthetic experience, *rasa* culminates in a spiritual joy or *santa* described by K. Krishnamoorthy in *Some Thoughts on Indian Aesthetics and Literary Criticism* as "wild tranquility" or "passionless passion" (1968, 26). Hence, just as in Vedic language theory meaning is always intellectual, so in Sanskrit aesthetics *rasa* enables consciousness to experience the unbounded bliss inherent within itself, those levels of awareness associated with *pashyantī* and *parā* that lead to utopia. As De says in *Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics*, "an ordinary emotion (*bhāva*) may be pleasurable or painful; but a poetic sentiment (*rasa*), transcending the limitations of the personal attitude, is lifted above such pain and pleasure into pure joy, the essence of which is its relish itself" (1963, 13). This awareness of subtler states of purified consciousness, which occurs spontaneously through direct perception, is the nearest realization of the Absolute or *mokşa* (liberation) in Sanskrit poetics and is the only experience of utopia. Aesthetic delight thus consists of the bliss of the self savoring its Self, an experience described in the Taittiriya Upanishad as Sat-Chit-Ananda (Radhakrishnan, *The Principle Upanishads*, 1989, 546), pure being, pure consciousness and pure bliss.

In relation to the experience of *mokşa*, however, rasa also depends on the theme of the work. If the theme itself deals with the nature and experience of *mokşa*, then the rasa is called *śānta*, which relates to *śānti* or peace. As Ramachandran notes in The Indian Philosophy of Beauty, *śānta-rasa* gives one "not only a foretaste of the bliss of *mokşa* but also an insight into the nature and source of that bliss" (1979, Part 2, 111).

Although generally thought to be present in literature, *rasa* is really the cause and effect of literature. As Krishnamoorthy explains in *Some Thoughts on Indian Aesthetics and Literary Criticism*, the poet's emotional complex or *bhāva*, which becomes the feeling content embodied in the art form, paradoxically appears subjective to the poet and objective to the critic. If the complex feeling or *bhāva* pattern is successful, then it results in the work's unified master-passion or rasa, which to the critic appears subjective, but which he or she must analyze in terms of the poet's *bhāva* as a "subjective experience objectified" (1968, 53). Since the critic infers from his or her experience of *rasa* towards the poet's experience of *bhāva*, the cause and

effect of poetry are both subjective. This *rasabhāva* is the soul of poetry, a form of spiritual knowledge attained by transcending the conceptual and rational boundaries of knowledge through an expansion of the heart, which mediates between the intellect and pure consciousness or the Self and underlies utopia.

The theory of *rasa* both resembles and differs from the phenomenology of the so-called "Geneva School" of the 1960s and early 70s. This school, which focused on consciousness in a reaction against the Formalist methods, featured critics such as Jean Starobinski, Jean Rousset, and George Poulet, who as a group influenced the American critic J. Hillis Miller before he became a prominent deconstructionist. Like Sanskrit poetics, the Geneva School conceived of the literary text as embodying states of awareness, and of criticism as a means for the mind of the critic to identify with the mind of the author. The author's consciousness was sought in the tone that persists throughout the entirety of his or her creative work. Miller asserts in *Fiction and Repetition* that "The Geneva Critics consider literary criticism to be itself a form of literature. It is a form which takes as its theme not that experience of natural objects, other people, or supernatural realities about which the poet and novelist write, but those entities after they have been assimilated into the work of some author. Literary criticism is literature at a second degree" (1982, 305-6). This phenomenological identity of critic and author, however, does not take into account the very factor of different levels of consciousness and the correspondence between consciousness and language. The states of awareness and type of language that the Geneva critics sought in the text must therefore have been limited by their methodology to those of the state of ordinary waking consciousness that are subject to temporal gaps and thus open to deconstruction. The incompleteness of the Geneva School's "spiritual adventure" can account for Miller's switch to the demystifying rigors of deconstructive analysis.

The theory of rasa, then, like the *alankāra* school, attempts to identify the special features that constitute a literary text. In this way it resembles Russian formalism, which leads to structuralism and poststructuralism. Through his famous model of the circuit of communication, Jakobson illustrates that every speech even consists of six factors and their corresponding functions: the emotive (writer), the connotative (reader), the referential (context), the phatic (contact), the metalingual (code) and the poetic (writing) (*Verbal Art, Verbal Sign, Verbal Time* 1985, 32). Jakobson focuses on the message and its poetic function, instead of its content, in order to draw attention to the way of telling of the literary sign itself. Likewise, the theory of *rasa* is concerned not with the direct representation of an Emotional Mode, the immediate referent,

but rather with its aesthetic image; not with the referent, but with the "sense" of the work as a whole.

As Jerome Bruner notes in "The Narrative Construction of Reality," "the 'sense' of a story as a whole may alter the reference and even the referentiality of its component parts" (1991, 13). These images or gunas correspond to the literary devices that in formalism produce certain effects. Jakobson considered one of these effects to be the poetic violence against conventional speech, as in defamiliarization, making new the old. Like *rasa*, defamiliarization prevents the audience from identifying with a conventional referent or expression by means of figurative language, thereby heightening the sense of aesthetic delight. Bruner notes that defamiliarization is the "founding condition of narrative": "Because its 'tellability' as a form of discourse rests on a breach of conventional expectation, narrative is necessarily normative. A breach presupposes a norm" (*Ibid*., 15). The major difference between the theory of *rasa* and Russian Formalism (and by extension New Criticism, structuralism and poststructuralism) is that the former elicits aesthetic delight through the experience of expanded consciousness in which sound and meaning are united, whereas the latter, which inadvertently effecting an expansion of consciousness, is not concerned with subjective hermeneutics, intentionality, or metaphysical experience. Yet *rasa*, as a subjective experience objectified," involves a coexistence of feeling/intellect, unity/diversity, truth/rhetoric; it is therefore not a purely subjective or extra-linguistic element, as in the case of meaning in phenomenological criticism.

As developed by Bharata, as well as by the founder of the theory of *dhvani* or suggestion, Anandavardhana, and following him Abhinavagupta, the theory of *rasa* conforms to several criteria. First, the emotional modes or *sthāyibhāvas* that comprise the content of a work are aesthetic idealizations, since a particular emotion would not be a source of delight. Second, the means of communicating the *sthāyibhāvas* is indirect. While a "situation" may be presented as the work's content directly through primary signification, an emotion is presented indirectly through suggestion. And third, the *sthāyibhāvas* presented in the work must also be present in the spectator as the material cause of *rasa* (Ramachandran, *Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 2, 1979, 85), the emphasis, as in formalism, being on the palpability of the sign. Ramachandran describes the Vedāntic notion of *rasa*, as formulated by Abhinavagupta, as a manifestation of the bliss of the Self as *turīya*:

> *Rasa* [. . .] is the manifestation (*abhivyakti*) of the intrinsic bliss of the self through the *sthāyibhāva* [basic emotions or moods latent in the mind] rendered free from barriers [ego-consciousness]. It is in this sense that the *sthāyibhāva* is said to be transformed into *rasa*. Like a mirror cleaned of dirt, the *sthāyibhāva* freed from the personal attitude reflects the bliss of the self, and this reflected

> bliss is called *rasa*. (Ramachandran, *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Part Two, 1979, 101)

As we shall see in connection with the theory of suggestion, rasa also resembles reader response criticism.

According to the *dhvani* or third school of criticism, one of the most important principles of unity is that of suggestion (*vyaňjanā* or *dhvani*). The reader is thought to receive more delight through the suggested content of a work than through its expressed content. Anandavardhana, the great ninth-century exponent of the *dhvani* school and author of the Dhvanyāloka, opposed the older formalist school of criticism by showing how the suggested content of poetry manifests itself in the form of facts, poetic figures, or emotional moods (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics*, 1971, 66). He argued that suggestion more than denotation, connotation, or any other aspect of expression is responsible for conveying *rasa*. Furthermore, suggestion is a power that resides ultimately in the reader's mind in the form of latent impressions (*vasanas*) and beyond that in the structure of pure consciousness itself, the basis of utopia, which as Jameson notes is "another world altogether—very precisely [a world] [. . .] of radical difference with which we associate the imagination of Utopia" (2007, 101). The notion of *dhvani* or suggestion was evolved to explain how the poet's *bhāva* or emotion gives rise to the experience of *rasa*. As defined by Anandavardhana, dhvani is that suggested meaning that "flashes into the minds of sympathetic appreciators who perceive the true import (of poetry) when they have turned away from conventional meanings" (Ramachandran, *Philosophy of Beauty*, Part Two, 1979, 75). In addition to suggestion, the element of propriety or the appropriateness of an expression was also considered to be essential to poetic unity. By following the view of Vedic grammarians that an eternal association exists between sound and sense, Sanskrit literary critics set out to ascertain the special features that convert ordinary associations into the extraordinary ones of literature.

In terms of Western literary theory, the opposition between Sanskrit formalism and the *rasa* and *dhvani* schools reflects and anticipates the opposition between contemporary formalism and realism. This opposition is represented by structuralism on the one hand, and phenomenology and reader oriented criticism on the other. Structuralists believe that the object is never perceived innocently as an autonomous entity, but always as an interpretation, a product of language (Northrop Frye, *Anatomy of Criticism*, 1957, 341-56). What they have understood , then, is that everything is a reflection of consciousness inasmuch as knowledge is the product of the relationship between the observer and the object of observation. The rasa and dhvani schools would in part agree with this epistemological stance. Structuralists,

however, regard the observer as a finite social construct and define the process of observation in terms of the synchronic rather than the diachronic aspect of cultural formations. As we have seen, Vedic language theory turns the synchroni/diachronic polarity into a coexistence of opposites based on the interfusion between the four levels of language, which range from the temporal to the transcendental. Moreover, for structuralism to dispense with the diachronic dimension would diminish the historical level of meaning and leave the observer with no room for temporal development. From this perspective, as Barthes proclaims, the author would be dead. Such an observer hardly resembles that of Sanskrit poetics. Ironically, even though criticized for their ahistorical approach to cultural studies, structuralists do not really transcend history, for in general neither synchrony nor the observer for them is transcendental. From a Sanskrit viewpoint, the limited or hazy notion of the observer and process of observation in structuralism can result only in partial knowledge, one in which the knower is lost to the Self, which will not induce utopia.

In reacting against Sanskrit formalism, the *rasa* and *dhvani* schools resemble the reception theories of Wolfgang Iser and Hans Robert Jauss. With his Gadamerian theory of meaning as a function of a "horizon of expectation" or the history of readers' judgments, Jauss opposed the aesthetics of negativity associated with Samuel Beckett and Alain Robbe-Grillet (Jauss, *Toward an Aesthetic of Reception*, 1982, 3-45). But even though Jauss and other reception theorists seem to refurbish the "humanist" tradition by not textualizing and thus decentering the reader as the structuralists and poststructuralists do, Jauss's various modalities of reception are limited in their affirmative power to recenter the reader. In the Sanskrit understanding of reading and reception, the back-and-forth movement between subject and object, reader and text, is potentially much more complete than Jauss indicates. Subjects not only produce the object, as in the reader filling in textual gaps, but the subject and object, through their underlying connection in samhita or pure consciousness, are united in very real and pragmatic ways. Bruner alludes to this potential unity in his analysis of how narrative, both in and out of fiction, functions in "reality construction": "Narrative 'truth' is judged by its verisimilitude rather than its verifiability. There seems indeed to be some sense in which narrative, rather than referring to 'reality,' may in fact create or constitute it, as when 'fiction' creates a 'world' of its own" (Bruner, "The Narrative Construction of Reality," 1991. 13).

Whereas Jauss emphasizes social and historical factors, Iser emphasizes how the reader relates to individual texts. In *The Act of Reading*, Iser develops the notion of an "implied reader," part of a "transcendental model"

intended to preclude empirical interference (1989, 38). Iser's phenomenology, however, does not define the reader in terms of pure consciousness. Whereas Sanskrit poetics views the subject as being united with the object in the transcendent, as for example in *pashyantī* and *parā*, Iser views it as being divided within itself. For Iser the reader is free to interpret the indeterminate textual gaps, yet held by the determinate nature of the text (or subtext) from sliding into arbitrary subjectivity. In reading a (determinate) foreground of the text, the reader must background his or her own past experience. "The division, then, is not between subject and object, but between subject and himself" (*Ibid*., 155). Although Iser posits an open reader, a "transcendental construct," his reader finally cannot escape predetermination by his or her character and historical circumstance. The expressive form of the text still precludes the reader from experiencing what the *rasa* and *dhvani* schools describe as suggested meaning, a meaning elicited not only from the latent impressions within the reader's mind, whether historical or individual, but also beyond that from pure consciousness itself, the avenue toward utopia.

Nevertheless, in giving the meaning of the text back to the reader, reception theory increases the self-referral unity between the knower, known and process of knowing in the interpretive act. A similar affective poetics is the reader response theory of critics such as Stanley Fish. In *Is There A Text In This Class?*, Fish defines literature as something that happens while we read. But Fish, who does not appreciate the full potential of human consciousness, grants the reader authority over the text only to supplant it by the authority of "interpretive communities" (1980, 167). Like Jauss's "horizon of expectations," the interpretive community forms a collection of strategies and norms with which we perceive and think. Fish's reader becomes textualized, but the text is based on a symbolic order that remains on the level of *madhyamā* as opposed to *pashyantī* and *parā*, the basis for utopia. Thus the aesthetic of reader response criticism is a materialist aesthetics that denies the experience of pure consciousness. Part of the difficulty with reader response and reception theories lie in treating (idealist) phenomenology as involving mere conceptual categories. As Sanskrit poetics shows, however, it really involves a concrete, practical experience mediated through the suggestive force of language.

Because the distinction between idealist concepts as opposed to transcendental experience in Western culture has until recently lacked empirical verification, the latter has been much maligned as mere subjectivism. Even now with empirical, rational, and narrative verification, transcendental experience still raises suspicion because, as Edward Said notes, it is classified as being Oriental and thus outside the pale of Western "truth" (*Orientalism*, 1979, 201-25). Empiricism means on the one hand scientific research, which

is Occidental, and on the other hand direct experience, which is universally available and has always been a part of Sanskrit aesthetics. Iser's desire to preclude empirical interference in the attempt to establish a transcendental model, as with the "implied reader" and the "wandering viewpoint," is contradictory; *turīya* or transcendental consciousness, which enhances utopia, ostensibly more alluded to than actually experienced in the history of Western criticism, can be legitimized only through empirical verification.

Many scientific studies have substantiated the empirical evidence of transcendental consciousness (David Orme-Johnson, *Scientific Research on the Transcendental Meditation Program: Collected Papers*, vol. 1, 1981). Without this quantitative research, any reception theory would be one abstraction among others, with no way of assessing their comparative truth. And yet all quantitative, objective verification, whether scientific or literary, while potentially significant, is a function of narrative rhetoric and does not provide a direct experience of transcendental consciousness. Similarly, the standard model theory of quantum physics, while mathematically positing the existence of the unified field or an absolute, is not accompanied by the experience of absolute, bliss consciousness. Any attempt to deconstruct these theories, whether scientific or Vedic, would be pointless, for as conceptual systems they self-deconstruct already through the self-awareness (or blindness) of not substituting for direct experience. To this extent, any discussion of truth in language can be authenticated only through firsthand experience of expanded consciousness, as through *rasa* or aesthetic rapture, which leads to the experience of utopia for humanity, not by precluding empirical interference.

Whereas Western literary theory undermines linguistic truth through the freeplay of the signifier, Sanskrit poetics finds that truth is immanent in the unified levels of language and consciousness. As the eighteenth-century grammarian-philosopher Nagesa notes, poetic unity is not a phenomenal identity between a verbal expression and a sensible thing in the outside world, but an identity between the eternal word unit (*sphota*) and a concept latent within the mind of the subject (Ramachandran, *Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 2, 1979, 81). That is, the natural unity of name and form, or namarupa, which in ordinary language involves the correspondence between name and thing, is extended in figurative language so that it applies to a created or fictional correspondence between name and idea or feeling. The poetic figure enriches the idea, and the idea enhances the figure's beauty. But while the figure of speech (or signifier) in Sanskrit poetics cannot be replaced, the idea itself (or signified) is paradoxically replaceable without detriment to the unity of sound and sense. This occurs because in the absolute unity of *parā*, all particular meanings connect with the same universal reality

on the level of *sat-chit-ananda*, absolute bliss consciousness, the road to utopia.

The notion of figurative or poetic truth is based on the principle of universality set forth by *Mīmāmsā*, one of the six systems of Indian philosophy. As Jaimini points out in *The Mīmāmsā Sutras*, while the word cow relates to the particular individual cow, it also relates to all individual cows and therefore to the universality of cow-hood as an absolute signified (1923, 1-17). The four categories used in describing such a relationship are universality, individuality, action, and quality. While a term may be dissociated from its individuality, actions and qualities, it may not be dissociated from the universality or transcendental signified that constitutes its substratum. This ineluctable bond with the universal connects the signifier with its transcendental signified or *sphota* in *pashyantī* and *parā*, the substratum of utopia. It also connects the word with the poet's imagination, the universality of which finds expression in pure consciousness through a process of self-referral or self-manifestation. Even while remaining distinct, the transcendental signifieds of all words are united on the level of pure consciousness or Brahman, their common basis. As described by Vedic language theory, then, the presence of generality in the apparently individual results from the natural and eternal bond between sound and meaning. This bond is experienced through *samhita* or self-referral consciousness in *pashyantī* and *parā*. In this superstructural or metaphysical model, any particular word, as an absolute signified or *sphota*, embodies the connotation of all words, yet paradoxically without losing its individual flavor. The idealization of the particular in Sanskrit poetics also applies to the presentation of character, setting, and mood. This process of generalization is indispensable to the experiences of *rasa* or aesthetic delight, a process through which the Self experiences the freedom of bliss of its own unbounded nature that produces utopia. The subject and object of experience are both universalized by the grandeur of literature.

Sanskrit poetics defines metaphor as a relationship between primary and secondary terms (vehicle and tenor) in which the secondary terms consist of two types: the pure and the qualitative. In the pure secondary the relation between the primary and non-literal term is direct, whereas in the qualitative secondary the relation is remote. According to Patanjali, the father of the philosophy of Sanskrit grammar, the metaphorical function of giving something a new name has four causes: 1) the relation of container to contained, 2) imitator and imitated, 3) proximity, and 4) association (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics*, 1971, 102). As illustrated by Chakrabarti, "The cradles are laughing" represents the relation between the container and the contained, since what is laughing is not the container but the children

contained within it. "The boy is a lion" represents the relation between the imitator and imitated. "The hamlet on the Ganges" represents proximity, since the hamlet is really on the Ganges bank. And "Get the lances entered" represents the causal factor of association, since the lancers and the salient trait of lances are being identified. All these causes ascribe an attribute to a thing not originally belonging to it. Other critics have extended this set of causal relations to include inference, cause and effect, and contradiction.

According to the grammarian Nagesa, what finally distinguishes the Sanskrit conception of metaphor is the function given to *dhvani* or the power of suggestion, the substratum of utopia. In a metaphor such as "a hamlet on the Ganges," suggestion allows for a complete identification between the Ganges, which is cool and refreshing, and its banks, which are also cool and refreshing. Because the primary or literal meaning of "a hamlet on the Ganges" is a contradiction, the phrase is taken in the secondary sense of "on (the bank of) the Ganges" (*Ibid*., 105). In *Semiotics of Poetry*, Michael Riffaterre makes a similar distinction between two levels of reading: the initial mimetic and the retroactive semiotic or nonmimetic (1984, 4). Riffaterre's semiotic approach to the structure of meaning in a poem does not accept the anti-idealism of Saussurean semiology as developed by other critics. In a manner closer to the traditional critic E. D. Hirsch than to the poststructuralist Roland Barthes, Riffaterre attempts to generalize the reader's response in order to guarantee textual objectivity and shareable meaning. When a poem is understood nonmimetically, its referent cannot be located in the world of objects and must therefore be traced back to the kernel or matrix, such as a key word, out of which the poem's unity is an expansion or conversion.

In Sanskrit poetics, however, the meaning of a phrase is not exhausted by the secondary or nonmimetic signification. In the case of the hamlet, the poet probably intended to suggest the idea that "the hamlet is cool and holy" (Ramachandran, *Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 2, 1979, 59-60). This intention behind the primary and secondary significations (that is, behind the contradictory mimetic and semiotic nonmimetic meanings) is considered in Sanskrit poetics to be the suggested meaning. Suggestion, as noted earlier, produces a sense of identity between the literal and figurative terms that transcend the ordinary path of logic. Because the logic of rational argumentation belongs to the mind or intellect and is thus restricted to *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, it cannot subvert the transcendental role of suggestion, which belongs to *pashyantī* and *parā* experienced through *turīya*, the road to utopia, which as Jameson notes requires a "radically different system we call Utopia" (2007, 117). Riffaterre's retroactive or semiotic reading differs from suggestion by designating a specific matrix or

"hypogram" as the origin of the poem's significance. This matrix belongs to the diachronic, sequential plane of madhyamā and functions to suppress the reader's subjective, associative response in order to preserve conceptual closure and textual objectivity. Suggested meaning, then, unlike that of idealist theories such as phenomenology and certain types of structuralism, involves the interaction of opposite values—such as madhyamā and pashyantī—on a level of consciousness untouched by conceptual closure, for this closure will not lead to utopia.

The New Critical notion of "intentional fallacy" and the poststructuralist deconstruction of determinate, prelinguistic thought and feeling would apply only to *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, where language is experienced as the known or *chhandas* without being integrated with the *rishi* as pure awareness. In contrast, the power of suggestion sustains the Vedic principle that every expression, when experienced in its full range from *vaikharī* to *parā*, has the potential to convey all content or the transcendental signified. As Nagesa explains, this capacity of suggestion derives from the fact that every term refers not only an historical referent, but also to a neverchanging universal element of utopia (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetic*s, 1971, 112). From an intellectual perspective, the associations of metaphor that yoke together two disparate things may seem to violate the laws of rationality. Yet in poetry the emotions and their suggestive power of unification reign supreme. Instead of relying for its truth value only on indication or reference to the external world, suggestion unifies the primary and secondary orders of signification through the power of feeling. Suggestion is thus self-referential without being indeterminate or undecidable, as in the case of the deconstructive movement of *différance*. That is, the transcendental signified of suggestion is not a conceptual closure vulnerable to deconstruction, but the pure possibility of meaning experienced through the taste of *rasa* or *turīya*, the basis of utopia.

The attributes of identification and suggestion ascribed to metaphor in Sanskrit poetics also apply to symbolism. While denotation corresponds to the univocal, symbolism brings the unexpressed into revelation through suggestion and therefore corresponds to multiplicity or universality. Even though suggestion refers to the latent impressions in the mind of the subject, Sanskrit poetics still regards the context of the subject as an important factor in the determination of meaning. Historical context, which includes knowledge of the language system, is important because the relation between the literal and the symbolic does not conform to any definite rules. The point here is that unlike Western literary criticism, Sanskrit poetics goes beyond the finite, historical dimensions of language and consciousness to include the cosmic context of *parā* and *samhita*, which enhance utopia.

The Indian system of values, known as *puruşārtha* (*artha*—value; *puruşa*—human), classifies values, as Ramachandran notes, into four types: *artha*, *kāma*, *dharma*, and *mokşa* (*Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 1, 1979, 6-11). These values stem from the universal desire to avoid suffering, the premise being that the purpose of life is the expansion of happiness. *Artha*, which means value in general, also means the economic value necessary for survival in the material world. By means of *artha* one obtains *kāma*, the hedonistic values associated with mundane pleasures such as housing, clothing, fame, and power. Duty or social conduct is called *dharma*, which involves self-restraint or self-sacrifice and ensures social coherence. *Mokşa*, as we have seen, stands for liberation, the complete freedom from ego and the desires of the small self. Indian philosophy divides the four values into a higher and a lower group according to their effectiveness in preventing suffering and bringing lasting happiness: *artha* and *kāma* represent the lower level (*adhama*), and *dharma* and *mokşa* represent the higher level (*uttama*) (*Ibid*., 8). As selfish and personal values, artha and kāma not only fail to provide lasting happiness but can also lead to suffering. In Vedic philosophy, happiness and bliss come from the ideals of dharma and mokşa, but the transition from the lower to the higher values is gradual, the lower providing the means of attaining the higher. The emphasis, therefore, is not on renouncing all desires for material gain, which as indicated by the history of India has disasterous consequences, but rather on remaining socially involved yet materially nonattached. As Ramachandran observes, however, "We do not find truth or beauty mentioned in the Indian list of values" (*Ibid*., 11). Truth is the knowledge of Brahman, the metaphysical reality found in the experience of *mokşa*, also the ground of utopia, as through the experience of art and literature.

In India there are three views regarding the significance of the appreciation of art (which includes literature). The popular view is that art is a means of *kama* or pleasure. The second view is that of the Sankhya system of Indian philosophy, which holds that art is an end in itself and does not lead to the expansion of consciousness. The third view, that of Vedanta, is the most typical view in Indian philosophy and forms the basis of Sanskrit poetics. According to this view, as Ramachandran notes, art is a means to *mokşa*, although as we have seen in relation to *rasa* this type of art comes in different degrees (*Ibid*., 76-84).

On the basis of Vedic language theory and the different schools of Sanskrit poetics, then, Indian literary theory divides poetry into various categories based on the extent to which they provide a taste of *mokşa*. Anandavardhana, for example, classifies poetry into three major types, *Dhvani*, *Gunībhūtavyangya*, and *Citra*, which correspond to the three levels of

language, *pashyantī*, *madhyamā*, and *vaikharī* respectively. Dhvani, the highest type of poetry, consists of a relationship in which an expressed form is subordinated to what Chakrabarti calls "a charming suggested concept" (*Indian Aesthetics*, 1971, 174-77). More specifically, both the expressive sound and the expressed sense are subordinated to the suggested content produced by their unification—as represented by the integration of *pashyantī*. In poetry of the *Gunībhūtavyangya* type, in contrast, the suggested content is subordinated to its more charming expressed value, yet without the former being completely absent. In the *Citra* type of poetry, however, the expressive form and expressed sense completely replace the suggested content. Devoid of a suggested idea that is both charming and meaningful, *Citra* is considered not real poetry like *Dhvani* but merely the imitation of poetry. The later grammarian Mammata built upon this classification by adding three terms: *Uttama* (best), *Madhyamā* (mediocre), and *Adhama* (inferior). Subsequently, the grammarian Kavikarnapura added to these a fourth type of poetry called *Uttamottama*, which corresponds to parā or the highest level of language (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics*, 1971, 176). *Uttamottama* is characterized by a suggested content that is most charming and highly striking in its unity of sound and sense. This increase in quality involves a move from the concrete to the abstract, from the charming expressed values, which engage the surface of the mind, to the charming suggested content or *rasa*, which provides a taste of unbounded bliss, which leads to the outcome of utopia.

Understood in terms of the interrelation between language and consciousness, the experience of rasa involves a movement of the awareness from the concrete level of the senses and intellect, which correspond to *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, to the more abstract levels of feeling and intuition, which correspond to *pashyantī* and *parā*, and simultaneously back to the more concrete. This movement or swing of awareness is induced by the juxtaposition of contrasting elements in poetic figures, gaps, and rhythm, a juxtaposition that in terms of consciousness results in the coexistence of opposites. The effectiveness of poetry, therefore, depends on its power to charm the reader on all levels of the mind simultaneously, providing the most holistic experience of aesthetic rapture, or *rasa*, which is the foundation for humanity to experience utopia beyond money, as Jameson notes.

A Sanskrit interpretation of a work of literature, therefore, presupposes the principle of unity between sound and meaning, and the special manifestations of this unity in poetry. These special features include the power of suggestion in all figures of speech, and the universalizing effects on the subject and object of aesthetic experience. Since the ultimate suggested meaning is the taste of *turīya* or pure consciousness, the poem will remain enigmatic to an approach restricted to the value of ordinary waking

consciousness, or the *madhyamā* or conceptual level of language, which does not induce utopia. Suggested meaning, then, is attained through self-referral as a movement toward the Self.

Reflecting the predicament of modern theory, Theodor Adorno writes that

> The enigma of works of art is the fact of their having been broken off. If transcendence were really present in them, they would be mysteries rather than riddles. [. . .] The key to decoding arts riddle is missing, as is the key for understanding the literary records of certain extinct peoples and cultures. [. . .] all art works seem to suggest that the answers they give severally are, like those of the Sphinx, somehow one and the same answer. The enigma appears to promise this kind of identical answer. (*Aesthetic Theory*, 1991, 184-86)

What is missing, in Sanskrit terms, is an understanding of how the suggestive function of poetry swings the awareness from the concrete to the abstract, from the individual words of their universalized meanings, and ultimately from the individual to the universalized state of consciousness. The modern and postmodern emphasis on ambiguity and indeterminacy reflects the futile attempt on the part of the intellect to account for experiences that will always be enigmatic until grasped by the unifying level of consciousness. With regard to the idea of texts leading to "the same answer," Fish says that "it has always been possible to put into action interpretive strategies designed to make all texts one, or to put it more accurately, to be forever making the same text" ("Interpreting the Variorum," 1989, 170). Post-structuralism makes all texts indeterminate, a function of context or the play of difference. Sanskrit poetics makes them open to the pure possibility of meaning, a function of the co-existence of opposites. Moreover, Western critics generally focus on the author, reader, or text from the perspective of ordinary waking consciousness. Sanskrit poetics focuses on the self-interacting dynamics of the knower, the known and the process of knowing as a connect-edness of singularity and diversity. Texts read through the latter approach are seen to encompass in varying degrees the integration of unity and diversity, eternity and history, through which we can access utopia.

To conclude, by undermining the relation of all binary oppositions such as sign/referent, sound/meaning, deconstruction dispenses with the semantic stability associated with transcendentality or consciousness. It rejects all prelinguistic cognitive or emotional states as being illusory, and instead emphasizes the radical indeterminacy of all expression, thought, and feeling. Yet because "the expression of feeling" is a social construct based on rhetorical conventions, leading apparently to an indeterminacy of meaning, does not mean that these feelings are illusory or nonexistent. As John Koethe

puts it, "Rejecting the naturalistic conceptions of expression and Cartesian accounts of the self in favor of view that argue for the social constitution of these notions may involve a reorientation of one's attitude towards them, but should not prevent one from exploring and exploiting all expressive possibilities afforded by language, however socially constituted these may be" ("Contrary Impulses," 1991, 71). Sanskrit poetics offers such a reorientation for Western culture.

Unlike logocentrism, Sanskrit poetics does not conceive of literature as a vehicle or instrument for the public expression of a prelinguistic given. Rather it considers the expression of all states of thought and feeling as constituted by a linguistic medium, by the rhetorical and semantic possibilities of historically contingent signs and texts. Sanskrit poetics, however, also conceives of language as ranging from the manifest field of temporal sequence to the unmanifest field of a unity of sound and meaning. Thus the notion of a pre-linguistic given does not apply in Sanskrit poetics. Because language extends from an outward expression to the pure possibility of meaning, no cognitive or emotional state would constitute a "logocentric" or extra-linguistic given. Indeed, the transcendental signified in Sanskrit poetics is not a determinate concept, but rather a coexistence of sound and meaning that is coextensive with pure consciousness as a field of all possibilities, including that of reaching utopia.

Moreover, the effect on the reader of infinitely deferring the transcendental signified as Derrida does through deconstruction is not simply to render meaning undecidable or a function of context, but also to render the text, as an expressive form, a more direct means of expanding the reader's awareness. Through freeplay or the movement of *différance*, deconstruction applies the signifier in a way analogous to the practice of yoga. This freeplay of the signifier, transcending or negating the boundaries of individualized meaning, has the effect of expanding the reader's awareness toward the very bliss it purports to deconstruct in terms of its epistemological truth value.

Chapter Three

Utopia, Presence, Repetition and Vedic Philosophy

The opposition in postmodern discourse between unity and diversity has its Oriental counterpart, as we have seen, in the idea of the coexistence of opposites described in Indian Philosophy and Sanskrit poetics. Sanskrit literary theory and the yogic practices of ancient India can provide new insight into the humanistic heritage of Western criticism, its paradoxes and deconstruction. As evidenced by the work of Daniel R. Schwarz, David M. Levin, and Suzi Gablik, humanism is now in the process of being reconstructed, even by former post-structuralists who have begun to reevaluate the deconstructive enterprise. Postmodern theories of language, culture, and the human subject would benefit by entering into a dialogue with the Vedic theory of the self-referral structure of consciousness and its relation to the four levels of language described in the *Rig-Ved* (Coward, *The Sphota Theory of Language*, 1980, 130).

Critics such as Mikhail Bakhtin have taught us to read literature as a dialogue of conflicting voices, but the dialogical event is an external phenomenon that does not account for the structure of dialogue within consciousness itself. In contrast, Sanskrit poetics asserts that the acquisition of knowledge depends on the interrelation between the knower, known and knowledge. It shows how these interdependent elements operate in the creation of the structure of self-interaction experienced by the author and reflected by the text. Effective readers repeat in their own awareness the self-referral dynamics of the text, which in turn is a repetition of the self-referral structure of the author's mind. Self-referral as a logocentric experience of self-presence has of course been called into question by deconstruction, but this questioning hinges on the notion of difference or nonidentity conceived from an ordinary state of awareness. Sanskrit poetics defines this ordinary state as that from which presence and difference appear not to coexist. The process through which self-referral leads toward the re-enactment of presence in the author and readers continue to elude most modern-day theories of

repetition. Unlike Sanskrit poetics, these theories of repetition fail to appreciate the role of expanded awareness in the direct experience of the coexistence of opposites, such as that between presence and difference, sound and meaning, unity and diversity, all of which induce utopia.

The notions of self-referral and the subject, in the absence of a clear experience of expanded consciousness, have become easy prey to the deconstructive tendencies of ordinary waking consciousness, or what Peter Malekin calls "the ordinary waking semi-conscious level of supposed consciousness" ("Kāla: Timelessness and Measure," 1991, 1). In chapter two, I described the difference between the Sanskrit and poststructuralist notions of self-referral in terms of the experience of object-referral. Poststructuralists generally hold that the element of difference in object-referral precludes the possibility of unity in self-referral. That is, because the experience of any object of awareness occurs simultaneously with the thoughts, impressions, memories, and beliefs about the object, the subject is overshadowed by the element of difference in these conceptions. Yet Sanskrit poetics holds that under the proper conditions, self-referral and object-referral can coexist (S. K. De, *History of Sanskrit Poetics*, 1960, 259-83), that the subject can entertain the object of awareness without being overshadowed by it. Whereas the subject for poststructuralism is not a presence but a function of repetition or difference, the subject for Sanskrit poetics involves a state of expanded awareness that includes difference by allowing the subject and object to be experienced simultaneously.

In *Fiction and Repetition*, J. Hillis Miller develops a deconstructive approach to seven English novels based on the history of the theory of repetition, ranging from the Bible and the classical Greeks through Vico, Hegel and Marx and up to contemporary theorists as diverse as Jacques Lacan, Gilles Deleuze, Mircea Eliade, and Jacque Derrida. All representation is a mode of recurrence—whether its model or referent is historical, semiotic, or mythic. The concept of repetition plays a major role not only in the aesthetic and hermeneutic theories of literary studies, but also in the interpretive methods of a wide range of disciplines, including law, anthropology and economics. In *The Interpretation of Culture*, Clifford Geertz takes repetition to be an inescapable aspect of cultural study: "The concept of culture I espouse [. . .] is essentially a semiotic one. Believing, with Max Weber, that man is an animal suspended in webs of significance he himself has spun, I take culture to be those webs, and the analysis of it to be therefore not an experimental science in search of law but an interpretive one in search of meaning" (1973, 5). Geertz argues that the representations of cultural studies are not incompatible with realism as long as the latter is not surreptitiously substituted by the former.

Literary criticism is a third order repetition of a second order creative repetition. Sanskrit poetics can show how the mechanics of the initial repetition of the author's awareness has greater subtlety than postmodern theories might suggest. An Oriental perspective, as Uta Schaub notes, can be particularly useful because of its covert influence on poststructuralists such as Michel Foucault ("Foucault's Oriental Subtext," 1989, 306-16), and as Robert Magliola notes, because of its similarity to certain aspects of deconstruction (*Derrida on the Mend*, 1984, 3-54).

In "Presence and Repetition: The Other and Anthropological Writing," Johannes Fabian describes the "difference between reality and its doubles" in terms of a "distance [. . .] between the knower and the known" (1990, 754). He defines representation as a process through which the knower, conceived "as a viewer and observer [. . .] interpose[s] a system of concepts (a method or a logic) between reality and the mind" (*Ibid*., 754-5). Representation thus involves an interaction between the knower (a scientific or philosophical observer), the known (human reality), and the process of knowing (method or logic). What we call reality is a product of perception within an historical context, the result of "a tension between re-presentation and *presence*" (*Ibid*., 755, original emphasis). Even though the Other exists as an anterior reality, our awareness of it involves the hermeneutics of repetition. For Fabian, the process of "othering expresses the insight that the other is never simply given, never just found or encountered, but *made*" (*Ibid*., original emphasis). Instead of thinking of representation as a function of the brain, he defines it

> more modestly [. . .] as something that we actually do, as our praxis. This would help us to realize that our ways of making the Other are ways of making ourselves. The need to go *there* [. . .] is really our need to be *here* (to find or defend our position in the world) [. . .] If representation is thought of above all as praxis, this has two consequences: 1) The foremost problem with it will not primarily be accurate reproduction of realities but—how shall we call it?—repetition, reenactment. 2) Representations (in the plural) will then be considered as acts or sequences of acts, in short, as performances. ("Presence and Repetition," 1990, 756-7, original emphasis)

Fabian points out that different observers make different representations, and that "ways of making the Other are ways of making ourselves." But he does not probe the self-referral quality of this relationship. For Sanskrit poetics, different kinds of representations stem from different kinds of repetitions and reenactments. Each reenactment has its own degree of self-referral integration between the observer, observation and observed necessary for utopia—an integration that poststructuralists claim is eliminated by repetition.

Miller explores the tissue of recurrence in his seven English novels by distinguishing two types f repetition—the first Platonic and the second Nietzschean, the core opposition of the poststructuralist controversy. The "'Platonic' repetition is grounded in a solid archetypal model which is untouched by the effects of repetition. [. . .] The validity of the mimetic copy is established by its truth of correspondence to what it copies" (*Fiction and Repetition*, 1982, 6). In contrast, the "Nietzschean mode of repetition posits a world based on difference." It holds that "each thing [. . .] is unique, intrinsically different from every other thing." For Miller, the latter repetitions "are ungrounded doublings which arise from differential inter-relations among elements which are all on the same plane. This lack of ground in some paradigm or archetype means that there is something ghostly about the effects of the second kind of repetition" (*Ibid*.). The Platonic mode of repetition is that of humanism, and the Nietzschean mode is that of deconstruction. Miller also distinguishes these modes in terms of mental processes, or two kinds of memory. The first repetition involves voluntary memory, a "rational, willed, intentional remembering," and the second repetition involves an "involuntary memory which Benjamin calls forgetting" (*Ibid*., 7). The first kind of memory emphasizes likeness, and the second, which Miller favors in his own criticism, emphasizes similarity within difference. The function of repetition thus involves three interrelated elements: the world s an anterior reality, its literary representation, and the memory of the author and the reader. These elements correspond to the abstract categories of the object of knowledge, the process of knowing, and the knower respectively. As we shall see, different kinds of interaction between these elements result in different kinds of representation.

In his critique of Miller's theory of repetition, the new-humanist Daniel Schwarz argues that "in the second kind of repetition, one can only have repetition when one has—if only for a moment—the stability of a ground. For without the ground of a prior thing or word or event, how can a second thing echo or repeat the first?" (*The Humanistic Heritage*, 1986, 235). In questioning Miller's "differential interrelations" as a pure category in opposition to a Platonic resemblance, Schwarz notes that even "humanism often implies a relativistic universe without ground, and the deconstructive modes uses arguments from authority, while referring beyond the text to anterior conceptions about language and how texts behave" (*Ibid*.). Humanism proposes its own "differential relations" on a horizontal dimension in contrast to the "vertical perspective" that dominates Neo-Platonism (*Ibid*.). Schwarz goes on to make two important observations: first, that Miller's two repetitions, one vertical and the other horizontal, resemble the binary opposites of any dualism, since one side always invokes the

memory or trace of the other side; and second, that Miller's apparent attempt to "reconcile humanism and deconstruction [. . .] illustrate[s] this inevitable presence of conceptual counterparts" (*Ibid*., 236). Miller implies this coexistence when he observes that the definition of the novel as "a representation of human reality in word" contains three possible interrelated discourses about the novel. The first emphasizes "human reality," the second "representation," and the third the fact that the representation of human reality is conveyed "in words" (*Fiction and Repetition*, 1982, 20).

Miller emphasizes the third approach by favoring a "rhetorical" criticism based on the second repetition and its involuntary or forgetful memory. He explores how the words of a text inhibit "the coherent or noncontradictory working of the other two dimensions of fiction"—human reality and representation (*Ibid*.). The rhetoricity of the novel accounts for its linguistic and mimetic diversity, for the differential interrelations or the second kind of repetition. He ends by asserting that "The novel renders impossible of solution the problem of the truth behind the words, the problem of 'truth' as such. Critics can only in one way or another restate the alternatives without resolving them into unity, moving back and forth from one to another as one passage or another in the text is stressed as evidence" (*Ibid*., 230). Miller rejects his former allegiance to phenomenology because he believes that in the criticism of consciousness the "intimate grain of the author's language tens to disappear" (*Ibid*., 190). Nevertheless, even as a deconstructor, he reaffirms the ground of humanism by accentuating the interdependence of the subject, the world, and the text—or in Sanskrit terms the knower, the known and the process of knowing. And yet, this interdependence and the attempt to reconcile humanism and deconstruction, or unity and diversity, occur mainly on the historical dimension; they do not fully deal with the synchronic resonance of language and the subject. The limitation in Miller's theory derives in part from his narrow interpretation of the hypothesis of heterogeneity.

As Barbara Johnson, who Miller quotes, puts it, "Instead of a simple 'either/or' structure, deconstruction attempts to elaborate a discourse that says neither 'either/or' nor 'both/and' nor even 'neither/nor,' while at the same time not totally abandoning these logics either" (*Ibid*., 17). Johnson explains this hypothesis as an attempt to undermine the oppositional logic that separates deconstructive from other modes of criticism. The undecidability of heterogeneity is what Derrida calls "the difference of difference" (*Disseminations*, 1981, 127). From the viewpoint of Sanskrit poetics, however, the undecidability of rhetoric does not constitute an impasse for logic so much as an avenue for the intellect to move beyond the two kinds of memory described by Miller. In addition to the voluntary memory of a prior model

and the automatic forgetting of the imagination, memory also has the capacity for reenacting rather than merely reconceptualizing the structure of mental processes. This third function of memory complicates the deconstruction of the "metaphysics of presence"—despite Derrida's insistence that what is "denoted as difference is not theological, not even in the most negative order of negative theology" (*Writing and Difference*, 1978, 134).

As understood historically in terms of what Frank Lentricchia calls its "various fictive appellations, from subject to substance to eidos to arche to elos, transcendentality, conscience, structure, man [. . .] or God" (Qtd. in Schwarz, *Humanistic Heritage*, 1986, 238), the metaphysics of presence is a mere concept that does indeed belong to the domain of logic and as such is a candidate for deconstruction. This concept of presence, as opposed to its reenactment through what I shall describe later as the drama of consciousness, is apparently all that the voluntary memory and Platonic repetition by what Miller has to offer. And yet to describe a *metaphysics* of presence is to refer ultimately to a hyperessential experience that extends the ordinary dimensions of space, time and causality implied by the limitations of an intellectual construct. Generally, when poststructuralists say that the presence of an origin or center is infinitely deferred, they merely indicate that the possibility of presence through the first kind of repetition, the memory of a world created by the imagination. What I am suggesting here is that even the first kind of repetition, as conceived by Miller, cannot deliver presence, and that the deconstructive hypothesis *neither* 'either/or' *nor* 'both/and,' because of the effect of its rhetorical freeplay on the awareness, implies an alternative experience that goes beyond the deconstructive mode of self-referral, for the self-referral of Sanskrit poetics does lead to utopia, since as Jameson notes, according to Derrida's dictum, "there is no such thing as sense perception" (2007, 120).

The creative and interpretive repetitions of literary texts have an anthropological parallel, or perhaps antecedent, in the cosmogonic repetitions studied by Mircea Eliade in *The Myth of the Eternal Return*. Eliade explores how archaic peoples created reality through the repetition of celestial archetypes. These people conferred the symbolism of a Center on their cities, temples and homes by imitating the god's creation of the universe. Whenever carving a new cultural zone out of the surrounding desert, they performed rituals and ceremonies repeating the original acts of gods, heroes, and ancestors who, being situated in the "center of the world," created sacred space out of the formless chaos (Eliade, *The Myth of the Eternal Return*, 1971, 34). As Eliade contends, every significant "terrestrial phenoemenon [. . .] corresponds to a celestial, transcendent, invisible term, to an 'idea' in the

Platonic sense" (*Ibid*., 6). He describes Vedic, Roman, and Scandanavian ritual ceremonies as repetitions of the act of creation, yet, for obvious reasons, he confines his discussion to the realm of sacred gesture as opposed to sacred thought:

> If the act of the Creation realizes the passage from the nonmanifest to the manifest or, to speak cosmologically, from chaos to cosmos, if the Creation took place from a center, if, consequently, all the varieties of being, from the inanimate to the living, can attain existence only in an area dominantly sacred. [. . .] [then] [e]very creation repeats the pre-eminent cosmogonic act, the Creation of the world. [. . .] Consequently, whatever is founded has its foundation at the center of the world (since [. . .] the Creation itself took place from a center). (*The Myth of Eternal Return*, 1971, 18)

More relevant for the repetition of writing and reading would be the nature of sacred thought as a mental process that accompanies the gesture of cosmogonic repetition, yet remains unavailable to anthropology except by inference.

The connection between human thought and cosmogonic development is perhaps best explained in The Bhagavad-Gita: "Know action to be born of Brahma / (the Veda). Brahma springs from / the Imperishable. Therefore the / all-pervading Brahma is ever / established in yagya" (Maharish, *On The Bhagavad-Gita*, ch. 3, v. 15, 1969, 205). As explained in the commentary by Maharishi Mahesh Yogi,

> The first manifestation of creation is the self-illuminant effulgence of life. This is the field of established intellect, or the individual ego in its own established state. This self-illuminant effulgence is called the Veda. The second step in the process of manifestation is the rise of what we call vibration, which brings out the attributes of prakriti, or Nature—the three gunas. This point marks the beginning of the functioning of the ego. Here experience begins in a very subtle form: the trinity of the experience, the experienced, and the process of experience comes into existence. (*On the Bhagavad-Gita*, 1969, 206)

The importance of the cosmogonic event, not only for archaic people but for everyone, is that creation and human awareness have a common source, and that individual awareness can approach this source through an experience of more subtle levels of the mental process, which takes humanity to utopia, for as Jameson says, "readers must turn inward and meditate" (2007, 141).

Eliade alludes to these mental processes in terms of the psychological effects of the archetypal experience. Through an archetypal repetition, the participant "sees himself as real, i.e., as 'truly himself,' only, and precisely, insofar as he ceases to be so" (*Myth*, 1971, 34). Ironically, only by abolishing the profane time of ordinary life and entering the mythical time of ritual

ceremonies—or what Frank Kermode in *The Sense of an Ending* refers to as the kairos of epiphany as opposed to chromos or linear time (1967, 50)—is the individual "truly himself?" In the Vedic tradition, which provides one of the oldest descriptions of time as an eternal return, "Time is a conception to measure eternity. Indian historians base their conception of time on eternal Being; for them eternity is the basic field of time" (Maharishi, *On the Bhagavad-Gita*, ch. 4, v. 1, 1969, 253). To be ontologically awake beyond chronology is thus opposed to the state of "becoming," but what does it mean to be awake in sacred time? Objectively it means to participate in the repetition of an archetypal gesture. But in order for this sacred gesture to be effective, it must be grounded in a subjective correlative—a self-referral reenactment that extends Fabian's valuable notion of praxis as "making the Other" by means of "making ourselves," which is the only way to reach utopia. As Jameson notes, "the debate over Utopia's representability or not, indeed over it imaginability or conceptualization, does not threaten to put an end to Utopian speculation altogether" (2007, 142), even though conceptualization does not induce utopia.

This subjective experience can be deduced from the relation between myth and history in the popular memory of a cultural hero. As Eliade observes, "the recollection of a historical event or a real personage survives in popular memory for two or three centuries at the most" before the personage "is assimilated to his mythical model (hero, etc.), while the event is identified with the category of mythical actions" (*Myth*, 1971, 43). Eliade notes that in preserving the exemplary and not the individual, the "memory of the collectivity is ahistorical" (*Ibid*., 44). This collective "ahistorical" memory suggests that the national consciousness of a society as a whole can gradually integrate the mythical and historical modes of existence by means of mental processes apparently analogous to the individual repetition of a celestial paradigm. Both the individual and the collective mind seem to experience the repetition of the cosmogonic passage from chaos to cosmos. But this repetition occurs not as an abstract idea so much as a reenactment through an experience of expanded consciousness within an historical context. The oscillation between history and myth, the individual and the exemplary, is by definition an oscillation between unity and diversity, wholeness and fragmentation. In Walden, for example, Thoreau describes this oscillation as a coexistence of time sacred and profane. "Time is but the stream I go a-fishing in. I drink at it; but while I drink I see the sandy bottom and detect how shallow it is. Its thin current slides away but eternity remains" (1960, 271), and this experience of eternity takes humanity toward utopia.

There are thus two interrelated parallels in the myth of the eternal return: that between the individual and the collective experience of archetypal

repetition—with popular memory cosmologizing history into myth, integrating the temporal and the timeless; and that between the original process of manifestation in the creation of the universe and it reenactment in the mental processes of the hero and of people who assimilate history into myth. The first parallel suggests that archetypal repetition as a reenactment is available not only to an heroic figure. Anyone can move back and forth between history and myth. The second parallel suggests that a cosmogonic repetition involves a reenactment in a unique state of mind of the process of manifestation through which we know or make ourselves. Reenactment therefore constitutes a third kind of memory, the memory of a field of all possibilities that takes us to utopia.

If these parallels seem to be far-fetched, the theoretical John Hagelin proposes that it is no longer a mere fantasy to regard the world of things and the world of thoughts as having a common origin in a field characterized by infinite creativity, energy and intelligence ("Is Consciousness the Unified Field?" 1987). This unified field, moreover, seems to share with consciousness the three-in-one, self-interacting structure of the knower, the known and the process of knowing. If this connection is a fantasy, it is one the quasi-objective rhetoric of science is preparing to accept. As Hagelin notes in his study of Vedic philosophy in terms of physics,

> due to its intrinsic nature as consciousness, consciousness is aware of its own existence—i.e., consciousness "witnesses" itself. [. . .] This highly nonlinear, self-interacting property of awareness sets up with the field of consciousness a three-in-one structure of knower, known and process of knowing: consciousness (the knower) is aware of consciousness (the known) through the agency of consciousness (the process of knowing). [. . .] This highly nonlinear, self-interacting quality of consciousness is a familiar property of any unified non-Abelian guage field. [. . .] As a consequence of its own self-coupling, a non-Abelian field responds dynamically to its own presence—the field interacts with the field through the agency of the field. It is this highly nonlinear, self-interacting or "self-referral" property of the field [. . .] that makes the unified field a field of consciousness. ("Restructuring Physics," 1989, 15)

As two opposing statements of verisimilitude, Hagelin's proposal from physics and Derrida's definition of an absolute, pre-ontological difference seem to describe contradictory states of affairs. As Stanley Fish notes in *Doing What Comes Naturally*, however, rhetorical, speaker-relative expressions made from diverse viewpoints, as in philosophy and science, often suggest latent similarities at more subtle levels of the author's thought (1989, 1-33). Post-structuralism and science are objective approaches to knowledge insofar that they emphasize object-referral, yet by means of their rhetorical dimension they slide toward the subjective approach of self-referral described

by Sanskrit poetics. Derrida's notion of *différance* as an agency that "nothing precedes" (*Positions*, 1981, 28), rather than undermining the metaphysics of presence, intimates the inherent dynamics of the nonmanifest three-in-one structure of both pure consciousness and the proposed unified field of natural law, which are identical and lead to utopia, which Jameson indicates requires a leap beyond "our empirical present" (2007, 147). According to Derrida, "pure difference, which constitutes the self-presence of the living present, introduces into self-presence from the beginning all the impurity putatively excluded from it" by logocentrism ("The Voice that Keeps Silence," 1973, 85).

From the viewpoint of Sanskrit poetics as discussed in chapter one, however, difference is an integral part of self-presence, not an impurity. It inheres in the self-referral dynamics of consciousness as a unity of three-in-one, which induces utopia. As the Bhagavad-Gita states, "The Vedas' concern is with the three / gunas. Be without the three gunas, / O Arjuna, freed from duality" (Maharishi, *On The Bhagavad-Gita*, ch. 2, v. 45, 1969, 126). As explained in the commentary, difference is an essential part of creation: "The entire creation consists of the interplay of the three gunas—*sattva*, *rajas*, and *tamas*—born of *prakriti*, or Nature. The process of evolution is carried on by theses three gunas" (*Ibid*., 128). To "Be without the three gunas" means to go beyond the duality of object-referral to the unity of subject-referral in which the subject and object coexists. This coexistence of subject and object on the level of pure consciousness is what distinguishes the Sanskrit experience of self-referral from the poststructuralist notion of self-referral as a play of the signifier. And yet the rhetorical movement of freeplay also seems to transcend its limited status as a notion and lead toward coexistence as a direct experience, a requirement for utopia.

Given the parallel between consciousness and what physics calls the unified field of natural law, a field in which unbounded subjectivity and unbounded objectivity coexist, the structure of the first impulse of thought emerging from its source deep within the mind reenacts the process of the first impulse in creation emerging from the unmanifest unified field, a necessary component for utopia. This process occurs continuously as the universe expands through the oscillation of simultaneous expansion and contraction (Stephen Hawkings, *A Brief History of Tine*, 1988, 35-51). As a source of infinite dymanism and a field of all possibilities, this common ground of consciousness and physics helps to explain the godlike feats of mythical heroes who seem to have miraculous powers, including the ability to disappear and fly. George Dumezil defines this cosmic field in terms of its effects in the lives of heroes such as Indra and Heracles, who exhibit the three mythical "functions of sovereignty, force, and fecundity" (*The Destiny of the*

Warrior, 1970, 4). When an individual taps into mythical time and reenacts the cosmogony on the level of consciousness, then he or she harnesses the creative energy of the laws of nature, an important component for utopia, otherwise one's remains caught in materialism. But whether sacred or profane, of course, every act has its mental counterpart. Action depends on the quality of thought, and thought depends on the quality of being. But in order to experience the ground of being, one has to reverse the process of manifestation, otherwise again one remains caught in materialism.

In *Shamanism: Archaic Techniques of Ecstacy*, Eliade describes this reverse process in terms of the Indian exercise of yoga, union, without which humanity will not have the direct experience necessary to reach utopia, for as Jameson puts it, "anti-Utopianism is therefore a lesson in existentialism and an injunction to put the self back into political prognoses" (2007, 193):

> [. . .] the tradition of classic Yoga employs the "power" conferred by *pranayama* (breath control) as a "cosmogony in reverse," in the sense that, instead of leading to the creation of new universes (that is, of new "mirages" and "miracles"), this power enables the yogin to detach himself from the world and even in some measure to destroy it. Because yogic liberation is equivalent to completely breaking all ties with the cosmos; for a *jivan-mukta* (an enlightened person), the universe no longer exists, and if he projected his own process on the cosmological plane he would witness a total re-absorption of the cosmic forces in the first substance (*prakriti*), in other words, a return to the nondifferentiated state that existed before the creation. [. . .] it seems to us significant that Indian spirituality, seeking a means of metaphysical liberation, employed a technique of archaic magic reputedly able to abolish physical laws and play a part in the very constitution of the universe. (1972, 413).

This description of "cosmogony in reverse" misrepresents the experience described in Shankara's nondual Vedanta insofar that in the latter case physical laws are not abolished but rather become unmanifest or transcendental (Prabhavananda, *The Spiritual Heritage of India*, 1980, 208-25). Nevertheless, the experience of "cosmogony in reverse" describes the third kind of memory defined above as the mental counterpart to the ceremonial gesture of archetypal repetition. It is the memory of a union with the Self, the most important memory for reaching utopia. Yoga means union, "That (state) in which thought, / settled through the practice of Yoga, / retires, in which, seeing the Self by / the Self alone, he finds contentment / in the Self" (Maharishi, *On The Bhagavad-Gita*, ch. 6, v. 20, 1969, 423). Although this memory also seems to describe the mental counterpart to Miller's first, Platonic repetition, the latter is not typically a reenactment of unity, a re-absorption into the cosmic source; it is rather a *conceptual* experience of identity or similarity in relation to a Platonic form which is always deferred

by the play of difference. It remains for Miller a function of the intellect, an historical concept that differs radically from a direct experience.

Though not dispensing with the idea of the subject, poststructuralism displaces the metaphysical subject and thereby precludes the possibility of the first kind of repetition. According to Derrida,

> To deconstruct the subject does not mean to deny its existence. There are subjects, "operations" or "effects" (*effets*) of subjectivity. This is an incontrovertible fact. To acknowledge this does not mean, however, that the subject is what it says it is. This subject is not some meta-linguistic substance or identity, some pure *cogito* of self-presence; it is always inscribed in language. My work does not, therefore, destroy the subject; it simply tries to resituate it. (Kearney, *Dialogues*, 1984, 125).

Paradoxically, as indicated in chapter one in terms of Sanskrit poetics, the subject does have a dimension where it is simultaneously self-present and inscribed in language, namely, in the unified or *parā* level of language experienced in *turīya* or transcendental consciousness, known as the Self, the basis for utopia. Moreover, as suggested earlier, the rhetoric of deconstruction inadvertently simulates this nontemporal experience through the play of difference. The Sanskrit system of thought differentiates the mind into six levels that range from the senses to the mind (memory, association, thought), intellect (discrimination), feelings, ego (sense of identity), and Self (Radhakrishnan, ed. *Māndūkya Upanishad*, 686-98). Being self-present but not meta-linguistic or beyond language, the Self corresponds to the Platonic ideal that Miller's first repetition purports to imitate. But in Miller's description, as I have argued, this mimetic experience remains a notion of the intellect for an historical subject; it does not become a unified lived experience. Miller even says that "The first kind of memory constructs a lucid pattern from which 'life' has disappeared" (*Fiction and Repetition*, 1982, 7). The second repetition apparently replaces the absence of life, even though it is cut off from the source of life in the unbounded Self, the basis for the experience of the coexistence of history and myth, time and eternity. "The second kind of memory," he says, "constructs an imaginary life" (*Ibid*.). It makes no pretense of approaching the Self, of providing a quasi experience of decreation as does the first kind of memory. Instead it creates "a vast intricate network of lies" (*Ibid*.), of new "mirages" and "miracles" that move the attention away from unity and into greater diversity. However, only unity, which includes diversity, can produce utopia, for dystopias rely on materialism, as Jameson notes (2007, 199).

The three interrelated element that I've just described—the cosmogony in reverse, the third kind of memory or yoga, and the subject simultaneously

present unto itself and inscribed in language—all have their basis in the process of self-referral. In Sanskrit terms this process parallels *turīya* or *samhita*, the self-referral coexistence of the knower, known, and knowledge, a state of *Sat-Chit-Ananda*, or absolute bliss consciousness, without which humanity will never attain utopia.

Maharishi describes *Samhita*, that "state of pure knowledge, where knower, known and knowledge are in the self-referral state, [. . .] [as] that all-powerful, immortal, infinite, dynamism at the unmanifest basis of creation" (*Life Supported by Natural Law*, 1986, 27). As we have seen, Hagelin, in applying Vedic philosophy to physics, also equates consciousness with the ground of creation, the self-interacting structure of the unified field of natural law. As a fusion of history and permanence, the Self subsumes the other levels of the mind that constitute the historical subject. It is experienced as a coexistence of self-referral and object-referral—a coexistence of Miller's two types of repetition and memory. As Prabhavananda explains in *The Spiritual Heritage of India*, the Self (Atman) and "the inmost being of the universal Nature and of all her phenomena" (Brahman) "are one and the same" (1980, 55). Although the Upanishads represent the relation of Brahman to the universe in various ways, Shankara's nondual Vedānta, which underlies much of Sanskrit poetics, holds that Brahman and the universe are one. From this perspective, both the Self and the historical subject (the small self), and the Self and the universe are also one. Sanskrit poetics and deconstruction differ in their attitudes toward the subject largely because the former allows for a practical aspect in the form of yogic meditation through which one can achieve a direct experience of the Self, the basis for utopia. Deconstruction may lead toward this experience, but only inadvertently through its rhetoricity, not through any philosophical design necessary to reach utopia. As Jameson puts it, "the old Utopian dream of abolishing money, and of imagining life without it, is nothing short of that dramatic rupture we have evoked" (2007, 231).

As discussed earlier, in Sanskrit poetics the six levels of the subject correspond to four distinct levels of language: *vaikharī* (spoken speech), *madhyamā* (inward speech), *pashyantī* (partial unity of meaning), and *parā* (complete unity of meaning). The first two, outward and inward speech, share the qualities of the senses, mind, intellect, feeling, and ego, which belong to ordinary waking consciousness. The other two levels of speech belong to the Self, which as *turīya* or pure consciousness is the ground of Being for all objects, including sound (Coward, *Sphota*, 1980, 126-37). Although Western linguistics doe not recognize *pashyantī* and *parā* because they seem to be beyond the realm of human experience, this unified, atemporal dimension of language is not incompatible with the field of historical difference. Sanskrit

poetics allows that any signifier can be experienced as having both a variety of historical associations as well as a transcendental signified. The language user may begin with an historical meaning, and then, as the awareness moves toward *pashyantī* during an epiphanic moment, glimpse the transcendental signified without losing its historical context. Whitman, for example, knows this silent state of awareness to be the source of language: "There is in me—I do not know what it is [. . .] it is without name—it is a word unsaid. It is not in any dictionary, utterance, symbol. [. . .] It is not chaos or death—it is form, union, plan—it is eternal life—it is Happiness" ("Song of Myself," 1989, 50). Whitman's experience integrates unbounded silence and historical "form, union, plan," the timeless and the temporal. Schwarz analyzes a similar state in Joyce's *Ulysses* in terms of metaphor as a means of achieving presence: "the metaphoricity of the novel not only reveals that what is present requires something more, but that whatever might be present in the con-temporary world—a world which seems to lack purpose and meaning—would necessarily require the something more of metaphors" (*Reading Joyce's Ulysses*, 1987, 17). This some-thing more of metaphor is the unity of opposite values associated with the higher levels of language which embrace utopia.

Even in the experience of *pashyantī* and *parā*, the awareness can know the historical meanings of a word associated with *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* because the context of the unbounded Self incorporates the seed form of all levels of language. In the *parā* and to some extent the *pashyantī* experience, the referents of all words and one's own pure consciousness are one and the same, which forms the groundless ground of utopia. What characterizes the *pashyantī* experience, then, is the connectedness of the knower, the known, and the process of knowing. As a coexistence of opposites, this three-in-one experience constitutes a reenactment of the level of consciousness of the three-fold, self-interacting dynamism that physics would locate in the unified field of natural law. The experience of language through meditative practice, moreover, confirms not only Sanskrit poetics but also quantum physics. As Maharishi notes, "The growth of speech from consciousness is parallel to the growth of form in matter. [. . .] The building blocks of speech analyzed (phonology) are parallel to the building blocks of physical existence (physics). Physics and phonology can be the same because the impulses which constitute the object and the sound have the same form" (*Phonology of Creation*, 1972, Videotaped Lecture).

The intellect, therefore, remembers the Self in an operation of reverse cosmogony. The first impulse of creation is reenacted on the level of consciousness through an oscillation at infinite frequency between one and three, unity and diversity. On the one hand, Miller's first repetition merely

conceptualizes a unity whose full potential it never materializes, and his second repetition glorifies in the expansion of diversity even as an illusion. On the other hand, a taste of *turīya* or the Self leads to a unity-amidst-diversity that incorporates both history and permanence through the process of self-referral. It is a Platonic repetition experienced not conceptually, but through the praxis of the intellect curving back to the Self, a necessity for experiencing utopia. The third, self-referral repetition constitutes the experience of yogic meditation and to a lesser extent the *rasa* of reading literature. On the basis of this experience of self-referral, Sanskrit poetics posits that although the same word may have different signifiers in French, English, and German, when experienced in *pashyantī* and *parā* they will evoke the same transcendental signified, which underlies utopia.

The self-referral mechanics underlying the coexistence of opposites can also be found operating in poststructuralism, as evidenced by Johnson's hypothesis. Deconstruction, she writes, "attempts to elaborate a discourse that says neither '*either*/or' *nor* 'both/and' (etc.) [. . .] while at the same time not totally abandoning these logics either" (Qtd. in Miller, *Fiction and Repetition*, 1982, 17). The attempt to grasp this idea with the intellect leads to the experience of aporia. But in terms of Sanskrit poetics, this logical impasse can be surmounted if the intellect connects with the Self through a process of self-referral. As the faculty of discrimination operating in the field of difference, the intellect gives rise to the individual viewpoints of either/or. The experience of the intellect in terms of the Self, however, allows for individual viewpoints to coexist in the nonlinear, all-inclusive context of pure awareness, yet without abandoning the linear, historical logics of either/or. Although the intellect is the agent of diversification, when it collapses upon the Self it participates in the drama of consciousness. This drama constitutes the third kind of memory through which unity and diversity are experienced simultaneously—with diversity perceived as a mere notion of the intellect; nevertheless, only pure consciousness and not the intellect will lead to utopia.

As Schwarz and other humanists have pointed out, the move in post-modern discourse toward plurality, indeterminacy, and the infinite deferral of the transcendental signified does not eliminate the possibility of partial truths or the preference of one set of values over another (Schwarz, *The Trans-formation of the English Novel*, 1989, 141-75). Indeed, the move toward a nonlinear experience of polyphonic openness and heteroglossia suggest the corresponding move in Sanskrit poetics toward *pashyantī* and *samhita*. In a sense the rhetorical play of the former inadvertently provides a way to the unity of the latter by fostering the natural tendency of the mind to flow in the direction of all possibilities (Harland, *Superstructuralism*, 1987, 149-51). But if poststructuralism tends to collapse the fullness of literature on the side of

the signifier, Sanskritp poetics collapses this fullness within the self-referrl dynamics of the text and subject.

As I have argued here, the third kind of repetition and memory is the result of reading and writing not with the mind alone, but with the psycho-physiology as a whole. Wholeness, such as that of language, gives rise to the experience of bliss, which is the very nature of the Self and the essence of utopia. In Sanskrit poetics, the purpose of speech is to create bliss in the listener. The memory of bliss occurs through the experience of language as a presence. Dr. Deepak Chopra, a physician who combines Western and Ayurvedic or preventative treat-ments, has conducted extensive research on the integrating value of bliss, which has important implications for aesthetic response: "When the physiology experiences bliss, it is not something merely pleasant or delightful that is happening. The body is being linked to its basic structure, which is organized in pure consciousness before any physical values appear. The Vedic tradition says that the quantum mechanical body is composed entirely of bliss. ("Bliss," 1991, 145-50). The memory of bliss and the resulting experience of language as a presence occurs through the conscious unity of the intellect and Self. Miller notes that "A critic must choose either the tradition of presence or the tradition of difference, for their assumptions about language, about literature, about history, and about the mind cannot be made compatible" (*Fiction and Repetition*, 1982, 19). If this statement is true from the view-point of the tradition Miller has chosen, it is only partially true from the viewpoint of Sanskrit poetics. And it is hardly true at all from the viewpoint of the memory of bliss, which can be glimpsed through the praxis of any tradition despite its theoretical claims. An example would be the body of bliss described by Roland Barthes in The Pleasure of the Text. Ultimately, bliss is the main feature of utopia.

Chapter Four

Utopia and James Joyce's *Ulysses*

The dialogical discourse in *Ulysses* not only includes Joyce, the reader, and the characters, but also encompasses the interior dialogues within the mind of each. Mikhail Bakhtin emphasizes the "extralocality" of dialogue (Mather Roberts, "Poetics Hemeneutics Dialogics," 1989, 122), the concrete, historical context in which any dialogue occurs as an unrepeatable phenomenon. He argues that the external "situation enters into the utterance as an essential constitutive part of the structure of its import" ("Discourse in Life and Discourse in Art," 1981, 397). In this chapter I shall argue two points: first, that in Ulysses the narrative situation consists of two kinds of dialogue, the external Bakhtinian dialogues and an internal dialogue based on the experience of self-referral; and second, that the interrelation of these dialogues has a decisive impact on the novel's semantic structure. The internal dialogue consists of a self-referral movement within the subject between the knower, known, and knowledge. I propose that from the viewpoint of Sanskrit poetics, any movement toward a greater collectedness of these elements in Joyce's, Bloom's, or Stepehn's consciousness has a commensurate effect upon the reader's consciousness.

In his early essay "Toward a Philosophy of Act," Bakhtin distinguishes between theoretical cognition and historical existence, arguing that the former cannot reduce the latter into abstract notions of the intellect (G. S. Morson and C. Emerson, *Rethinking Bakhtin*, 1989, 1-60). The ethics of any act are not a matter of the categorical or transcendental, as defined by Kant, but rather of the concrete and particular. It depends not on a theoretical truth or norm, but on the "oughtness" of an individual act performed in a particular historical context. The dialogue of a novel such as *Ulysses* consists of at least two extraverbal contexts: the original context of the author's utterance, and the new context of the reader's response. "The event of the life of the text," writes Bakhtin in *Speech Genres*, "always develops *on the boundary between two consciousnesses*" (1992, 106).

The dialogical situation, defined as a "live entering" through which one "lives into" the place of the other "while still maintaining one's own place,

one's own 'outsideness'' (Qtd. in Morson and Emerson), does not because of its unfinalizable or unrepeatable nature exclude the possibility of generalization or abstraction, as Bakhtin would have it. On the contrary, the dialogical situation transforms these transcendental or abstract values associated with self-referral so that one experiences them as being just as unfinalizable or unrepeatable, open, and surprising as a living reality itself. From the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, the "outsideness" of the Bakhtinian dialogue can be extended to include an inside component consisting of the dialogue within each participant based on the experience of self-referral, the basis for utopia. As Ken Wilber notes in *Integral Spirituality* (2006), those in a non self-referral or materialistic state discover that it "merely cements their ignorance of their cultural embeddedness" (48), which does not lead to utopia.

Even though Bakhtin's dialogical discourse seems to exclude the non-temporal ground of transcendentality, its combination of an outer and inner aspect corresponds in Sanskrit poetics to the coexistence of opposites associated with the fourth state of consciousness or *turiya*, the ground of utopia. That is, the coexisting dimensions of the dialogue suspend the opposition between being and nonbeing, concrete and abstract, experience and reason. Uta Schaub summarizes the distinction between. Occidental nothingness, which negates, and Oriental emptiness, which neither negates nor affirms but rather contests: "emptiness is not to be thought of as 'nothing' or pure negativity" ("Foucault's Oriental Subtext," 1989, 310). Whereas Occidental dialectics proceeds through theoretical oppositions and culminates in a logical proof, Oriental thought proceeds through direct experience to an all-encompassing fourth state of consciousness in which truth, being completely self-referral, consists of a unity of subject and object—or knower, known, and knowledge. This field of reality (*mokşa*, *nirvāna*, *samādhi*) subsumes and permeates the field of delusion (*māyā*, *samsra*) (Coward, *Sphota*, 1980, 32-48). Bakhtin critiques the Western dialectical method, yet by emphasizing the concreteness and unrepeatability of the dialogical event he seems to provide only an implicit counter image to the rationalism of the Occidental tradition. His polyphonic criticism, variously considered formalist, structuralist, poststructuralist, Marxist, and humanist, also resembles Sanskrit poetics in its emphasis on affirmation, dynamism, and process.

Bakhtin's approach distinguishes between "live entering" on the one hand, and theoretism or abstracting out the "eventness" of literature on the other. Through "live entering," "dialogue," "novelness," and "creative understanding," he in effect describes a system of differences that paradoxically leads to an experience of balance or unity. In Sanskrit poetics this unity is defined not as an abstract idea but as a concrete, lived experience, essential for experiencing utopia. It is a real and practical experience of the

coexistence of opposites, an experience of engagement in a particular dialogical context against the background of a cosmic context experienced directly through a dialogue within consciousness itself. When the three elements of the inner dialogue approach a state of collectedness, a unity of three-in-one, then the outer dialogue undergoes a transformation that Bakhtin describes variously in terms of laughter, carnival, or parody. These dialogical attributes result when the tension of outer conflict finds release through an inner openness or freedom.

The dialogical relation in *Ulysses* between Joyce and his protagonists underlies the novel's theme of paternity. As Clark and Holquist explain, "That which in his [Bakhtin's] epistemology is modeled as the I/other distinction becomes in his aesthetics the distinction between the author, who occupies a position analogous to the self, and the hero, who occupies a position analogous to the other. This movement is rehearsed each time the text is read, as the reader becomes the flesh of .the author's meaning, a self transgradient to the text's otherness" (Clark and Holquist, "Mikhail Bakhtin," 1989, 87-8). Bakhtin claims that "the novel always includes the activity of coming to know another's word" (Bakhtin, *The Dialogic Imagination*, 1981, 353), that "we have a plurality of consciousness, with equal rights, each with his own world, combining in the unity of an event but nonetheless without fusing" (Bakhtin, *Problems of Dostoevsky's Poetics*, 1986, 8). In *Literature and Spirit*, David Patterson says that in the dialogic process "the author approaches himself as a living subject by way of his relation to his fictional hero" (1988, 69). In the dialogic meeting between the author and hero, self and other, the truth of both emerges through their reciprocal response, in which the "author," as Bakhtin writes, "speaks not about as character, but with him" (*Doestoevsky*, 63).

The fictional structure of the novel takes the author on a quest for truth, whether of a concept or the unbounded Self, and this truth always resides "elsewhere" as "something yet to be fulfilled" (Patterson, *Literature and Spirit*, 1988, 71). The opposition which generates truth also involves a third element, the Other as the implied reader. The reader's function is to witness and judge the truth of the aesthetic endeavor. Bakhtin insists that "[a]t all events, author, hero, and listener nowhere merge together into one indifferent mass—they occupy autonomous positions" (Bakhtin, "Discourse in Life," 1987, 408). Although Patterson says "It is the absence of the self that launches the author into a movement toward himself" (*Literature and Spirit*, 1988, 73), this absence implies not the void of an Occidental nothingness in which the self is infinitely deferred, but rather a lack of balance or unity within the self between the knower, known, and process of knowing. These three aspects of the self correspond to the participants in a Bakhtinian

dialogue: for example, the author, hero, and reader, (or the author, hero/reader, and text); and in *Ulysses*, the father, son, and holy ghost.

In "Scylla and Charybdis," Joyce portrays Stephen as theorizing, if somewhat presumptuously, about Shakespeare and the relation between life and art. As is well known in Joyce's criticism, this quest for a theoretical truth involves a corresponding quest for self-identity. Through the fictional truth of Stephen, Joyce seeks to achieve a balance within himself, a process of self-referral which is not merely a concept but a direct experience through which humanity achieves utopia. In *The Atman Project* (1996), Ken Wilber describes this state as "the more highly evolved and developed structure of the psyche" that leads to pure consciousness (58), the ground of utopia. This process of self-referral, as an internal dialogue, complements the meeting between Joyce and Stephen and has a decisive impact on the episode's thematic structure. The product of Stephen's self referral activity, which he expresses in a mock-Socratic dialogue with Mr. Best, John Eglinton, and others, concerns his theory that Shakespeare identifies himself not with Hamlet but with the ghost of Hamlet's father. In Stephen's words, Shakespeare "was not the father of his own son merely but, being no more a son, he was and felt himself the father of all his race, the father of his own grandfather, the father of his unborn grandson who, by the same token, never was born" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 867). As artists, both Joyce and the unaccomplished Stephen identify with the role of Shakespeare as the spiritual father of his race, which includes being the father of their own fathers in a work of fiction. As we know from Joyce's relationship with Nora, he imagined and even seemed to yearn for an infidelity on her part which would identify him more closely with the cuckoldry of Bloom and Shakespeare. In one set of relations, Joyce (the knower) identifies with Shakespeare and Stephen (the objects of knowledge as the father and son respectively) in the act of creating fiction (the process of knowing as the holy ghost). Through his dialogue with the text, Joyce achieves on the level of his own consciousness a greater unity of knower, known and process of knowing necessary for utopia.

The trinity of father, son, and holyghost that develops in the relation between self and other, author and hero, therefore, has two components: an internal trinity and an external trinity, both of which are dialogic. But these trinities seem to create a problem for Bakhtin's theory, which is based on "finding oneself outside," as through the "aesthetic event" of literature (Qtd. in Patterson, *Literature and Spirit*, 1988, 69). Stephen says that "We walk through ourselves, meeting robbers, ghosts, giants, old men, young men, wives, widows, brothers-in-love, but always meeting ourselves" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 1044). If dialogue for Bakhtin involves coming together in the unity of an event without fusing or loss of self, then how does it occur that both Joyce

and Stephen achieve the same three-in-one condition represented by the trinity of father (or artist), son (or hero), and holy ghost (or fictional text)? Not only are these three elements identical, one person embodying three consubstantial modes; they constitute the identity of both Stephen and Joyce. "Consubstantial with Joyce the father," writes Suzette Henke, "Bloom and Stephen share a unified consciousness with their creator. They become members of a deified Trinity, simultaneously imagining the lurid phantasms that appear in 'Circe'" (Joyce's *Moraculous Sindbook*, 1978, 183). In the case of "Blephen-Stoom" where "Jewgreek is greekjew," what happens to the alterity of the self, to the simultaneous activities of knowing the other's word while maintaining a distinction between self and other?

In "The Hypostasis in *Ulysses*," Jean Kimball draws on Jungean psychology and Christian scripture to illustrate how Bloom and Stephen comprise the double mask of Joyce. Apparently incomplete within themselves, Stephen and Bloom "come together into one unified personality, even though their natures remain individually unchanged. Bloom is still Bloom, and Stephen is still Stephen, but there is a 'new man' who contains them both" ("The Hypostasis in *Ulysses*," 1973, 425). Through an analysis of the seemingly unlimited verbal "correspondences" between Stephen and Bloom, Kimball makes a case for the symbolic reality of a "new man who is the artist" (*Ibid*.,): "he knows himself as complete, the human composite of body and spirit, a whole man" (*Ibid*., 434), referring to both Stephen and Bloom. Kimball explains this "paradox of union with separation" (*Ibid*., 433) in terms of two models: the union of the two natures of Christ, which Joyce consciously used; and the idea of an "inner dialogue" that Jung defined as "an essential part of the coming to terms with the unconscious" (Qtd. in *Ibid*., 431).

The understanding of the self in Jungian psychology derives much from the Upanishads, but the Upanishads are concerned not with the finite unconscious but with the Self or infinite pure consciousness, through which humanity attains utopia. Without pure consciousness, a Jameson notes, one would only reach dystopia or an "imperfect Utopia" (2007, 380). In *Aion*, Jung quotes from the *Kena Upanishad*, which describes the nature of the higher Self: "That which speech cannot express, by which speech is expressed [. . .] which the mind cannot think, by which the mind thinks, know that as Brahman" (Jung, *Aion*, 1959, 223). When the small self or *jiva* loses its limitations, it becomes *ātman*, the big or transcendental Self; and with the unity of *jiva* and *ātman* there is Brahman, the absolute state of unbounded, pure consciousness (Maharishi, *On The Bhagavad-Gita*, 1969, 98).

However, the realization of, and even the movement toward, this state involves more than the union of the world within and the world without as metaphorically represented by Stephen and Bloom respectively. From the

perspective of Sanskrit poetics, their relation, which Kimball describes as a "hypostatic union" ("The Hypostasis of *Ulysses*, 1973, 434), and the relation between the conscious and unconscious as defined by Freud and Jung, belong mainly to the extralocal context of the outer dialogue. But as Stephen says, he finds "in the world without as actual what was within the world as possible" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 1041). Thus the two natures inherent in Christ, the absolute and relative, must also be inherent in Stephen and Bloom as individuals. Their access to this latent union within themselves cannot be explained solely in terms of the temporal dialogue as defined by Bakhrin or rendered by Jung. To explain the concrete, particular experience of a coexistence of opposites, a unity-amidst-diversity, one has to extend the extralocality of Bakhtin's dialogical discourse to include the intralocality of *turiya* or transcendental consciousness,without which utopia cannot be reached because humanity must have immediate, direct experience of the Self as a unity to attain utopia. As Ken Wilber argues in *Integral Spirituality* (2006), one must reach a state of "trans-rational glory" to achieve utopia (52).

The dialogical structure of consciousness, the relation of consciousness and language, and the notions of *rasa* (aesthetic rapture) and *dhvani* (suggested meaning) are key aspects of Sanskrit poetics relevant to our discussion of the dialogic in Bakhtin and Joyce. As explained in an earlier chapter, language consists of four levels that correspond to different levels of consciousness. Just as modern physics has located different levels of the universe, ranging from atoms and quarks to the so-called unified field, so Sanskrit poetics has located different levels of language and consciousness, ranging from the temporal to the transcendental.

Vaikharī or outward speech and *madhyamā* or inward speech correspond to ordinary waking consciousness, whereas *pashyantī* (noumenal meaning as a whole) and *parā* (the ultimate unity of sound and meaning) correspond to *turīya* or transcendental consciousness (the Self.) *Parā*, which also means the transcendent, corresponds to the Self, *pashyantī* to the finest feelings at the junction point to the self, *madhyamā* to the intellect, and *vaikharī* to the five senses.

The experience of *turīya*, or three-in-one structure of consciousness, is analogue to the experience of trinity in the internal dialogues of Stephen, Bloom, Joyce, and the reader. The extralocality and heterology of "Scylla and Charybdis" are supplemented by the synthesis of the inner dialogue through which Joyce, Bloom, and Stephen experience the self-interacting dynamics of the knower, known, and knowledge, as represented by the father, son, and the holy ghost respectively. The trinity consists of one person in three consubstantial modes, but here it also consists of at least three people. But in terms of Bakhtin's dialogic, we ask how can they maintain their separate

identities while becoming one, given that the Bakhtinian understanding excludes fusion or the loss of self? Moreover, how do Stephen and Bloom achieve "hypostatic union" if the extralocal dialogue will not suffice for this experience? Bakhtin writes that "Between my singularity and the singularity of another person, between my own concrete experience and the experience of another person [. . .] herein lies a profound ontological-event difference" (Morson and Emerson, *Rethinking Bakhtin*, 1989, 122). As Mathew Roberts says, Bakhtin opposes the Heideggerian integration "between Being, time, and human openness" that would allegedly transcend or reduce the concrete experience of the dialogic event (*Ibid*., 120).

In "Scylla and Charybdis," Joyce presents a plethora of conflicting voices on Stephen's theory of fatherhood. The overlapping fathers include Joyce, Simon Dedalus, Shakespeare, Bloom, Ulysses and Stephen himself. These fathers are also sons and ghosts. Stephen says that *Hamlet* is a ghost story in which the ghost is Shakespeare. As Richard Ellmann notes, there are two ghosts in *Hamlet*, the second being Shakespeare's child, Hamnet. Hamlet, the reincarnation of Hamnet, takes revenge on Gertrude and thus on Anne Hathaway, who "overbore" and cuckolded Shakespeare just a Molly Bloom cuckolds Leopold (*The Consciousness of Joyce*, 1977, 53-9). Stephen as son identifies not only with Hamlet, the son and ghost, but also with Shakespeare, the father and ghost—though bathetically at this stage in his life as an artist; "being no more a son, he was and felt himself the father of all his race" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 868). Bloom also identifies with the ghost in *Hamlet*: "Hamlet, I am thy father's spirit / Doomed for a certain time to walk the earth" (*Ibid*., 67-8), a passage also quoted by Stephen. Bloom thus appears interchangeable with Shakespeare as Stephen's surrogate father. As Hugh Kenner says, Stephen and Shakespeare break the consubstantial bond of "genealogical necessities" to be "free in a realer world of their own creation" (Kenner, *Ulysses*, 1987, 114). In "Oxen of the Sun," Stephen identifies himself in relation to his former schoolfellows as "lord and giver of their life" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 1116). A God-man like Shakespeare, Stephen says that a father "is a necessary evil" (*Ibid*., 868). Ultimately, Stephen not only tries to free himself from the bond of paternity, identifying with several roles simultaneously, he also professes a nonattachment to his won theory.

> – You are a delusion, said roundly John Eglinton to Stephen. You have brought us all this way to show us a French triangle. Do you believe your own theory?
> – No, Stephen said promptly. (Ulysses, 1986, 1065)

Stephen's theory convinces no one, and the irony and bathos of his situation even distances the reader. This nonidentification with any one of the three functions of the trinity, reflected in Stephen's and his audience's

attitude toward his theory, has the effect of swinging the awareness of everyone involved from the concrete to the abstract, from the boundaries of the small self toward the unboundedness of the big Self, the basis for utopia. This suggests that the significance of the paternity theme may have more to do with the dialogic process than with meaning as such. The extreme pole of this dialogic is that infinite field of consciousness where opposites coexist. In moving back and forth from an identification with a particular role or theory toward a state of nonattachment or freedom, the artist oscillates between the separation of the knower, known and knowledge, and a taste of the three-in-one unity of *turīya*. As Kenner says, Stephen's theorizing provides a "paradigm for the poetic process" (Kenner, *Ulysses*, 1987, 114), a movement from the expanded vision of the author to the point value of the work's expressive form, then back to the expanded vision of the reader through the taste or *rasa* or the form's suggested content.

In his dialogue with the library group, Stephen's quasi Aristotelian theory of historical context serves as an opposing voice that seeks to undermine the authority of a Platonist literary tradition. Bakhtin defines this opposing voice in terms of "carnival," which presents the "contradictory and double-faced fullness of life" (*Rabelais and His World*, 1984, 61). The mock aspect of Stephen's Socratic dialogue shifts our attention from its outer to its inner eventness. Once the authority of the official "objective" discourse is called into question, the reader's awareness shifts from object-referral—that is, from reference toward the space/time complex or "chronotope" (Bakhtin, *The Dialogic Imagination*, 1981, 84-259) of conventional reality—to subject-referral, in which the chronotope still applies but on an extremely fine time and distance scale where opposites begin to coexist. This internal dialogic moves the awareness of the character and reader toward the coexistence that characterizes the experience of temporary *turīya*, or *savikalpaka samādhi*, the basis for the taste or *rasa* of the *pashyantī* level of language that underlies utopia.

In an attempt to resolve the argument between Stephen and the group in the library, Eglinton sums up that "the truth is midway. [. . .] He [Shakespeare] is the ghost and the prince. He is all in all" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 1018). The truth, as also described in Sanskrit poetics, subsumes both poles in a coexistence of opposites, Stephen's intuitive logic (the artist as three) and the librarian's Platonist metaphysics (the artist as one). The suggestion here is that the artist's "all in all" consists of a three-in-one experience, defined in Sanskrit poetics as an oscillation at infinite frequency between the knower, known and knowledge as separate, and their unity in *turīya* or *samhita*. The dialogical gap or silence between the opposite poles of the argument serves to induce in the author, characters, and reader a self-referral experience that

leads the awareness from phenomenal experience or *samsāra* toward transcendental consciousness (the groundless ground of utopia)—a freedom from temporal boundaries responsible for the novel's comic effect. I am suggesting, then, that this effect accrues from the novel's internal dialogic.

While the dialogue in the library leads inward to the self-referral of unity-amidst-diversity, even on the outside the Platonic and Aristotelian poles of the argument are not wholly distinct. As Daniel Schwarz argues, "That ghosts are a frequent subject creates a subtext that undermines Stephen's belief that he is a full-fledged Aristotelian [. . .] the stress on spirituality and mysteries suggests the Platonism that Stephen must put behind him" (*Reading Joyce's Ulysses*,1987, 142). Stephen does in fact leave behind spiritual mysteries as pure abstractions, which belong to the field of the intellect as represented by his rejected theory. The Platonism that Schwarz refers to is a form of idealism severed from direct experience. Through the immediacy of self-referral, however, Stephen assimilates the intellect into the whole of life, thus blending the Platonic and Aristotelian in a coexistence of opposites that enhances utopia, or what Jameson calls "a return to Plato's Utopia" (2007, 196).

One way to appreciate this self-referral experience and its effect is through the levels of language. The utterances of Joyce, Stephen and the other characters maintain their dialogic heteroglossia in *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, which belong to the temporality of the outer dialogue. This conflict of utterance changes on the *pashyantī* or unified level of language, which Joyce and Stephen approach through their inner dialogues as represented by the novel's trinity. As we have seen, the external dialogue between Joyce and Stephen, and between Stephen and the other characters, launches a movement toward the discovery of the Self, which is always elsewhere—that is, beyond what the outer dialogue can itself elicit. As signifiers, conflicting utterances remain disparate on the *madhyamā* level of dialogical discourse, but this carnivalesque, outer event, by undermining the validity of object-referral, induces a movement toward *pashyantī* or the inner dialogue where the referents of conflicting utterances, while distinct, become aspects of a coexistence of opposites that surrounds utopia.

This movement is both toward the coexistence of sound and meaning that characterizes the transcendental signified of *pashyantī*, and toward the taste of turīya or transcendental consciousness at the basis of utopia. The unity of the knower, known and knowledge, then, is analogous to the unity of the signifier, signified, and referent. In the reading of *Ulysses* being proposed here, the author and hero, self and other, signifier and signified remain distinct on one level of the mind and language; however, on deeper levels they intersect through the concrete, self-referral experience of the characters

and reader prompted by the novel's power of suggestion. This inner dialogic resolves Bakhtin's paradox of coming together in the unity of an event without loss of self, an important aspect for humanity to attain utopia.

Because for Bakhtin consciousness cannot be separated from language, and language is interchangeable with ideology, the Self as consciousness is always an ideological construct (*Speech Genres*, 1953, 60-102). But this cultural bond between consciousness and language on the level of difference or temporality does not contradict the deeper reality of transcendental consciousness, even though the latter is only glimpsed in the act of reading. The many ideological voices in *Ulysses*, including those of popular culture, are collected in a coexistence of opposites in the heroes' self-referral consciousness, as suggested by the *pashyantī* level of the text. Stephen identifies with Shakespeare as a God-man who creates by "naming" a universe, an activity performed within culture on the basis of the unity of *pashyantī*, "the Logos becom[ing] flesh through poetry and drama" (Henke, *Joyce's Moraculous Sindbook*, 1978, 73). The voice of authority and the carnivalesque voices of popular culture may conflict with *madhyamā*, but this conflict constitutes a dialogical gap that swings the awareness from boundaries to the unbounded, from the field of difference to the unifying experience of self-referral.

In *A Portrait of the Artist*, Stephen describes the artist as having such an experience: "the artist prolongs and broods upon himself" (1993, 214), rather than upon the world through object-referral confrontation. And in "Scylla and Charybdis," Stephen defines the self as all-inclusive: "In the intense instant of imagination [. . .] that which I was is that which I am and that which in possibility I may come to be" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 381). This extension across time describes not only the artist's personality, but also the unified continuity of the Self as the coexistence of the knower, known and knowledge, which the novel integrates by means of its suggestive power. As R. B. Kershner comments, the artist's image that Stephen presents her "is *himself*"; "'image' means 'self' or 'life,' with the additional implication that this image is inextricably bound to the artist's personality, his desires and fears, and not merely to the ideal self of the artist qua artist" (*Joyce, Bakhtin, and Popular Literature*, 1989, 186). As Kershner says, this unity of the image and the artist's complete identity derives from the Romantic notion of the interchangeability of the work and self. But it also implies the deeper unity of name (image) and form (life), sound and meaning, knower, known and knowledge, which enhances utopia.

For Stephen, "A man of genius makes no mistakes. His errors are volitional and are the portals of discovery" (*Ulysses*, 1986, 228). Kershner says that because Stephen is engaged in a dialogue with the library group, he is performing and thus "overstating his case" (*Joyce, Bakhtin*, 1989, 186).

But this "overstatement" is a projection that exemplifies the dialogical process of becoming. Kershner quotes Bakhtin's interpretation of consciousness as being "consciousness of the fact that I, in my most fundamental aspect of myself, still am not. I live in an 'absolute future'" (*Ibid*., 313). While the outer dialogue is a process of becoming that may seem to infinitely defer the Self, it has its elusive goal in the fulfillment of the inner dialogue to whatever degree the latter may approach the threefold unity of *turīya* or the self-interacting dynamics of consciousness. The coexistence of knower, known and knowledge, however, while capable of integrating the artist's personality and ideal Self, is only glimpsed through the aesthetic process of self-referral, as provided by Joyce's theme of paternity. The importance of the theme of paternity as a coexistence of opposites, therefore, lies in its promoting the experience of self-referral, not in any totalizing, quantifiable meaning as an intellectual construct, for conceptualization does not lead to utopia, as Ken Wilber and Fredric Jameson have pointed out.

Jean-Michel Rabaté comments that "Paternity is reduced to being a name, which can be separated from the bearer and transmitted to an heir, as Shakespeare did when he transferred his power to Hamlet" ("A Clown's Inquest into Paternity," 1981, 83-4). Through a Lacanian reading, Rabaté asserts that Stephen and Bloom do not reach atonement, that paternity fails because the father is a mere name as opposed to a real presence. On the basis of his theory that the unconscious is structured like a language, Lacan argues that the father is more of a function than an actual person: "the attribution of procreation to the father can only be the effect of a pure signifier, of a recognition, not of a real father, but of what religion has taught us to refer to as the Name-of-the-Father" (Qtd. in Rabaté, "A Clown's Inquest," 1981, 84).

In Lacan's famous theory of psychoanalysis, language acquisition corresponds to the stages of child development. As a system of differences, language is associated with symbolic castration insofar that the child must renounce the desire for mother in the acquisition of language, defined as the Law-of-the-Father. But the symbolic order the replaces the Oedipal union with mother also in effect kills the father. Because Lacan defines language poststructurally as consisting of a division between the signifier and signified, the transcendental signified of paternity is infinitely deferred. The-Name-of-th-Father thus becomes a mere signifier that reveals a division with the subject. With language and reality in poststructuralism being unsynchronized, the son in plunged into a "poststructuralist anxiety" (Eagleton, *Literary Theory*, 1983, 166) caused by the division within himself. This division within the self that results in the father's absence corresponds to the division between name and form. Cut off from the proper unity of name and form, Bloom must use a substitute name like his father "Virag." According to

Rabaté, "Bloom mourns both his father and his son, poised between a transcribed origin and a nameless issue. As such, he can only imagine a substitute heir, like Stephen, and must also use pseudonyms" ("A Clown's Inquest," 1981, 87).

The argument that nothing exists beyond the symbolic order has already been challenged by feminist and other critics. Julia Kristeva, for example, has described the Semiotic order in the dialogue between child and mother which is anterior to the Law-of-the-Father and which supports not division but symbolic coherence (Ann Jones, "Inscribing Femininity," 1985, 80-112). In terms of Sanskrit poetics, the Lacanian symbolic order as a system of difference, like Saussure's notion of the arbitrary nature of the sign, belongs to *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* and has no affect on *pashyantī* and *parā*. In his essay "Seminar on 'The Purloined Letter,'" Lacan seeks to demonstrate how language (as the symbolic order) constitutes the subject as a function with no stable meaning by dispersing the conscious self along a chain of signifiers (*The Purloined Letter*, 2008, 77-82). But for Sanskrit poetics, the subject is associated with four levels of language corresponding to the different levels of consciousness and cannot be solely identified with the play of the signifier and so deconstructed, for as mentioned earlier, conceptuality does not lead to utopia.

Stephen and Bloom may seem to be dialogically dispersed along a chain of signifiers that prevents atonement, but when viewed in terms of *pashyantī* this narrative movement embodies a threefold play of consciousness—a dialogical experience defined as internal and concrete—even though this "symbolic reality" may seem, as Kimball puts it, to be "purely verbal" ("The Hypostasis of *Ulysses*," 1973, 425). In arguing that the father and son fail to atone "because Stephen is a son-type in the process of fathering himself, approaching the creative stage, at least one hopes, and Bloom is the imperfect father in the process of husbanding all his forces to find himself" (Rabaté, "The Clown's Inquest," 1981, 88-9). Rabaté in a sense already describes the self-interacting dynamics of consciousness through which the self becomes the knower, known and knowledge; father, son, and holy ghost. Furthermore, as Ellmann comments, Joyce disagreed with Freud on the Oedipal conflict and "preferred the filial Greeks to the parricidal (and matricidal) ones" (*The Consciousness of Joyce*, 1977, 57).

Since the full significance of Joyce's trinity resides in self-referral consciousness, one can appreciate its wholeness only from that self-referral state. The most expanded interpretation of the theme of paternity, therefore, must be equal to the three-in-one nature of the trinity itself. Unavailable from a finite viewpoint, this interpretation occurs at the level where opposites coexist, that cosmic field where trinity interprets itself. The effectiveness of

this interpretation makes the eventness of the inner dialogue just as concrete as the eventness of the outer dialogue. The former is not an intellectual construct, but a process of direct experience with positive consequences.

That the experience of self-referral has a powerful dialogic effect is exemplified in "Circe." This experience results in the laughter and freedom associated with carnival and parody, indicators of a growth of consciousness beyond conventional boundaries. Bakhtin says that laughter is not merely individual but universal and festive (*Rabelais and His World*, 1984, 11-12). It is also ambivalent, it "lifts the barriers and opens the way to freedom" (Qtd. in Patterson, Literature and Spirit, 1988, 6). As attributes of *turīya*, laughter and freedom are approached through the dialogue of self-referral, the essence of utopia. Stephen, Bloom, and the reader all glimpse this state in their experience of the Circian dream world, which is beyond linear time, beyond *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, and beyond the historical restrictions of ordinary waking consciousness. As Bakhtin says of "the parodic-travestying forms," which point toward the inner dialogic, they "liberated the object from the power of language in which it had become entangled s if in a net; they destroyed the homogenizing power of myth over language; they freed consciousness from the power of the direct word, destroyed the thick walls that imprisoned consciousness within its own discourse, within its own language" (Bakhtin, *The Dialogic Imagination*, 1981, 60). The "power of language" that "imprisoned consciousness" suggests the level of madhyamā that imprisons the awareness with the temporal boundaries of the play of difference. By conquering these linguistic and historical boundaries, Stephen and Bloom open themselves to a new vision and to the possibility of intersubjective relations of the future (Henke, *Sindbook*, 1978, 181-206).

In alternating between Bella's place in night-town and their surreal epiphanies, between the concrete (sense and mind) and the abstract (finer feelings), Stephen and Bloom move from a linear, discursive dialogue to a self-referral, cathartic inner dialogue between levels of consciousness. It is a heteroglossia of the different ideologies of the symbolic order against the background of *turīya* and *pashyantī*. When Bloom confronts his father's ghost and Stephen relives the denial of his mother's deathbed wish, and when both heroes identify with the image of Shakespeare, they dramatize hallucinations that do not interfere with their subjective sense of reality. Kenner finds that there are two kinds of hallucinations in "Circe": the phantasmagorias that belong mainly to the "mind of the text," such as the twenty pages during Bloom's uninterrupted conversation with Zoe when "he goes from Mayorhood to Martydom," which are "visible to the reader of the text alone"; and the apparition of Stephen's mother, which he really sees, as evidenced by his inadvertently breaking the chandelier by swinging at her

with his stick (Kenner, Ulysses, 1987, 119-20). Kenner says that "Nothing, in 'Circe,' distinguishes 'real' from 'hallucination,' nor any part of the episode from any other" (*Ibid*., 123). Nevertheless, Bloom somehow emerges more composed and integrated. The unifying effect of the different levels of reality in "Circe" metaphorically suggests as well as induces the expansion of consciousness through which greater integration in life can be achieved.

When Stephen and Bloom experience an expansion of awareness through self-referral, the reality they perceive changes from the concrete to the abstract, or rather from the concrete finite to the concrete infinite, where unity begins to dominate. One reason Bloom and Stephen do not distinguish real from hallucination is that for them the coexistence of opposites, which transcends their personal attitudes, has become a natural phenomenon. Their imaginations, no longer completely bound by the arbitrary, ego-centric division between the knower, known and knowledge, have become flexible enough to accommodate different realities without being overshadowed by the notion of difference. In this state of self-referral, paternity is no longer a signifier but has become an actual signified, experienced as a coexistence of self and image characteristic of *pashyantī*, which along with *parā* constitutes the ground of utopia. Even though the reader, like Bloom, will continue to make distinctions and operate in the field of difference, she also changes during the novel's dialogical process. Both reader and characters, then, experience self-referral as the awareness moves from the outer to the inner dialogue, from contraction to expansion, and thereby from *madhyamā* to *pashyantī*. Likewise, the entire episode swings back and forth between a concrete reality and a hallucinogenic Circean universe.

The freedom and laughter of self-knowledge, therefore, arises when the awareness begins to transcend the dichotomy of sound and meaning that characterizes the temporality of language, consciousness, and human experience. On the basis of memory enlivened by the power of suggestion, the author, heroes, and reader glimpse the unity of *turīya*, the infinite field of freedom, laughter, and bliss, the core of utopia. As Wilber says in *Integral Spirituality* (2006), the definition of enlightenment, which brings utopia, is the same today as it was meaningfully "operative in earlier eras" (89). In "Circe," Joyce uses suggestion to evoke the flavor or *rasa* of the whole range of human emotions that exist latently within each person. *Rasa* as we have seen is evoked by an aesthetic image and differs from the ordinary perception or memory of an actual experience. Through suggestion or *dhvani*, defined as the reference toward *pashyantī* rather than the naming of a concrete referent through *vaikharī* or *madhyamā*, *rasa* constitutes an experience of finer levels of the mind itself (Ramachandran, *Beauty*, Part 2, 1979, 67-83). The reader in this experience can remain detached from all specific emotions and thereby

appreciate the whole range of possible responses. As a process of self-referral, *rasa* ultimately enables consciousness to taste its own inherent bliss, the essential emotional state of utopia. In "Circe," Stephen moves toward this suggested state, transcending the dialectical opposites of reason toward that state where differences coexist. Bloom, as Stephen's spiritual father, also moves toward the memory of this state in his function as a witness to Stephen. Moreover, the real Bloom conversing with Zoe is not over-whelmed by the hallucinogenic dreamplay of his past. In moments of self-referral correlation, he embodies the trinity of father, son, and holy ghost like Stephen and Joyce.

Derrida describes the experience of reading Joyce as "*Being in memory of him*: not necessarily to remember him, no, but to be in his memory, to inhabit his memory, which is henceforth greater than all your finite memory can, in a single instant or a single vocable, gather up of cultures, languages, mythologies, religions, philosophies, sciences, history of mind and of literatures" ("Two Words for Joyce, 1984, 147, original emphasis). Even though Derrida alludes to the play of the signifier, this experience of being "in memory" of that which is greater than all of one's "finite memory" is a form of *rasa* or taste of transcendental consciousness, which enhances utopia. Bakhtin would call this "live entering" through which one "lives into" the place of the other "*while still maintaining one's own place*" (Morson and Emerson, *Rethinking Bakhtin*, 1989, 10-11, original emphasis). The self-referral process that leads toward this experience is analogous to the process of "righting" what Fritz Senn describes as consisting of four interconnected processes: 1) the characters, mainly Bloom, righting their thoughts and actions in order to improve them; 2) Joyce righting his work through revision; 3) the reader righting or adjusting to the novel; and 4) the book righting itself toward the diversity of dialogical fullness (Senn, "Righting *Ulysses*," 1982, 12). For Senn, these processes suggest that the novel has "its own self-critical consciousness, were 'selfrighting the balance' [sic] of its own being" (*Ibid*.). He proposes that since all the processes that make up Ulysses "are processes they would be best expressed by active verbs. The pivotal sentence of Bloom's breakfast arrangements depends, not on 'things,' 'breakfast,' 'tray,' or kitchen,' but on the actions of moving and righting. As critical readers, we might take up the hint and do what we can to counteract the Western mind's tendency toward objects, things, nouns, and categories" (*Ibid*., 19). What Senn describes is essentially the process of the awareness swinging from the concrete to the abstract, from object-referral ruled by differences and categories to a subject-referral ruled by the self-interacting dynamics of the mind righting itself. Stephen and Bloom become more integrated through this self-righting process. Although their evolution

depends on the novel's external dialogical structure for its manifestation, they find fulfillment only through a glimpse of the triadic structure of consciousness itself, which is not a category but a continuous process of remembering the unity of the knower, known and knowledge. This process underlies Bakhtin's notion of "live entering."

The heterology of *Ulysses*, therefore, consists not only of conflicts between discourses or within the opposite poles of a discourse, it also consists of oppositions within the self-referral dynamics of consciousness through which discourse is conceived and formulated. The opposing forces inherent in the language of a particular utterance reflect the degree of self-referral in the awareness of the subjects. There comes a point in the dialogue, as in the argument on paternity, when the expressive opposition coexists with a shared suggested unity. In these epiphanic moments the subject can sustain contradictions on the surface of the dialogue while at the same time appreciating, through the self-referral mechanics of consciousness, a suggested unity of a different dimension. The glimpses of the freedom of unity provided in Ulysses do not contradict what Bakhtin calls a "responsive, risk taking, open act-in-the-process-of-becoming," but rather constitute a concrete, particular even of cosmic proportions, an "oughtness" of universal value (Qtd. in Morson and Emerson, *Rethinking Bakhtin*, 1989, 9).

Chapter Five

Utopia and Faulkner's *As I Lay Dying*

In addition to the religious analogies, *As I Lay Dying* is noted for its combination of serious and comic elements. Olga Vickery describes the "ambivalent feeling of hilarity and despair," and Lyn Levins says the novel, with its heroic or religious design, is "a comedy in the sense that the Divine Comedy, and the epic in general, is a comedy" (Vickery, *The Novels of William Faulkner*, 1959, 65; Levins, *Faulkner's Heroic Design*, 1976, 113-4). Elizabeth Kerr, moreover, argues that the novel is "an ironic inversion of the quest romance" ("*As I Lay Dying* as Ironic Quest," 1973, 230-1). Comedy can be taken to refer not only to comic relief and the action's movement toward success rather than failure, but also to the joy or bliss associated with the expansion of the reader's awareness from a specific viewpoint toward an all-inclusive, transcendental viewpoint, even as the observer remains situated within an historical context. This expansion, which is less conceptual than psychostructural, can be elucidated in terms of Sanskrit poetics, particularly the theory of *rasa* or aesthetic delight (Krishnamoorthy, *Some Thoughts on Indian Aesthetics and Literary Criticism*, 1968, 26). I will argue that the novel's comic and religious themes, though apparently locked in a structure of undecidability, turn the reader's attention back toward the Self through he experience of *rasa* and thereby provide a means for the integration between the self and history.

In spite of their relevance to the modern condition, Oriental literary theories have largely gone unnoticed by Western criticism. Unlike the latter, Sanskrit poetics integrates intellectual analysis with direct experience and so resists the deconstructive reduction to a logical impasse or aporia. In defense of the much maligned humanistic heritage, moreover, Sanskrit poetics can provide the generality of an all-inclusive viewpoint without the dis-embodI-ment of an ahistorical position. Rather than being the static and rationalized "universality" of our metaphysical tradition, this viewpoint incorporates the observer's historical body within what David Levin calls the "*felt sense* of the meaning of Being" (*The Opening Vision*, 1988, 40, original emphasis).

Upholding his humanistic premise of *The Sense of an Ending* in his later "Endings, Continued," Frank Kermode writes that

> the presence of stable 'crafted text' protected by constructed readings is hard to deny and is allowed even by Derrida; and in any case it may be time to stop apologizing for 'humanism,' even though it connotes a desire for a realm, and a proneness of the kind of error without which a certain species of human being could not live—one of those illusions which, like the 'metaphysics of presence,' are so deeply ingrained that they can be thought of as among those Nietzschean lies that turn into truth for the benefit of a hapless non-superhuman humanity. This is a view to which I still incline. (1867, 86)

The phenomenological notions of endings, narrative presence, and the fullness of time and immediate experience are dealt with in Sanskrit poetics in terms of the coherence of consciousness, both of the author's and the reader's. Like phenomenology, Sanskrit poetics studies that which appears to consciousness. But unlike Husserlian phenomenology, Sanskrit poetics does not "bracket out" that which is beyond the mind or the literary text (Eagleton, *Literary Theory*, 1983, 55). Consciousness is not merely considered to be a timeless ideal or a Platonic form, but a reflection of its own physiological condition. The physical reflector of consciousness exists within time and space.

In the process of calling into question the truth value of canonical works of literature, postmodern literary theories such as deconstruction, feminism, and New Historicism have tended to treat a work as a means of exposing its ideology, or verifying the critic's own theory or method, at the expense of the work's humanity or literary value—however—"non-superhuman" this humanity may appear. Although postmodernists find the idea of an unbounded, coherent subject no more than an historically determined construct, even the decentered self, through the act of reading, has the potential for an experience of the sense of Being, which, as Wilber and Jameson note, constitutes the ground of utopia. Paradoxically, our sense of not being entirely conditioned by history suggests that we cannot entirely break from our tradition of humanism.

In Sanskrit poetics, which integrates an historical tradition with the experience of freedom, the ontological sense attained through literature is known as *rasa*. *Rasa*, as described earlier in chapter two, is the taste of delight or bliss associated with the awareness knowing itself, which for humanity constitutes the essence of utopia. The mind in this experience does not identify with individual viewpoints, such as those of the fifty-nine sections in *As I Lay Dying* that rotate among fifteen characters. Rather it identifies self-reflexively with the unbounded viewpoint of the Self or pure

awareness—the fourth state of consciousness or *turīya*, without which utopia can never be attained. This state of awareness underlies the multiple viewpoints of Faulkner's other novels, such as *The Sound and the Fury*, and is a special feature in the reaction of modernist fiction against a monolithic perspective.

The *Māndūkya Upanishad* speaks of *turīya* as the transcendental state or Samadhi, which as the Self underlies the other five levels of mind described in the *Katha Upanishad*—the senses, mind, intellect, feelings, and ego—and which also underlies the distinction made in the *Mundaka Upanishad* between the lower and higher knowledge: "The lower knowledge is the Rig-Veda [and other Vedic literature]; but the higher knowledge is that by which the Indestructible (Brahman) is apprehended" (Max Műller, ed., *The Upanishads*, Vol. 2, 1962). The lower knowledge is intellectual or sensory, whereas the higher knowledge is that of the Self, which is known as Atman. In Shankara's nondual Vedanta, Atman and Brahman, the "changeless Reality," are one and the same (Prabhavananda, *The Spiritual Heritage of India*, 1980, 55). The knowledge of Atman and Brahman is neither objective nor subjective, but "transcends [. . .] all the three categories of empirical knowledge—the knower, the thing known, and the act of knowing" (*Ibid*., 61). In Shankara's nondual Vedanta, as discussed in chapter one, when the awareness expands and becomes awake to itself, unmixed with more active states of mind, then it achieves a unity of knower, known, and knowledge in the state of permanent transcendental consciousness or *nirvikalpaka samādhi* (Shankara, *Vivekacūdāmani*, 1988, 336). This state, as we have seen, is a self-referral mode of awareness in which the three elements involved in the acquisition of knowledge coexist, through the experience of self-referral and the coexistence of these elements begins to occur in the state of *savikalpaka samādhi*, or temporary *turīya*, as well as in *rasa* or the taste of this state in the act of reading.

The experience of turīya or the fourth state of consciousness, therefore, involves the process of self-referral through which the awareness moves inward from the senses toward the Self, where it transcends the opposition between the knower, the known, and the act of knowing. This self-referral process occurs in the act of reading great works of literature. In the case of *As I Lay Dying*, this process is enhanced by Faulkner's narrative management. For Sanskrit poetics, however, the act of reading leads only to a taste of transcendental consciousness, to a *rasa* or *samādhi* as opposed to the thing itself. In addition, Vedic language theory holds that the process of moving toward the connectedness of the knower, known and knowledge in the fourth state of consciousness leads also toward an experience of language as a unity of sound and meaning (Coward, *Sphota*, 1980, 128-9). It is thus completely

opposed to the Derridean definition of self-referral through which the transcendental signified is infinitely deferred. In terms of deconstruction, Addie is right to say that "words are no good; that words don't ever fit even what they are trying to say at" (*As I Lay Dying*, 1985, 155). But in terms of Sanskrit poetics, while this view still holds for the state of ordinary waking consciousness—given the arbitrary experience of language in this state—it does not hold for the fourth state of consciousness where meaning is experienced as a noumenal whole—the unity of sound and meaning in *pashyantī* (S. Iyer, *Bhartṛhari*, 1969, 147-80), the only way on the path of reaching utopia, for only direct experience as opposed to conceptuality will induce utopia.

In Sanskrit poetics, reading involves the movement toward the experience of unity and freedom within an historical context. The goal of this movement, the fourth state of consciousness, constitutes a unity (or *samhita*) of knower, known and knowledge, which by definition entails and all-inclusive viewpoint. Because this state can only be attained through the awareness being embodied within a specific time and place, each experience of self-referral leads not to an "everywhere" that is "nowhere," a fixed notion of universality derived from the tradition of Western metaphysics. Rather it leads toward a taste or flavor of the coexistence of unity and diversity, undoundedness and boundaries, attained through the concrete experience of the physical body—such as Barthes's body of bliss—situated in a cultural context. Addie and Darl, the two characters who recognize the arbitrary nature of social systems, give priority to corporeal experience over the distancing and masking effect of words. Darl says, "If you could just travel out into time. That would be nice" (*As I Lay Dying*, 1985, 193). This openness to the experience of mutability, though carried by Darl to an extreme, constitutes the basis for the experience of self-referral—of not being attached to a single perspective. In describing Faulkner's "enigmatic spectacle" of multiple viewpoints, Calvin Bedient writes that "As I Lay Dying is to be 'seen,' not understood; experienced, not translated; felt, not analyzed" (Qtd. in Bleikasten, 1988, 133-4). By raveling out into time with Darl and the other characters through the never-ending flux of life, the reader experiences a concrete sense of that which is not entirely determined by history, the absolute of never-endingness itself.

In analyzing the mind/body connection, David Levin argues that in his theory of *Dasein*, Heidegger does not recognize "the body's role in carrying our pre-ontological understanding of Being. Heidegger does not see that the human body is the primordial bearer of this wisdom" (*The Opening Vision*, 1988, 40). In extending Heidegger's theory of being in the world, Levin

refers to our sense of a coexistence of opposites, an unboundedness within history, such as that described in Sanskrit poetics:

> Thanks to our 'gift' (the *Es gibt*) of a corporeal nature always already inherently attuned by Being [. . .] we 'have' an understanding of Being which is neither the normal understanding of anyone-and-everyone nor the understanding which Heidegger calls 'ontological.' By grace of our embodiment, we enjoy the possibility of access to an understanding of being which constitutes our belongingness to the world of social construction. [. . .] [B]y grace of our embodiment, a primordial gift (*Es gibt*), we are able to carry 'within' us a felt sense of 'the meaning of Being' which cannot be identified with the socially constituted (mis)understandings of anyone-and-everyone. (*The Opening Vision*, 1988, 40)

This "felt sense" of Being corresponds to the *rasa* of the fourth state of consciousness, to the mind's sense of its own self-referral nature. In Sanskrit poetics, the freedom from identification with any particular viewpoint or semantic content and the corresponding effect of aesthetic delight constitute the reader's fundamental experience of great literature (Ramachandran, *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, 1979, 117-27). But this experience always incorporates the full range of our faculties from the senses to the Self, from our historical understanding to our "pre-ontological understanding of Being" (Levin, *The Opening Vision*, 1988, 39). The narrative structure of As I Lay Dying enhances the process of self-referral, which both integrates the opposite values of life and underlies the experience of comedy and bliss. The spiritual overtones of the novel, therefore, derive not from religious references, but from the awareness of the reader shifting from the finite viewpoints of the individual characters toward a taste of the all-inclusive viewpoint of *turīya* or self-referral consciousness.

Catherine Patten argues that Faulkner creates a new narrative technique that combines at least three interrelated structural patterns: linear time, "geometrical and centrifugal" plot, and alternating narrative points of view that "evolve out of the consciousness of the characters and their gradual growth of perception" ("The Narrative Design of *As I Lay Dying*," 1985, 5). These structural patterns correspond to the three basic elements of knowledge mentioned earlier: the knower (the consciousness of the author, character, and reader), the known (the linear events of the story), and the process of knowing or knowledge (the suspenseful plot and narrative viewpoints which connect the knower and the known). This triadic narrative design functions in several ways to swing the reader's awareness from the concrete to the abstract, the particular to the general. It is a move from contraction to expansion, from the finite individual perspective, in which the knower, known, and process of knowing are divided and thus subject to history,

toward the all-inclusive perspective of self-referral consciousness in which the three elements are connected and thus transhistorical. From the latter pole, differences are perceived as mere notions of the intellect; however, the intellect alone as we have seen will never achieve utopia.

The various sections of the novel, while often using past tense narration, consist of a temporal unity between the time when the narrators tell the story and the time when the narrative events occur. The novel begins with Darl: "Jewel and I came up from the field, following the path in single file. Although I am fifteen feet ahead of him, everyone watching us from the cottonhouse can see Jewel's frayed and broken straw hat a full head above my own" (*As I Lay Dying*, 1985, 3). The significance of the temporal unity of the novel between story and discourse is that each character as the knower achieves a certain connection with the known, a connection with which the reader identifies. But the unity between the narrator, the narrated events, and the interweaving plot constitutes only a single perspective, and the reader identifies with it only momentarily before coming to the next character with a different perspective. Even the characters do not always identify with a single point of view. In the passage above Darl sees himself from two different viewpoints simultaneously: from the immediate stream of events, and from the cottonhouse where distance accentuates the incongruities of life. As we shall see, Darl's emotional distance from himself, which leads finally to his madness, indicates the risk involved in a self-reflexive knowledge not rooted in social responsibility.

In successively identifying with and transcending each of the novel's narrative view-point, the reader shares in a process of self-referral which goes inward from the senses to the intellect and feelings, but which can only suggest the existence of the expanded viewpoint of pure consciousness or the Self, the essence of utopia. Each vision of reality is created through the self-referral integration of the subject (knower), the story or narrative (known), and the narration or style of discourse (process of knowing). Darl creates his own reality through the self-referral mechanics of the mind that connect his style of narration and the story's events, and readers identify with this connectedness through the mechanics of their own self-referral awareness. Through these passing identifications, the reader's awareness moves from the concrete reality of the familiar world to the more abstract reality suggested by the novel. This movement, however, is not a process of gaining referential meaning, but one of experiencing more integrated states of one's own awareness in the direction of the coexistence of opposites. In *As I Lay Dying*, the combined effects of all the narrative view-points brilliantly evokes in the reader a sense of freedom from the field of difference—a sense of a coexistence of opposites. Each viewpoint in the novel represents only one

mode of intelligence, while the all-inclusive viewpoint suggested by the novel's narrative structure as a whole corresponds to the experience of going beyond the intellect, beyond feelings and the ego toward the unbounded Self. However, because this wholeness is more experiential than conceptual—a sense of wholeness felt by the embodied Self—it does not exclude history as perceived by the other levels of the mind, but rather incorporates all the mind's latent impressions.

The self-referral dialogue of the reader's awareness, which I have been describing as a movement toward the connectedness between the knower, known and knowledge, is induced through the suggestive nature of literature described by the theory of *rasa*. *Rasa*, as discussed in chapter two, is the "taste" or "flavor" of any of the nine permanent emotional modes that exist latently within each person (Rawson, *Indian Sculpture*, 1966, 120-1), though ultimately it refers not only to relative emotions but also to the bliss of samādhi or transcendental consciousness (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics and Science of Language*, 1971, 50-1). Literature does not present the emotional modes directly but through aesthetic images which evoke their corresponding *rasas*. Through these images the audience can remain nonattached to any particular emotion and thereby appreciate the whole range of possible responses. By differing from the perception or memory of actual emotions and yet evoking by way of a "felt sense" the emotional modes latent within the mind, *rasa* comprises the experience of finer levels of the mind itself. As S. K. De puts it, *rasa* consists of the bliss of the self savoring its unbounded Self (*Sanskrit Poetics as a Study of Aesthetics*, 1963, 13).

The main vehicle in Sanskrit poetics for the experience of *rasa* is suggestion or *dhvani* (*Ibid*., 117). It is not the expressed content associated with object-referral, but the suggested content of literature associated with self-referral that provides the highest form of aesthetic delight. The suggestive artist such as Faulkner can evoke an "ocean in a drop." To deconstruct the meaning of a text on the basis of its suggestive indeterminacy is to resist the move toward *rasa* or *turīya* or self-referral consciousness. In a way this state, once permanent, is the ultimate form of difference, the fundamental coexistence of opposites that subsumes all possible viewpoints while still embodied in a particular standpoint.

Faulkner's narrative technique in *As I Lay Dying* produces a self-referral experience in the reader in three ways. The *rasa* of the Self operates, 1) through the viewpoints in each member of the Bundren family, especially Darl; 2) through the combined seriocomic effect of all the viewpoints; and 3) through the gaps between the viewpoints. As we know, *rasa* through literature leads to utopia, as Jameson argues in his book *Archaeologies of the Future* (2007).

Although the Bundrens are poor whites with private motives for their journey to Jefferson to bury Mrs. Bundren, and although each member sees the odyssey from a limited point of view, the family is elevated by the idealized nature of their quest to a level of generality that provides the initial basis for the reader's empathy or identification. On an individual level, of course, the family parodies itself. David Minter notes that theirs "is a story of inadequate parents and their wounded children" (*William Faulkner: His Life and Work*, 1980, 118), and Elizabeth Kerr reads the novel as an ironic mockery: "The inversion or the perversion of the idealized quest of the old romances is apparent in the object of the quest, the characters who take part in it, the incidents, the precious objects and symbols associated with the ritual, and the results finally achieved" ("*As I Lay Dying* as Ironic Quest," 1973, 233). Anse spends his life exploiting other people; Addie is crippled by cynicism; Vardaman is a confused child who mistakes a dead fish for his dead mother; the narcissistic Dewey Dell wants an abortion; Jewel serves his parents' selfish desire; Cash builds his mother's casket in her very presence as an expression of love; and Darl, in spite of his insights, loses touch with himself and reality.

Through the comination of the novel's ironic theme and the three-fold structure of its narrative style, the characters seems to evoke two opposite responses at the same time: attraction and repulsion. On the one hand, the self-referral dynamics of the first person point of view—which connects the consciousness of the character, the events of the story created through consciousness, and the structure of the plot—induces in the reader a corresponding experience of self-referral through the power of suggestion. On the other hand, the reader may feel a detachment from the characters and events due to the thematic inversion of the romantic quest. But the two forces of attraction and repulsion both serve the process of self-referral and in fact are joined in the experience of *rasa*. The reader perceives that the novel portrays several different realities and intuits that, like all reality, these realities are created out of a dialogue within consciousness itself. As Gail Mortimer notes, because the event of Addie's death is missing and indeterminate, mentioned only by Darl, it exists mainly in the consciousness of character through his or her identification with death (*Faulkner's Rhetoric of Loss*, 1983, 57-8). As Dr. Peabody says, "I can remember how when I was young I believed death to be a phenomenon of the body; now I know it to be merely a function of the mind—and that of the minds of the ones who suffer bereavement" (As I Lay Dying, 1985, 39). The reader's experience of the *rasa* of his or her potential for creating reality is an experience of the creativity of self-referral consciousness within. This creativity manifests itself not through attachments to any absolute viewpoint, but through a movement

that incorporates the kind of historical diversity evinced in the private motives for the Bundren's quest.

The viewpoint of each character of the novel, however, can evoke by itself only a partial self-referral experience in the reader. There are two reasons for this. First, the self-referral dynamics of the characters themselves are out of balance and partial, never culminating in the Self; and second, the nature of *rasa* prevents complete identification with any particular viewpoint or emotional mode. Jewel, Addie's favorite child, is the narrator only once, in section four. The relation between his awareness and the events of the novel is one of intense passion which words cannot communicate.

> It would just be me and her on a high hill and me rolling the rocks down the hill at their faces, picking them up and throwing them down the hill faces and teeth and all by god until she was quiet and not that goddamn adze going one lick less. One lick less and we could be quiet. (*As I Lay Dying*, 1985, 14)

Jewel's feelings are conveyed in the rest of the novel through his speech and actions as described by Darl, whose intellect mirrors his mother's heart. Jewel experiences the mechanics of self-referral through the channel of feeling on the basis of his love for Addie. Yet the connectedness of the knower, knowing and known in Jewel is weighted on the side of the finite knower and can therefore induce only a partial self-referral experience in the reader. Because Jewel's emotional intensity does not harmonize with the other levels of the mind, such as the intellect, his perception of reality is distorted, as evidenced by his inability to love his sibling.

On the basis of their own experience of love in the world, readers can empathize with Jewel because of the universal aspect of his emotion. Yet because this universality and that of the novel's other viewpoints is conveyed through the power of suggestion experienced as the flavor of impressions already latent within the reader's mind, this empathy is only partial, being directed less toward the individual character than to the mechanics of the reader's own experience of self-referral. From the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, then, the reader experiences a sense of self-referral that re-enacts the unity of *turīya* and is induced by—and to a certain degree reflected in—the finite, world producing viewpoints of each of the characters. In Sanskrit poetics, moreover, *turīya* in its unifying function is equivalent to love, that principle of unity which holds the universe together. Because the individual viewpoints of the readers and characters are re-enactments of a latent all-inclusive viewpoint, the self-referral stroke of the mind operates not so much by leading to a conceptual knowledge about the Bundrens, which does not lead to utopia, as does letting the reader's mind loop back upon the Self at the basis of knowledge. Rather than being an exercise in metaphysical

abstraction, this process integrates an embodied, historical awareness, such as that of Jewel's welter of emotions, with a taste or *rasa* of that awareness with no object other than its own inherently unbounded nature.

The gaps between the fifty-nine sections of the novel further enhance the reader's movement toward the Self, thereby putting our sense, as Johannes Fabian puts it, that the "ways of making the Other are ways of making ourselves" ("Presence and Repetition," 1998, 756). By constantly shifting perspective instead of settling on a single viewpoint, the reader has no recourse but to fall back on the foundations of all viewpoints, namely, the dialogue of the mind knowing itself. The silent gaps between the novel's sections correspond to the gaps between a person's thoughts, a state of potentiality that suggests the nature of pure awareness. Whereas the self-referral of each section is mediated by the concrete image of a specific character, the self-referral of the gaps between the sections is an unmediated abstraction—or an abstraction mediated only by silence. Nevertheless, to a certain extent each gap still assumes the flavor of the sections before and after it, just as each person's sense of pure awareness assumes the flavor of the sum total of his/her experience in the world of events. Jewel 4, which contains no dialogue and portrays Jewel's stream of consciousness, comes between Darl 3 and 5 in which Darl clairvoyantly describes Jewel's emotional states. Section three ends with Jewel's verbal abuse of his horse, and section five begins with Jewel's preparation to leave Addie's deathbed with Darl on a three dollar job. The two gaps between these sections are decisively influenced by Jewel's state of consciousness, his obsessive attachment to and possessiveness of Addie on the verge of death. But in Jewel's interior monologue, as noted earlier, the dialogue between the knower, knowing, and known constitutes a concrete viewpoint in which the Self is overshadowed by the aggravated emotions of the ego. Although these emotions blend into the gaps between the episodes, the reader's more abstract experience of the self-referral induced spontaneously by the gaps helps to mitigate the effects of these concrete emotions. Thus the combined effect of the concrete and abstract sense of pure awareness experienced within the sections and their gaps prevent the reader from becoming attached to any particular viewpoint, thus opening up his/her unbounded subjectivity that leads to utopia. In this way Faulkner's narrative design enhances the de-familiarizing effect of the novel's comic and parodic themes. This interfusion between the novel's sections and their gaps is analogous to that between the reader's abstract sense of pure awareness induced by the text as a whole and his/her concrete experience in the world of temporal events. One may assume that through these interfusions, the experience of the world becomes

increasingly open to the field of all possibilities suggested by the text and inherent in the fourth state of consciousness.

Faulkner's narrative technique thus induces in the reader an experience of self-referral both through the quality of the characters' shifting viewpoints and through the gaps between the sections of the novel. In this taste or rasa of the coexistence of opposites, the reader's awareness oscillates in a virtually simultaneous contraction and expansion between the concrete and the abstract, the finite and the infinite, the historical and the transhistorical. This dialogical structure takes place between the personal and universal elements with each view-point, between the concreteness of the sectional viewpoints and the abstractness of the gaps, and between the reader's concrete worldly experience and abstract "felt sense" of literature. Ironically, the point of view with the greatest self-referral, that of Darl, is also the one with the least stability.

In "Darl Bundren's 'Cubistic' Vision," Watson Branch argues that Darl's vision of "dislocation and disorientation" (1985, 111) resembles that of the cubists whose painting Faulkner saw in Paris in 1925, and that in expressing his view of the world Darl often makes use of Cubist techniques: "geometric patterns of juxtaposed forms, multiple points of view, collages, emphasis on two-dimensional surface rather than three-dimensional depth, and dislocation and disorientation of forms in space" (*Ibid*., 117). In section one, as we have seen, Darl presents his Cubistic vision of the scene from multiple points of view. He opposes his position to Jewel with that of "anyone watching" from the cottonhouse, and then describes the scene from both horizontal and vertical viewpoints. Furthermore, Darl de-emphasizes the importance of the perceived object in favor of its conception, reducing the material universe to the principle of dynamic energy, as in his description of how the river "looks peaceful, like machinery does after you have watched it and listened to it for a long time" (*As I Lay Dying*, 1985, 149). Darl's experience of self-referral manifests itself here in the link between the observer and the object of observation. He continues: "As though the clotting which is you had dissolved into the myriad original motion, and seeing and hearing in themselves blind and deaf" (*Ibid*., 149-50). Darl's awareness has turned completely inwards, transcending the senses and allowing him to intuit the secrets of Dewely Dell and Jewel. An yet his Cubist awareness, while not confined to a single perspective, is blocked in its move to an all-inclusive viewpoint by the exaggerated importance given to the object of knowledge, for a concept as we know does not lead to utopia.

The difference between the Cubists' vision and Darl's is that the Cubists generally remained in touch with the Self even while their paintings represented disorientation and fragmentation, whereas Darl loses his identity

and finally describes himself in the third person: "Darl has gone to Jackson. They put him on the train, laughing" (*Ibid*., 235). In his self-referral move toward the connectedness between the knower (Darl's intuitive, poetic awareness), the known (the subtler levels of the world), and the process of knowing (Darl's Cubist or metaphorical vision), Darl the knower is himself overshadowed by the two other elements, the known and the process of knowing. Darl's experience reverses the self-centered emotional intensity experienced by Jewel. In fact, as Kerr indicates, it reverses the self-knowledge attained by the hero of a quest romance.

To conclude, Darl's fate reveals the dangers of multiple perspectives that are merely conceptual and not grounded in the experience of a level of consciousness characterized by a unity-amidst-diversity. The all-inclusive viewpoint toward which the reader gradually moves as the novel unfolds is not a plethora of intellectual concepts. Rather it constitutes the simplest form of awareness in which the dialogue between the knower, knowing and known consists of an oscillation between one and three, an experience of a coexistence of opposites, even though this experience will always have the flavor of the knower's intellectual and emotional make up. In terms of Sanskrit poetics, therefore, the reader experiences the all-inclusive viewpoint not as a fixed abstraction but as a "felt sense" embodied in space and time. All the diversity of *As I Lay Dying* begins to appear as a mere projection of the intellect, and its underlying reality becomes the unity of pure awareness as constituted not by the intellect alone but by all the six levels of the mind together. As Patricia McKee comments, Addie "passes right through the process of meaning and ends up with a sense of passage rather than form" ("*As I Lay Dying*: Experience in Passing," 1991, 586). She adds that the meaning of the novel depends on the "fullness of implication" of "the experience of passing and the passing of significance" (Ibid.), a process which like *dhvani* or suggestion gives the awareness a taste or rasa of its own expansion.

Whereas conceptual meaning is important to the experience of the all-inclusive view-point, it is only one out of the three elements of self-referral knowledge. What the reader gains from *As I Lay Dying* is not primarily a sense of conceptual diversity, which obstructs utopia. Indeed such diversity is stigmatized by Darl's madness, his cruelty toward his sibling, and his alienation from himself and others. Instead, the reader gains a sense or *rasa* of a fourth, witnessing state of consciousness. This experience is both religious and comic because it re-connects us with the unified source of all diversity (the essence of all religions), and simultaneously uplifts the heart with a taste of bliss (the essence of comedy and utopia). Faulkner's novel effectively enhances in the reader that flexibility of mind characteristic of

self-referral consciousness, training the awareness to move from contraction to expansion, from history to freedom, from suffering to happiness, and from dystopia to utopia.

Chapter Six

Utopia, the Self and the Fantastic in Pynchon's *The Crying of Lot 49*

In this chapter I propose a theory of fantasy based on Sanskrit poetics, and apply this theory to a reading of Thomas Pynchon's *The Crying of Lot 49*. This approach will explain the role of the reader's consciousness in the construction of the novel's reality, and analyze how the coalescence of the real and the unreal, mimesis and fantasy, affects all elements of literary study: the author, the text, the audience, and the respective worlds of each.

According to the poststructuralist theory of language, mimesis may refer to but cannot transcribe reality, and fantasy can at best replace one illusion of reality with another illusion. Sanskrit poetics, however, argues that the suggestive, even miraculous powers of fantasy belong not only to the fantastic, but also to mimesis. Even in the Western tradition, fantasy has been the preferable way to investigate the relationship between reality and consciousness.

Given the prevalence of fantasy, hyperreality, and pantextualism in contemporary culture, the difference between the real and the unreal, mimesis and fantasy, seems to have become almost indeterminate. Of the many definitions of fantasy, J. R. R. Tolkien defines it as a natural human activity, Tzvetan Todorov describes it as a hesitation between the uncanny and the marvelous, and Kathryn Hume claims that "fantasy is any departure from consensus reality" (Tolkien, *The Tolkien Reader*, 1981, 54-5; Todorov, *The Fantastic*, 1975, 33; Hume *Fantasy and Mimesis*, 1984, 21). To M. H. Abrams' famous model of the four elements of literature—the artist, the work, the audience, and the universe or the world within the work—Hume adds two further elements, the world of the author and the world of the audience (Abrams, *The Mirror and the Lamp*, 1953; Hume, *Ibid*., 9). She also argues that Todorov's definition involves only two elements, the work and the audience, whereas her definition strives to be all inclusive. In spite of this difference, both critics agree that the fantastic in literature calls into question the opposition between the real and the unreal, mimesis and fantasy, with

mimesis being the imitation of consensus reality. Hume asserts that "It is truer to literary practice to admit that fantasy is not a separate or indeed a separable strain, but rather an impulse as significant as the mimetic impulse, and to recognize that both are involved in the creation of most literature" (*Ibid*., xii). In the same vein, Todorov notes that fantasy, like literature in general, "bypasses the distinctions of the real and the imaginary," but also combats "the metaphysics of everyday language," thereby giving life to language in the process of rejecting the dichotomy between sign and referent (The Fantastic, 1975, 167-8). For Todorov, using language while at the same time rejecting its function as pure mimesis implies that the fantastic element of a text renders the rest of the book real instead of imaginary. But how does one distinguish between the two? Kafka's "Metamorphosis," as Todorov argues, presents "normal" man as a fantastic being: "the fantastic becomes the rule, not the exception" (*Ibid*., 173).

As we have seen, the language theory of Sanskrit poetics holds that nature and language are essentially akin. Yet language is only a medium, or a process of knowing. As Hume indicates, equally important for fantasy are the knower and the known, that is, the author and the audience and the world and our perspectives on it. All three of these elements—of the knower, the known, and the process of knowing—constantly interact among themselves. The interconnectedness underlies Heisenberg's uncertainty principle. As Paul Davis puts it, the uncertainty principle

> says you can't know where an atom, or electron, or whatever, is located *and* know how it is moving, at one at the same time. Not only can you not know it, but the very concept of an atom with a definite location and motion is meaningless. [. . .] Position and motion (strictly, momentum) form two mutually incompatible aspects of reality for the microscopic particle. [. . .] According to Bohr, the fuzzy and nebulous world of the atom only sharpens into concrete reality when an observation is made. In the absence of an observation, the atom is a ghost. It only materializes when you look for it. [. . .] Surely the world out there really exists whether we observe it or not? [. . .] Our observations might uncover the atomic reality, but how can we *create* it? (*God and the New Physics*, 1983, 102-3, original emphasis)

The object of knowledge clearly depends on the observer and the process of observation. Furthermore, the object ranges from the gross level of manifestation to the subatomic. The paradox of the uncertainty principle derives in part from the fact that, while the process of observation may be adjusted to provide a view of the object on a microscopic level, the observer himself stays on the surface level of ordinary perspicacity. Here the three elements involved in the acquisition of knowledge are out of synchrony, with the result that knowledge is distorted or incomplete. To really appreciate the full range

of the objective world, then, requires access to the full range of human consciousness and language, the only way to achieve utopia, as Jameson emphasizes in *Archaeologies of the Future* (2007). If mimesis, as a function of ordinary language, reports on matters of fact, unaffected by a personal agenda, a greater integration between the three elements of knowledge. As described in Sanskrit poetics, this integration provides a glimpse at more unified levels of language and consciousness, the ground of utopia.

The history of the opposition between realism and fantasy parallels that between philosophy and rhetoric. The former terms of each set were traditionally privileged until their fall under deconstruction. In *Doing What Comes Naturally*, Stanley Fish discusses the philosophy of language and interpretive theory in relation to two types of presuppositions: one based on the formal elements of the text, and the other based on the subjective elements of the speaker's mind (1989, 1). Fish argues that "there is no such thing as literal meaning, if by literal meaning one means a meaning that is perspicuous no matter what the context and no matter what is in the speaker's or hearer's mind, a meaning that because it is prior to interpretation can serve as a constraint on interpretation" (*Ibid*., 4). In the postmodern world of "speaker-relative presuppositions" (*Ibid*., 2-3), Hume's idea of a consensus reality as a ground for literal meaning comes under attack. The formal presuppositions of realism, as Fish notes, depend on three claims: 1) that truth exists independently of all individual points of view, 2) that pure knowledge can exist separately from all systems of belief, and 3) that the awareness of the knower is projected outward toward objective truth without the influence of bias (Fish, "Rhetoric," 1990, 205). In contrast, speaker-relative presuppositions define reality in terms of rhetoric as depending on a point of view. The Sophists and their successors thus subvert the three claims of realism by holding that truth is itself contingent, relative as opposed to absolute; that knowledge is incomplete, a product of ideology; and that the awareness is directed inward, unable to transcend its prejudice.

It may seem, then, that philosophy corresponds to realism in its reporting on the world of facts, and rhetoric corresponds to fantasy as an act of creation or expression. Yet the opposition philosophy/rhetoric, or realism/fantasy, can also be seen as two sides of the same coin. As is known from modern psychology and physics, the individual observer and the observed universe are seldom what they appear to be on the surface. Indeed, the subjective and objective realms are coextensive. Although psychology has revealed several dimensions of the knower in relation to reality and language, it does not account for the full potential of the knower, particularly as a creative agent. Knowledge of the potential and function of authorship has evolved through many partial stages.

In the Western tradition, the *auctores* of the Middle Ages based their authority on divine revelation, which they used allegorically as the source of cultural knowledge. In representing a transcendental reality or truth, these traditional writers employed not only mimesis but also what we would today call the fantastic. With the Renaissance and the discovery of the New World, *auctores* were replaced by authors. These authors challenged the old authority, claimed to represent the new, and emphasized mimesis. By means of their novel paradigms, they helped to facilitate the change from a feudal system to a largely democratic and industrial Europe. Having completed this cultural work, the author moved into the realm of genius. Like the auctores, the genius identified his/her work with the laws of nature and used fantasy in a quest for subjective truth. Their work centered on the text through a process of self-referral and thus caused a division between culture (or fantasy) and politics (or realism). Subsequently, the contemporary literary critic furthered this division by separating the author from his work. Usurping the role of genius, the critic began to produce his own cultural (fantastic) artifacts and to argue that the text itself was a product of its economic and political context (Hume, *Fantasy and Mimesis*, 198429-50). In line with this position, Wimsatt and Beardsley write "The Intentional Fallacy," and Roland Barthes writes "The Death of the Author."

In the postmodernist period, the author again resorts to a mixture of realism and fantasy in an attempt to explore the void and perhaps fill it with a world of his own construction. At this point Michel Foucault resituates the author as a "subjecting" function between the text and its sociopolitical context ("What is an Author?" 1979). But these partial ideas of authorship—the auctor, the author, the genius, the critic, and the determining-determined subject—do not answer the questions about the author's relationship to language and reality. In terms of the knower, to what extent is the author determined by the discursive practices of his or her cultural context? In terms of the process of knowing, do discursive practices have a transcendental dimension, and if so how are they experienced? In terms of the object of knowledge, is the universe solely a field of difference or does it contain unity—that is, a difference that makes a difference? And in what way other than as merely an orthodox belief could the sacred time of the transcendental be described as real?

As discussed at length earlier, Sanskrit poetics considers language not only in itself but also in terms of its different manifestations at different levels of consciousness. The premise in this theory is that the subject and object of knowledge form an integrated whole and cannot be separated without falsification or misinterpretation. According to the *Rig-Veda*, language or *vāk* consists of four levels which correspond to different levels of

consciousness, and which range from the spoken word to the subtlest form of thought in *turīya* or transcendental consciousness (Coward, *Sphota*, 1980, 130). *Pashyantī*, the transcendental dimension of discursive practices, is that level of meaning opened to awareness expanded by the suggestive powers of literature. It is associated with the fantastic to the extent that both go beyond the boundaries of time, space, and causality, and thus beyond consensus reality. Although each level of language contains within it the other levels in virtual form—including the absolute unity of sound and meaning—the language user can fully appreciate the wholeness of language only from the level of pure awareness. From the Sanskrit perspective, only through *sat-chit-ananda*, or bliss consciousness, do *pashyantī* and *parā*, the unified levels of language, become a direct perception rather than being a mere notion of the intellect. Likewise, fantasy derives its meaning from a level of affect beyond the ordinary perception of reality based on the mind or intellect, which as most theorists know does not lead to utopia.

For Sanskrit poetics, literature—and language in general to a lesser extent—functions by taking the awareness of the listener toward the revelatory states experienced by the author. Whenever the author transcends ordinary waking consciousness and creates from the level of *turīya* or the Self, the work is infused with greater unity and is better able to expand the reader's awareness. If we take consensus reality as described by Hume to incorporate the levels of the mind ranging from the senses to the temporal ego, then any experience of the Self as a transcendental state would be a departure from that consensus reality. The experience of the Self departs from consensus reality both because it is a non-ordinary experience, and because all those who transcend into the Self will do so on the basis of a unique position within an historical context. In this sense time and eternity, difference and unity, realism and fantasy are intertwined even in a work of realism. As Fish argues, even realism has a rhetorical dimension that moves language from the level of restricted meaning toward an expanded meaningfulness associated in Sanskrit poetics with *pashyantī*. By the same token, a work of fantasy would embody traces or ordinary realism in the coexistence of opposites contained within the spectrum of language. That is, fantasy needs mimetic redundancy in order to have a defamiliarizing effect.

Like Western literary theory, Vedic language theory holds that language does not ultimately reflect the physical universe. Because meaning is purely intellectual, poetic expressions have a meaning-existence not dependent on the empirical plane. The distinction between the intellectual and material is arbitrary in terms of Vedic ontology, which like quantum field theory posits a metaphysical basis to the phenomenal universe. In Sanskrit poetics as in structuralism, literary expressions are said to refer to intellectual signifieds

and thus to constitute their own justification. Comprised to meaning-existence rather than object-existence, they transcend the ordinary truth of fact and create an ideal world based on the author's emotions, and ultimately on the experience of bliss consciousness, the essence of utopia (Ramachandran, *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, 1979, 6-22).

Fantasy resembles rhetoric insofar that they both employ language on the level of meaning-existence rather than object-existence—a meaning that is speaker-relative rather than purely formal. In *How to Do Things with Words*, J. L. Austin makes a similar distinction between utterances that are constative and performative. The former derives from the truth of verisimilitude, and the latter from a vantage point within a particular context. In a performative utterance, the criterion of verisimilitude is replaced by that of appropriateness to a given perspective. As Austin notes, however, many utterances do not conform to these classifications. Even apparently constative statements such as "Raglan won the battle of Alma" can be "discovered" to be essentially performative, depending for its meaning not on verisimilitude to an historical event, but on the definition of terms such as "battle" and "won" (1975 142-3). Austin tries to avoid the conclusion that all language is rhetorical by making a distinction between utterances that are serious and nonserious. A serious utterance would conform to the use of language for which the speaker can be held accountable. But in his well-known critique of Austin, Derrida contends that all language, even the responsible and serious, deviates from the speaker's original intention through the play of *différance* ("Signature Event Context," 1977, 190). Derrida's graphocentric notion of language as a movement of *différance* also applies to what John Searle, in defense of Austin, refers to as the "obvious" utterance ("Reiterating the Difference," 1977, 204). As Derrida contends, this utterance would lose its obvious status through citation, its repetition in a different context. From a deconstructive vantage, even if all utterances are not the same, they are nevertheless all rhetorical. But as stated earlier, just as fantasy incorporates the real and the unreal, so language incorporates several dimensions. These depend not only on the citationality of language, but also on the awareness of the language user.

Whether an utterance is constative or performative, serious or nonserious, formalist or rhetorical, or both at the same time will largely depend on the connectedness or unity between the observer, the observed, and the process of observation. As Fish puts it,

> Meanings that seem perspicuous and literal are rendered so by forceful interpretive acts and not by the properties of language. In the event that Milton is persuasive, it is not because he has moved the words from their "normal" setting to the setting of a special intention, but because he has dislodged the words from

> one special setting (all intentional settings are special), where their meaning was obvious, and placed them in another where their meaning is also obvious, but different. (*Doing What Comes Naturally*, 1989, 9)

Fish implies that language is emotional, and that meaning ultimately relies on the power of expanded consciousness to juggle language between temporal contexts. As Hume puts it, "meaning is essentially a matter of feeling and emotion"; "meaning is not a rational matter" (*Fantasy and Mimesis*, 1984, 167, 197). She suggests that "Meaning seems to be any system of values that causes phenomena to seem related according to a set of rules, and, preferably, that makes them seem relevant to human concerns" (*Ibid*., 169). In Sanskrit terms, the ultimate and most complete relationship at the basis of meaning is that between the relative and the absolute, between ordinary waking consciousness and transcendental consciousness, between *madhyamā* (inward speech) and *pashyantī* (noumenal meaning as a whole). This relationship has great relevance for human concerns because it produces great happiness. Meaning as a system of values depends on the connectedness of the knower, the known, and the process of knowing, a coexistence of opposites experienced through the emotion of bliss, which leads to utopia. Thus, if meaning is not a rational matter but a matter of feeling and emotion, then the emotion of bliss associated with the coexistence of opposites belongs to the most unified level of meaning.

Whereas reality and fantasy, formalism and rhetoric, constative and performative are opposites on one dimension of language and consciousness, they for a coexistence of opposites on another dimension. This coexistence resembles Todorov's definition of fantasy as the effect of hesitation: "The possibility of a hesitation between the two [the natural and supernatural causes of the events described] creates the fantastic effect" (*The Fantastic*, 1975, 26). Fish implies a similar coexistence in the function of rhetoric. In its anti-foundational, deconstructive mode, rhetoric reveals truth to be an historical construct and thereby frees society from the quasi foundation of an arbitrary ideology. In the process of doing this, however, rhetoric reaffirms a universal "truth" that undermines the original purpose of rhetoric. That is, even if foundations are not universal truths but local beliefs that emerge historically, they must nevertheless be demystified on a continual basis and thus coexist with the deconstructive impulse. In stating the argument against foundations, moreover, Fish says that at "no time" are we free to go our "own way," for we are "always going in a way marked out" by constraining principles (*Doing What Comes Naturally*, 1989, 13). He claims that "However nuanced one's talk about constraint and belief and community may get to be, the nuances will never add up to a moment or a play where consciousness becomes transparent to itself and can at least act freely" (*Ibid*.,

30). Yet like all binary opposites, freedom and constraint, whether in language or consciousness, range from a field of difference to a field of all inclusiveness. Consciousness can "act freely" only within the constraints of its self-referral dynamics where opposites coexist, which definitely leads to the direct experience of utopia, as Ken Wilber emphasizes in all of his books.

In terms of Sanskrit poetics, because language is meaning-based and not material-based, it refers not to an outer referent but to an inner referent, and ultimately to a transcendental signified associated with bliss consciousness, the essence of utopia. This inner referent, though free from the constraints of history, still depends on an interpretive community for it historical relevance. The opposition in language between meaning-existence and object-existence corresponds to that in consciousness between self-referral and object-referral. Most of us live in an ordinary state of waking consciousness immersed in object-referral, a state in which the thoughts, impressions, notions, beliefs, and memories about a particular object of awareness, imposed by an interpretive community, dominate our individual experience of the object. Whereas object-referral involves thoughts about an object, self-referral involves the experience of an object from a level of blissful awareness prior to historical memory.

Sanskrit poetics distinguishes two kinds of memory, that of temporal existence, or the realm of thought, and that of nontemporal existence, or the realm of Being at the source of thought (Ramachandran, *The Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 2, 1980, 40-51). Self-referral corresponds to the latter, and object-referral to the former. Living in object-referral we identify with objects, whether material, social, or psychological; living in self-referral we identify more with the Self as bliss consciousness, the only way to reach utopia. When object-referral occurs simultaneously with self-referral, however, then our thoughts and impressions about a particular object of awareness do not overshadow the experience of the Self as knower. The more fully the knower knows the self in the direction of bliss consciousness, the more fully he or she knows the object, both in the temporal and the non-temporal sense. To whatever extent authorship, from the auctores to the critic, has been able to depart from and extend the interpretive strategies responsible for a consensus reality, it must have been on the basis of the integrating dynamics of self-referral.

Object-referral in language corresponds to *vaikharī* and *madhyamā*, and self-referral to *pashyantī* and *parā*, but the ultimate coexistence encompasses both the subject and the object, *pashyantī* and *madhyamā*, to their fullest extent. At this point subject and object are one. Or as Malekin says, "The point is the measure of time and the measure of the timeless" ("*Kala*: Timelessness and Measure," 1991, 4). This form of inquiry, however, departs

from the rational mode of understanding that yields only partial knowledge. What distinguishes fantasy is that it suspends the reader between two modes of understanding: the finite and the infinite, the temporal and the cosmic. The experience of hesitation in fantasy helps to bridge the gap between, on the one hand, the field of difference, fragmentation, and fear associated with the object, and on the other hand the field of wholeness, unity, and bliss associated with the Self. Fantasy, therefore, promotes the experience of the coexistence of opposites.

If bliss characterizes the state of unity and coherence, paranoia or fear characterizes the state of difference and entropy as represented by Thomas Pynchon's *The Crying of Lot 49*. Oedipa Mass appears to discover a massive underground postal system, a conspiracy called Tristero that seems improbable but may in fact exist. In a postmodernist vein, Pynchon's novel builds on the concept of entropy, flaunting the irrelevance, disorganization, redundancy, and waste involved in the play of language. Rather than imposing order on a world of chaos, Pynchon uses scientific concepts of disorder—such as entropy, information theory, the second law of thermodynamics, and Maxwell's demon—in an attempt to fend off the static closure of an arbitrary ideology. Oedipa tries to create order out of surplus of information, yet by the novel's end she remains suspended between the alternatives of an uncanny plot and a fantastic reality. This hesitation or tentativeness in the novel constitutes a coexistence of opposite values that sustains the possibility of bliss for Oedipa Mass and the reader. To make a choice between the alternatives about Tristero would induce an experience of object-referral that may diminish the subject-referral experience elicited through the act of hesitation. Moreover, the mass of information confronting Oedipa is too much for the intellect to assimilate through object-referral and requires a different approach.

The famous metaphor for Oedipa's experience is sifting through the chaos of information surrounding Pierce Inverarity's estate, including the traces of Tristero, such as the symbol WASTE, which is Maxwell's demon. As Stanley Koteks explains, Maxwell's demon would reverse the second law of thermodynamics responsible for the rise of entropy that will eventually cause the universe to descend into what Davies calls "the heat of death" (*God and the New Physics*, 1983, 212).

> The Demon would sit in a box among air molecules that were moving at all different random speeds, and sort out the fast molecules from the slow ones. Fast molecules have more energy than slow ones. Concentrate enough on them in one place and you have a region of high temperature. You can then use the difference in temperature between this hot region of the box and any cooler region, to drive a heat engine. Since the Demon only sat and sorted, you wouldn't have put any

> real work into the system. So you would be violating the Second Law of Thermodynamics, getting something for nothing, causing perpetual motion. (*Lot 49*, 1986, 86)

But in the 1920s Leo Szilard discovered that the act of acquiring information about the speed of molecules could be had only at the price of increased entropy; the second law could not be reversed even at the molecular level through an intelligent sleight of hand (*Ibid*.). The demon's perception actually increases entropy just as Oedipa's perception of Tristero increases the entropy of the world in which she lives (See Anne Mangel, "Maxwell's Demon, Entropy, Information," 1976, 87-100).

Oedipa's epiphany on arriving in San Narciso reveals the ambiguity and tentativeness of her attempts to acquire knowledge. She sees San Narciso as an "ordered swirl of houses" that has the "astonishing clarity" of a "circuit card" (Pynchon, *The Crying of Lot 49*, 1986, 24). Like a radio, its pattern gives her "a hieroglyphic sense of concealed meaning, of an intent to communicate. There'd seemed not limit to what the printed circuit could have told her (if she had tried to find out); so in her first minute in San Narciso, a revelation also trembled just past the threshold of her understanding" (*Ibid*.). In his theme of uncertainty, Pynchon defers Oedipa's desire for a final resolution regarding truth and order. Certainty as an explicit content is deconstructed by the narrative text. As Alec McHoul and David Wills note, "Lot 49 provides explicit textual material for its own deconstruction" (*Writing Pynchon*, 1990, 70). But the fact that Oepida's revelation "trembled just past the threshold of her understanding" indicates that even though truth may be ineffable, or a matter of interpretation, it still exerts a powerful influence on Oedipa and the reader's awareness. As a rhetorical or suggestive force, Oedipa's revelation remains a viable possibility. Moreover, as McHoul and Will observe, Maxwell's machine has the effect of "return[ing] the metaphoric to the literal" (*Ibid*., 77, original emphasis).

As if to verify the hidden nature of truth, Oedipa cannot locate the text of "The Courier's Tragedy" to confirm the play's ontological status. Against the producer-actor Driblette's advice, Oedipa henceforth searches for the meaning of the Word, which in terms of deconstruction can result only in infinite deferral and the bind of either/or. The failure of this search, however, suggests that the play's ontological status cannot be found geographically or etymologically by means of object-referral, a process that involves the boundaries of logic and chronological sequence. Oedipa and the readers who imitate her must exceed the limits of space, time and causality that characterize the field of binary opposites and the emotion of fear. In his secular reading of the novel, Thomas Schaub observes that Pynchon's "style generates a tension between the opposing worlds it implicates and joins

(suburban swirl; sacred text), and it is this stylistic tension that positions characters and readers alike at the interface between opposite views of the same event" (*Pynchon: The Voice of Ambiguity*, 1981, 105). This "interface," which on the one hand refutes the possibility of a conceptual resolution, on the other hand provides a rhetorical means of achieving a suggestive, all-inclusive resolution by providing the reader with an experience of hesitation. The interface of hesitation elicits a taste of the coexistence of opposites. What the text denies in terms of conceptual content, it suggests in terms of the openness of its rhetorical dynamism. As a "forceful interpretive" act (Fish, *Doing What Comes Naturally*, 1989, 9), therefore, *Lot 49* directs the attention beyond "the ordinary waking semi-conscious level of supposed consciousness" (Malekin, "*Kala*: Timelessness and Measure," 1991, 1).

David Seed notes that in describing "The Courier's Tragedy" Pynchon "constantly shifts comically from Jacobean vocabulary to jarringly modern colloquialisms [. . .] which inevitably distance the reader from the play" (*The Fictional Labyrinths of Thomas Pynchon*, 1988, 122). Seed, like McHoul and Wills, concludes that this distancing effect denies the reader "direct access to the play" and "brings into question the [play's] ontological status" (*Ibid*.). Yet, granting these observations, what poststructuralism in general does not fathom is that this distancing or nonattachment also has the effect of creating an all-inclusive experience that characterizes the witnessing quality of self-referral. As discussed in chapter two, this witnessing experience is known in Sanskrit poetics as *rasa*, which means the "taste" or "flavor" of the mind experiencing more settled states of its own activity. *Rasa* is the ability to appreciate the whole range of possible responses to a work of art, such as "The Courier's Tragedy" or *The Crying of Lot 49*, without being overshadowed by any single response determined by egoism or individual preference. It involves a process of object-referral in which the knower does not lose the experience of self-referral, with the result that the object of awareness is experienced in terms of the Self as pure consciousness. *Rasa*, defined by Abhinavagupta in accord with Shankara's nondual Vedānta, as Ramachandran notes, "is the manifestation [. . .] of the intrinsic bliss of the Self" (Ramachandran, The *Indian Philosophy of Beauty*, Part 2, 1980, 105). This emotion, conveyed through an aesthetic image, comprises meaning generalized beyond the personal attitudes associated with ordinary waking consciousness. As an interface or hesitation between two worlds, Oedipa's experience constitutes an aesthetic image that evokes *rasa* as a generalized emotion, whether it be a manifestation of bliss, the essence of utopia, or some other emotion latent within the reader's mind.

Seed notes that throughout the novel Pynchon does not alternate between alternatives so much as blend them together in the rapid move from one event

to the next (*The Fictional Labyrinths*, 1988, 125); and McHoul and Wills observe that "the Demon remains both metaphor and literality, just as the reader, through her relationship with the demon, remains in and out of the machine" (*Writing Pynchon*, 1990, 78). Oedipa finds herself caught, as Frank Kermode says, between the fear of no order and a pernicious order ("Decoding Trystero," 1978, 164). She hesitates between question and answer, refusing to resolve the confusion about Tristero and reach a final conclusion. She has "begun to feel reluctant about following up anything [. . .] anxious that her revelation will not expand beyond a certain point. Lest, possibly, it grows larger than she and assume her to itself" (*Lot 49*, 1986, 166).

Oedipa, therefore, does not, as McHoul and Wills claim, merely "hope for some magic reconciliation of the differences which constitute her legacy" (*Writing Pynchon*, 1990, 74). Rather, the juxtaposed opposites of *Lot 49* facilitates in her and the reader an experience of *rasa*, namely a taste of a field of coexistence, of binary objects appreciated self-reflexively in terms of increasingly nontemporal or generalized states of awareness, which leads them toward utopia. The very lack in *Lot 49* of explicit reconciliation evokes latent emotions toward Tristero within Oedipa and the reader, yet prevents them from identifying with any particular meaning of Tristero. In this way Tristero functions as an aesthetic image that evokes the experience of *rasa*, or meaning as generalized latent emotions that expand toward the emotion of bliss.

Pynchon writes that "Behind the hieroglyphic streets there would either be a transcendent meaning, or only the earth" (*Lot 49*, 1986, 181). In contrast to Schaub, Edward Mendelson sees Tristero as a possible source of transcendental value ("The Sacred, the Profane, and *The Crying of Lot 49*," 1976, 93-101). The fact that Oedipa hesitates supports Mendelson's claim. He position of quietude, an attribute of self-referral, acts as a resistance to the second law of thermodynamics. It is like the weightlessness of not resisting gravity. Oedipa's hesitation activates for herself and especially the reader the third law of thermodynamics, which holds that entropy decreases with the decrease of activity and temperature. This occurs, for example, when the mind settles down from the differential field of thought toward the source of thought, from the discreet point values of object-referral to the generalized unity of self-referral. Because the extreme poles of subject and object, absolute and relative are both infinite, Oedipa's hesitation in effect constitutes a blend of two opposite infinities, the earth and a transcendent meaning. Through this suspension, this oscillation between unity and diversity, she and the reader experience a coexistence of opposites that evoke a taste or *rasa* of self-referral consciousness, which, though not explicitly blissful, is less anxiety provoking than a resolution of the Tristero mystery.

The poststructuralist critique of the novel's transcendent meaning, as inferred from the self-referral experience of *rasa*, stems from the fact that this transcendent meaning of fiction, the Word of Oedipa's quest, typically remains only a notion of the intellect, a finite point. It ostensibly remains largely on the level of *madhyamā* as a temporal concept, rarely leading explicitly toward the experience of *pashyantī* as a coexistence of opposites, a unity of sound and meaning. This latter experience, however, is conveyed in *Lot 49* through the power of suggestion—known as *dhvani* in Sanskrit poetics. While apparently a finite concept, Oedipa's revelation of indeterminacy is a metonymic metaphor of an experience of the world through a resonance of language that encompasses a wide range of meaning, from *madhyamā* to *pashyantiī*, concrete to abstract, literality to metaphoric, point to infinity. Through the power of suggestion, then, Oedipa's suspended revelation has the effect of providing the reader with the same experience of expansion, on the levels of both the mind and heart.

In dismantling the comforting myths about reality lodged in the mind and heart, Lot 49 first has its effect on the intellect. Emotionally, of course, Oedipa has bouts with paranoia, and paranoia belongs to the earth, or the experience of temporality and difference. Toward the end of the novel, Oedipa addresses her own reflection: "Change your name to Miles, Dean, Serge, and/or Leonard, baby, she advised her reflection in the half-light of the after-noon's vanity mirror. Either way, they'll call it paranoia" (*Lot 49*, 1986, 170). Oedipa knows she can escape her paranoia by communicating successfully with someone beyond her immediate world. "Communication is the key," says Nefastis (*Ibid*., 105). But she tells Mike Fallopian "everybody's been changing on me" (*Ibid*., 168). Her sense of difference and the riddle of Tristero's possible meanings represent the pernicious "They" that Oedipa fears. Thomas Schaub notes that Pynchon may be using the "Other" of Tristero as a Jungean "shadow," the dark side of the self (*Pynchon: The Voice of Ambiguity*, 1981, 35). From a Sanskrit perspective, "They" as a projection of the self occurs when the duality of object-referral in ordinary experience precludes the integrating experience of self-referral, the latter being a miraculous blend of two opposite worlds. Oedipa recalls the "If miracles were, as Jesus Arrabal had postulated years ago on the beach of Mazatlan, intrusions into the world from another, a kiss of cosmic pool balls, then so must be each of the night's post horns" (*Lot 49*, 1986, 124). That the world of Tristero may be of her own creation, a miraculous intrusion of her own consciousness moving toward self-referral, Oedipa suggests by the question she writes in her notebook, "Shall I project a world?" (*Ibid*., 168). Paranoia is thus a function of object-referral and is overcome when the subject and object are brought in coexistence, as in utopia.

If one side of the coin is paranoia, the opposite side is bliss and the transcendent meaning suggested by the rhetorical dimension of the text and by Oedipa's intrusive experience. Bliss and suffering are thus extremely close, as are entropy and negative entropy. The reader's awareness, prompted by Oedipa's alternating positive and negative thoughts about Tristero, swings as it were from one side of the coin to the other, alternating between the finite possibility of object-referral associated with the miraculous and negative entropy. If entropy is a function of the world as represented by the text, then negentropy is a function of Oedipa and the reader's awareness as it responds to the suggestive intrusions of Tristero as an aesthetic object.

In *The Gnostic Pynchon*, Dwight Eddins argues that the only way out of the "religio-secular binarities" of the novel is to retain both "'the transcendent meaning' and a recalcitrant earth" (1990, 91). He proposes that Tristero cannot serve as the transcendental pole in opposition to earth because it is "a Gnostic phenomenon. As such, it finally dissolves the redeeming tension in a hubristic assertion of absolute dominion on its own terms" (*Ibid*.). Oedipa's fear of joining Tristero, he says, is a fear of losing "her sense of humanity and earth—fear of a revelation that threatens to 'grow larger than she and assume her to itself'" (*Ibid*.). In describing Oedipa as "an alienated wanderer in search of gnosis," Eddins rightly resists the trend to find "Pynchon's 'center' in a conscious project of expistemological decentering" (*Ibid*., 108). However, from the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, Oedipa need not fear Tristero causing her to lose her sense of humanity and earth. As "a gnostic phenomenon," Tristero does not, as Eddins claims, dissolve the "redeeming tension" with earth "in a hubristic assertion of absolute dominion." For as a possible transcendent meaning, Tristero as the Word does not exclude difference, as poststructuralists claim, but rather constitutes a coexistence of opposites. That is, the genuine unity of the Word on the level of *pashyantī* and *turīya* or transcendental consciousness, the essence of utopia, does not exclude or even become duality; it is duality in the form of a coexistence. From the perspective of *turīya* suggested in *Lot 49* through the experience of *rasa*, the transcendent coexists with the earth in the realm of human existence without exerting an "absolute dominion."

In place of the opposition between the earth and Tristero as a transcendent meaning, Eddins calls for "an in-between in which humanity is to some degree illuminated by spiritual possibility without losing its base in the opaque materiality of natural process" (*The Gnostic Pynchon*, 1990, 178). But this call unwittingly describes the actual nature of transcendent meaning in itself—defined in Sanskrit poetics as a coexistence of opposites, a kind of omni-present "in-between." This field is not a totalizing conceptual closure as undermined by deconstruction, but an openness to the unbounded possibil-

ities experienced through a taste of turīya or transcendental consciousness. Oedipa and the reader, as argued here, have a taste of this level of coexistence through the process of self-referral, the avenue toward utopia.

In thinking about Inverarity's estate, Oedipa finally realizes "that the legacy was America" (*Lot 49*, 1986, 178). "For there either was some Tristero beyond appearance of the legacy of America, or there was just America and if there was just America then it seemed the only way she could continue and manage to be at all relevant to it, was as an alien, unfurrowed, assumed full circle into some paranoia" (*Ibid*., 182). The legacy of America, a materialist culture that thrives on object-referral, will readily produce an experience of paranoia. Yet America also produces *The Crying of Lot 49* and all its life-affirming possibilities and redeeming values associated with a gnostic communications network. Moreover, at the novel's end, as Passerine makes a sacred gesture as if "to a descending angel," "Oedipa settled back, to await the crying of lot 49" (*Ibid*., 183). Oedipa here reflects the reader's move toward self-referral in the act of reading the novel. In terms of Sanskrit poetics, what happens here is that the character and reader move back and forth between the opposite dimensions of consciousness, language, and the world. Or rather, they alternate between an experience in which these three elements are separate, giving rise to paranoia, and an experience in which they are connected, giving rise to a taste of bliss, the way to utopia. Just as deconstruction, never resting on the Absolute, must continually uncover the "truth" that all discursive operations are rhetorical, so Oedipa and the modern American must continually discover that at the basis of the objective world lies the sweetness of the unbounded Self.

To conclude, the connection between consciousness, language, and the world corresponds to that between the knower, the known, and the process of knowing. As I have proposed here, a modern fantasy such as *The Crying of Lot 49*, through the rhetorical indeterminacy of its form and content, has the effect of creating both an experience of aporia, of disillusion, and an experience of *rasa* or aesthetic rapture that goes beyond the intellect to a taste of bliss consciousness. Ultimately, the effectiveness of fantasy is to provide this all encompassing experience. Pynchon shows us how to create a world not of meaning, but of coexisting opposites the undermines the reign of logos as a conceptual closure. Oedipa's problem is not that she fails to conceptualize the meaning of the Other. It is rather that she pursues this meaning in a field of duality, of ordinary waking consciousness and *madhyamā*, when it can only be found in the field of coexisting opposites, of *turīya* or transcendental consciousness and *pashyantī*. Nevertheless, *Lot 49* ultimately induces in her and the reader the fullness of self-referral, the only way to reach utopia, as we've seen in Wilber and Jameson. As Linda Wagner

comments, "Oedipa's development, not the many complicated story lines, has provided the actual movement of the novel ("A Note on Oedipa the Roadrunner," 1974, 157).

As the mythical and ideological props of the world are defamiliarized or dissolved through self-referral, Oedipa and the reader move beyond aporia to the greater openness of *rasa*. In terms of Sanskrit poetics, then, fantasy integrates the elements of the artist, the work, the audience, and the world of each described by Hume, Todorov, and others, and accounts for experience that incorporates the intellect while beyond its limits. Going beyond rational explanations, though, does not render meaning impossible. On the contrary, the suggestive power of indeterminacy expands the awareness so that it glimpses the unsayable meaning of an experience not restricted to the boundaries of any one perspective. The truly fantastic is to be inside and outside of the world simultaneously—an occurrence denied by deconstruction, but an experience open to all readers through the process of self-referral. More common among non-Western cultures, this experience underlies the ritual drama of the Nigerian playwright Wole Soyinka.

Chapter Seven

Utopia, Soyinka's Ritual Drama, and the Mistake of the Intellect

The potential for self-regeneration in Nigerian society, as portrayed in Wole Soyinka's *A Dance of the Forests* and *The Road*, involves a process of self-discovery through which the gulf between mortality and immortality, the self and other is momentarily crossed. What distinguishes Soyinka's early plays is their success in revealing subtler states of mind in which discursive logic no longer precludes a vision of the underlying unity of life—a postulate that is upheld as a fundamental truth by the Yoruba tradition to which he belongs. In Myth, Literature and the African World, Soyinka distinguishes between the European and African notions of ideology and literature. European literature, he argues, has an autonomous, subjective existence, and European literary theories generally comprise ideologies cut off from human experience. On the other hand, African literature not only reflects human experience but also extends this experience through the social vision of the author. This vision, as I will demonstrate, can be elucidated by the major principles of Sanskrit poetics.

While contemporary, as Soyinka says in *Myth, Literature and the African World*, African literature is also "consciously guided by concepts of an ideological nature" (1976, 64), these concepts, which are mystical and visionary by tradition, serve to support the "imaginative impulse to a re-examination of the propositions on which man, nature and society are posited or interpreted at any point in history" (*Ibid*., 66). For Soyinka, this impulse leads not merely to a Western-style literary ideology but to a "literature of social vision" (*Ibid*.). He contends that, in West African ritual theatre, the audience participates in the dramatic conflict and undergoes a cathartic transformation parallel to that of the hero. The human world is separated from a divine unity by an abyss or gulf. Through a process that dissolves and reintegrates the self, the protagonist enters what Soyinka calls the "abyss of transition" or "the fourth stage" (*Ibid*.). The threatening reality of the gulf that separates a fragmentary society from an ideal state of communal

integration and psychic unity is diminished by means of dramatic rituals, sacrifices, and ceremonies (*Ibid*., 30-1).

As Soyinka describes it, Yoruba drama is representational and visionary; it attempts to implement the traditional function of Yoruba myth by actualizing the ritual transition of a metaphysical gulf. In contrast, European literature is engaged in a debate on postmodernism and its dilemmas regarding the nature of meaning and representation, the status of the subject, and the structure of binary oppositions. In poststructuralism, truth, representation, transcendentality, and the subject are displaced by their absence, resulting in what Warren Montage in "What is at Stake in the Debate on Postmodernism" describes "as a once existing past that has given way to the present as one historical totality to another" (1988, 88).

Fredric Jameson notes in "Postmodernism and Consumer Society" that, regarding the so-called "death of the subject," there are two contemporary positions. Proponents of the first assert that, in the classical, premodern age, there was once a species known as the human subject, but that in today's world of corporate capitalism the "older bourgeois individual subject no longer exists" (1983, 115). Advocates of the second or radical post-structuralist position argue that "the bourgeois individual subject [. . .] *never* really existed in the first place; there have never been individual subjects of that type" (*Ibid*., 73, original emphasis). The postmodern era presents a similar challenge to West African myth and ritual. As Femi Osofisan observes in "Ritual and the Revolutionary Ethos," "the flux of social transformation stays unrelieved in the crisis of ritual" (1982, 72). He quotes Biodun Jeyifo as having said that Soyinka's "universal idiom" of ritual, the "victory" of "Ogun's timeless ahistoricism belongs in that realm of thought in which imagined beings and relationships have absolute, autonomous existence. Hence it is easy victory, illusory, undialectical" (*Ibid*., 73).

On the other hand, Yoruba metaphysics posits a transcendental reality, which Soyinka defines as "the fourth space." This space is separated from terrestrial life by an abyss or gulf, which the protagonists in *A Dance of the Forests* attempt to bridge. On the other hand, post-modernism questions the very principle of binary oppositions at the basis of transcendentality. The traditional context of West African metaphysics, however, also questions the structure of binary oppositions, but in Soyinka's plays it does so on the basis of a coexistence of opposites and not by giving precedence to one alternative over the other, as in the poststructuralist "privileging" of the signifier over the transcendental signified. Soyinka explores the ritual form not as an ahistorical ideal but as an examination of history, raising the historic to cosmic proportions. His representation of the experience of unity in West African myth is complemented by analogous representations in another non-

Western tradition, that of Sanskrit poetics, which also describes the structure of binary oppositions as being subsumed by a coexistence of opposites, the only way to achieve utopia beyond the intellect, or the trans-personal state defined by Wilber. Soyinka's "fourth space," which he distinguishes from the three commonly acknowledged African worlds—that of ancestor, the unborn, and the living—constitutes a coexistence of all spaces, a "continuum of transition where occurs the inter-transmutation of essence-ideal and materiality" (Soyinka, "Myth," 1976, 26).

This chapter will focus upon the mechanics of integration between essence and materiality, unity and diversity in *A Dance of the Forests*. My argument is that the notion of the coexistence of opposites provides a logical answer to postmodernist dilemmas, and that this answer, as conveyed through Soyinka's portrayal of the Yoruba transitional abyss and the effects upon the audience, can be elucidated by the Sanskrit theory of the interdependence of consciousness and language. Given the vast tradition of West African mythology and Sanskrit poetics, my approach will focus not on their theoretical diversity but on their descriptions of the process by means of which people gain direct experience of expanded consciousness. "For Soyinka," as Joel Adedji writes in "Aesthetics of Soyinka's Theatre," "the purpose of theatre is to impart experience, not to provide 'meaning' or 'moral'; to set a riddle, not to tell a story" (1987, 105). My analysis of Soyinka's ritual drama is based largely on his definition of Yoruba mythology in his well-known Myth, Literature and the African World, where he delineates the structural paradigm of all metaphysics, namely, the experience of expanded consciousness, or what Soyinka call the "metaphysical self" (*Myth*, 1976, 40). In the relationship of ritual to myth, one's interpretation of myth is determined by one's experience of ritual. In the context of modern Africa, colonialism has complicated and corrupted the relationship between ritual and myth, experience and understanding. As Osofisan notes in "Ritual and Revolutionary Ethos," "man's economic separation from nature" (caused by colonialism) has led to the disintegration of the animist metaphysics that underlies Soyinka's rituals (1982, 75). Nevertheless, in Soyinka's ritual theatre, idealism and history meet in the response of the audience.

The ritual experience of theatre is a collective interaction between performers and audience, and among members of the audience itself. Like the religious rituals from which it originates, theatrical performance involves collective experiences that lead the performers and audience to a higher state of spiritual insight. Even the individual experience of reading a dramatic text has a transcendental effect. I t may not have the social impact and power of a collective experience, but it is no less valid for its greater subjectivity, which

in Sanskrit poetics as we have seen is called *rasa* or "aesthetic rapture" (Masson and Patwardhan, *Aesthetic Rapture*, 1970, 23-34), the basis for utopia. In comparing Soyinka's dramatic theory with those of Nietzsche and G. Wilson Knight, Ann Davis writes that all three are connected with audience affect and the metaphysical link between ritual and drama:

> [Soyinka's] theory is [. . .] unique in that it focuses on the dynamics of social and psychological processes within the dramatic experience, whereas the theories of Nietzsche and Knight are concerned with the dramatic experience only in terms of individual psychological processes. [. . .] Soyinka is equally concerned with defining the experience of drama in relationship to revolutionary, or liberating, social consciousness. ("Dramatic Theory of Wole Soyinka," 1980, 148)

As Davis goes on to show, Soyinka sees drama as incorporating ritual in order to develop social consciousness through "the passage from one area of existence to another. [. . .] or one level of awareness to another" (*Ibid*., 150). The lack of a one-to-one correspondence between Soyinka's representation of ritual and the traditional event results from Soyinka's awareness of the crisis of ritual in modern Africa and from his metaphysical, rather than historical, treatment of ritual as a dialectical process of social transformation. As Soyinka himself writes, "Metaphysical quest is not of itself a static theme, not when it is integrated by real proportions, into the individual or social patterns of life" ("And After the Narcissist?" 1966, 55).

In "Drama and the Revolutionary Idea," he states that "ritual is the language of the masses" (1975, 87), thereby confirming the way Edmund Leach, in uses the term ritual interchangeably with the term "custom" (Qtd. in Davis, "Dramatic Theory of Wole Soyinka," 1980, 149). For Soyinka, ritual experience provides a means for the individual to become integrated into the community and to attain "a renewed mythic awareness" (*Ibid*.). In "The Fourth Stage," he describes the ritual experience as being parallel to that of the deity Ogun in the "fourth world"—"the area of transition" in which the participants surrender their individuation, experience the joy of community, and recreate the self through dance and poetry (1976, 140-7). The "audience affect" of Soyinka's ritual drama is not only historical, social, and psychological but also structural, involving the actual experience of "mythic awareness"—an example of cosmogony in reverse as discussed earlier. Because Soyinka equates ritual and dramatic forms (Davis, *Ibid*., 154), they can best be understood in terms of their transcendental effect, which is structurally equivalent in individual and collective experience.

In defining modern-day ritual theatre, Martin Esslin says in *An Anatomy of Drama* that one can "look at ritual as a dramatic, a theatrical event—on can look at drama as ritual" (1976, 27). Like dramatic forms, ritual forms aim

to expand individual and collective consciousness and to provide the community with an experience of its own identity. *A Dance of the Forests* is a ritual drama in that it achieves both objectives, portraying, among other themes, the "conflict between the values of the old society and the new" (Laurence, *Long Drums and Cannons*, 1968, 74), "the sense of the repetitive futility, folly and waste of human history," and the need for redemption (E. D. Jones, *The Writing of Wole Soyinka*, 1973, 11). The successful integration of unity and diversity in Soyinka's plays is a function of ritual experience. This integration is less an expressed formal property of the plays than their suggested content, less objective than subjective. But even as objective mediums, or "subjective experience objectified" (Krishnamoorthy, *Some Thoughts on Indian Aesthetics and Literary Criticism*, 1968, 53), Soyinka's dramatic forms skillfully enhance reception through the movement of the reader/audience toward an experience of suggested unity, which leads to utopia, unlike conceptuality.

Like many African writers (e.g., Ngugi, "Satire in Nigeria"), Soyinka satirizes postmodern African society for its lack of unity and coherence. Africa, in its self-alienation, is opposed not only to the other of Europe but also to the other of its own ancestral past. Without the spiritual heritage necessary to maintain its purity and growth, Africa has, for Soyinka, fallen easy prey to the worst vices of its former colonizers. He does not suggest that Africa has a glorious past worthy of repetition, but that its mythology provides a means of self-purification, a means of crossing the gulf between the historical and the mythical self. Despite the modern context of Soyinka's ritual theatre, both the characters and the audience of A Dance of the Forests and The Road move back and forth across this ontological gap toward an experience of psychic wholeness. Soyinka skillfully integrates old mythologies into a modern context, searching for new patterns of ritual experience. Interpreting the ritual archetypes of West African drama in *Myth, Literature and the African World*, Soyinka focuses on three hero-gods of the rites of passage, Ogun, Obatala, and Sango: "their symbolic roles are identified by man as the role of an intermediary quester, an explorer into territories of 'essence-ideal' around whose edges man fearfully skirts" (1976, 1).

More than the other deities, Ogun, the Yoruba god of war, iron, and craftsmanship, corresponds to the abyss of transition, the numinous fourth stage of existence through which the ideal and material, abstract and concrete, are integrated for the performers and audience of ritual drama. As "Lord of the road" of Ifa, the Yoruba traditional religious system, Ogun is the only deity who "sought the way" that would lead the Yoruba people to the essence of Ifa wisdom (*Ibid*., 27). Anguished by a sense of incompleteness, the gods feel the need to unite with humans. The original god, Atunda, once

solitary and whole, was smashed into a thousand fragments by his rebellious slave, an event that became the analogue to mankind's recurring experience of birth followed by the dissolution of consciousness at the time of death (*Ibid*., 28). In the resulting diversity of social functions, Ogun came to embody the destructive-creative impulse. For Soyinka he represents the "Promethean instinct of man," "the explorer through primordial chaos" (*Ibid*., 30). He becomes the key figure in the constant attempt by gods and humans to bridge the gulf between them through the rites of passage.

As Soyinka sees it, when the protagonist of drama enters the gulf and transcends conflict to experience the fourth stage, this experience is not a subjective fantasy but a mimetic rite that incorporates poetry and dance. Through the power of suggestion, or *dhvani* in Sanskrit poetics, it conveys the "primal reality" of the coexistence of opposites. This experience involves "the withdrawal of the individual into an inner world from which he returns, communicating a new strength for action" (*Ibid*., 33). The "communicant" does not withdraw from conscious reality; rather "his consciousness is stretched to embrace another and primal reality," which enhances utopia (*Ibid*.).

In a decontextualized, non-ritualized European approach to mythical states, Jung describes the primal mentality in terms of archetypes cut off from the world of concrete experience. But as Soyinka points out, the mythic inner world is "both the psychic sub-structure and temporal subsidence, the cumulative history and empirical observations of the community" (*Ibid*., 35). As evidenced by Soyinka's plays, the experience of the transitional abyss engages African psychic archetypes within both an historical and mythical African context, one that fosters a wide range of spiritual insights and critical interpretations (E. D. Jones, *African Literature Today*, 1983, 11). This experience integrates the concrete and abstract elements that characterize the cosmic context of the coexistence of opposites, leading to utopia. In spite of postmodernism, Soyinka's characters and audience can be seen as moving toward an experience of *turīya* or unbounded awareness, the ground of utopia.

The universal experience of unboundedness or transcendental consciousness has been called by various names: epiphanies, timeless or visionary moments, privileged moments, peak experiences, transcendent ritual experiences, the abyss of transition, *turīya*, and so forth, all of which take humans to utopia. When Soyinka's characters cross the abyss they move from the senses toward the unbounded Self that underlies all metaphysical experience, including utopia. As a taste of the simplest form of awareness, this experience belies the complexity of philosophical systems.

Several characters in *A Dance of the Forests* approach the state of *turīya* or self-referral consciousness by confronting their past. Murano in *The Road* also tastes this state while in possession of Ogun, the patron god of carvers. Unlike post-Saussurean linguistics, Yoruba metaphysics as represented by Soyinka recognizes the integral nature of name and form, poetry and dance, in the mimetic rite of passage. Similarly, Sanskrit poetics recognizes that the field of difference belongs to a level of language corresponding to ordinary waking consciousness and the phenomenal universe, whereas the field of unity belongs to a more subtle and powerful level of language corresponding to transcendental consciousness. When understood through the medium of transcendental consciousness, therefore, the three-in-one structure of the knower (I), known (Me), and knowledge (language) is the essence of both subject and object, self and other, and constitutes the basis for their unification. Discursive logic can be used to build arguments either for and against the unity of the self or language, but logic by itself can provide no effective means for verifying its conclusions on the more subtle level of direct experience, the essence of utopia. It cannot lead to the concrete experience of pure consciousness itself. Hence, in works such as *The Postcard* and *Glas*, Derrida employs a trans-logical antic verbalism, attempting to expand the reader's experience through what Ulmer calls a "picto-ideo-phonographic Writing" (*Applied Grammatology*, 1985, 3-125). In this way, Derrida's philosophy of otherness can be said to harmonize with the "equi-primordiality" (Rodophe Gasché, *The Tain of the Mirror*, 1986, 91) of pure consciousness, sound, and meaning in the *pashyantī* level of language. But these unities belong to more subtle dimensions of natural law and remain vague abstractions until approached through direct experience, as by Soyinka's characters and audience.

This unity (between self and other) that Soyinka's characters and audience approach includes the difference of language. While these characters communicate through the suggestive power of ritual drama, they transport the audience from the expressed levels of language to the inner silence of *pashyantī*. As a transcendental signified, this level constitutes the unity-amidst-diversity of sound and meaning, thus providing a taste or *rasa* of the ground of language, which belongs to utopia.

The physicist John Hagelin has argued that "the notion of diversity disconnected from unity is a fundamental misconception. This misconception is known [in the Vedic tradition] as *pragya aparadha*, or 'mistake of the intellect'" (Hagelin, " Restructuring Physics," 1989, 23). As if aware of this mistake, the Yoruba gods feel the need to come to man, who in turn feels the need to diminish the gulf between "himself and the deities, between himself and the ancestors, between the unborn and his reality" by means of sacrifices,

ceremonies, and rituals (Soyinka, "The Fourth Stage," 1976, 144). Soyinka's characters accomplish this coexistence of opposites by entering the transitional fourth space, integrating terrestrial life with unbounded awareness. In the aesthetic response to *A Dance of the Forests*, the audience repeats this experience of "cosmogony in reverse," which leads to the direct experience of utopia through self-referral.

In *A Dance of the Forests*, a complex interplay between gods, mortals, and the dead, the living have invited two glorious forefathers to participate in the "Gathering of the Tribes."

But the god Aroni, "the lame one," received permission from the Forest Head Obaniji to select instead "two (obscure) spirits of the restless dead," the Dead Man and the Dead Woman, a captain and his wife from the army of the ancient Emperor Mata Kharibu. The choice is significant because "in previous life they were linked in violence and blood with four of the living generation" (Soyinka, *A Dance of the Forests*, 1970, 1). Selected on the basis of this past debauchery, which Aroni hopes can be expiated through revelation, these four are Rola, a whore immortally nicknamed Madame Tortoise; Demoke, now a carver and then a poet; Adenebe, now the Court Orator and then Court Historian; and Agboreko, at both times the Elder of Sealed Lips. Although invited to participate in the welcome dance for the Dead Man and the Dead Woman, the four mortals refuse to "hear their case," which is tantamount to refusing to acknowledge and thereby expiate their ignominious backgrounds. Thus, they initially refuse to cross the gulf between self and other. But the Dean Woman, who is pregnant, warns that the living are greatly influenced by the dead (or the past); "The world is big," she says, "but the dead are bigger. We've been dying since the beginning" (*Ibid*., 4). She implies that destiny cannot be controlled by free will unless the entire range of human experience is taken into account—the experience of the relative as well as the absolute, of difference as well as of unity. The Dead can be said to represent the coexistence of opposites such as mortality and immortality. They symbolize the nonchanging, unmanifest field of pure consciousness, which as the reservoir of infinite dynamism is the source of all historical change.

Although Soyinka explores the "role of the spiritually elect in a human community" (Oyin Ogunba, "Modern Drama in West Africa," 1971, 16), critics still find the play unsettling because in the process of giving individuals a glimpse of possible redemption it does not explain what this state might consist of, given Soyinka's extra-political viewpoint. The question, as Lewis Nkosi points out, concerns the object of Soyinka's commitment:

> It is the religious tendency in his work, his quest for [. . .] some metaphysical scheme of things, which is a disturbing and dangerous element in Soyinka's work; its link to elitisim, to the worship of death and nihilistic gesture, have not been pointed out often enough. (*Tasks and Masks*, 1981, 190)

Soyinka's ideological commitments may not be explicit in *A Dance of the Forests*, but the play does suggest that, before society can undergo a political, its citizens must be individually transformed on the level of consciousness. Soyinka depicts "an opposition between a messianic individual," who sets the spiritual standard, and "an indifferent humanity" (Nkosi, *Tasks and Masks*, 1981, 190-1) content to live by the mistake of the intellect. The gap between them cannot be crossed by merely treating the symptoms, whether political, economic, or academic. The ambiguity, difficulty, and ostensible danger of Soyinka's drama derives from its exploration of the depths of consciousness. As discussed earlier, Jeyifo demythologizes ritual as being inappropriate or atrophied in the context of modern Africa (Osofisan, "Ritual and the Revolutionary Ethos," 1982, 73). In terms of Sanskrit poetics, this atrophy is a reflection of consciousness restricted to a madhyamā perspective on the part of society and its critics. When nurtured back to its self-referral state, back into alliance with the government of nature through an integration of ritual and history, consciousness can solve the problem caused by the world of difference, but this solution involves a gradual process, as evidenced by the slow progress made by Soyinka's characters.

The mortals in *A Dance of the Forests* must confront the whole range of life before transition into the self is possible, and the call becomes urgent: "the gap always widens" (1970, 5). Eventually, each of the four mortals reveals a secret past. In Demoke's passionate and poetic account of his crime, the negative aspect of creation is coupled with a feeling more appropriate to the positive aspect. By killing his apprentice Oremole, who he pulls off the top of the araba tree they were carving together for the occasion, Demoke becomes aware of his capacity for destruction and is thus propelled toward redemption: "I plucked him down! / [. . .] I / Demoke, sat on the shoulders of the tree, / My spirit set free and singing" (*Ibid*., 28). The ceremony for the Self-discovery of the four mortals consists of three parts: the reliving of the ancient prototype of their present crime; the questioning of the dead couple; and the welcoming dance for the dead couple. Suddenly the scene retrogresses about eight centuries to the court of the emperor Mata Kharibu. Rola (Madame Tortoise—the queen), Demoke (Court Poet), and Adenebi (Court Historian) all enact the paradigm of his or her recurrent crime. After a bantering session with the Poet, the piqued Madame Tortoise dispatches him to fetch her canary from the dangerously steep roof of the palace. Instead of going himself, the poet sends his pupil, who falls and breaks his arm. At this

point, the chained warrior (the Dead Man) is brought before Mata Kharibu on charges of treason. For Mata Kharibu, the captain had fought against a fellow chief and robbed his queen, Madame Tortoise, but now refuses to risk his men for another frivolous battle in an attempt to obtain her forgotten dowry. The Court Physician tries to reason with the captain, who confronts authority on the battlefield of his own conscience: "Physician: Was ever a man so bent on his own destruction? Warrior: Mata Kharibu is leader, not merely of soldiers but of men. Let him turn the unnatural pattern of men always eating up one another" (*Ibid*., 1970, 56). By reliving the previous incidents of their present crimes, the mortals reveal the functioning of nonchanging pure consciousness that is the basis for historical change.

The Mortals and the dead pair symbolize, through their multiple lives, the unity of mortality and immortality. They represent a synthesis between history (or waking consciousness) and structure (or transcendental consciousness), a synthesis that allows for the dialogue between change and nonchange, time and eternity. As Jameson says in *The Prison House of Language*, "where everything is historical the idea of history itself has seemed to be empty of content" (1972, xi). He later adds that "history is the science of the permanent" (*Ibid*., 97). Through an historical process of self-referral, the dead pair take the mortals beyond ideological closure and toward an integration of transcendental consciousness and history. This process of self-referral swings the awareness from the concrete to the abstract, from the finite historical present to the field of all possibilities, the essence of utopia. While Jameson in *The Political Unconscious* defines the "untranscendable horizon" as the totalizing historical context or "Necessity" underlying conceptual systems (1981, 10), Soyinka's drama portrays this horizon as the cosmic context of myth or expanded consciousness, which does not underlie historical change as much as it permeates it. From the perspective of Sanskrit poetics, the primal reality of Soyinka's transitional realm contains the essence of all space, time, and causality that find expression in the phenomenal world.

After the welcoming of the dead couple, the Dance of Welcome is performed by the spirits of the Forest, represented by Demoke, Rola, and Adenebi, who anticipate the future while momentarily possessed. Each of them wears a mask: "The mask-motif is as their state of mind—resigned passivity" (*A Dance of the Forests*, 1970, 73). This trance-like state represents the settled state of mind and body associated with the transitional abyss. As defined in Sanskrit poetics, this transcendental state is omnipresent and differs physiologically from the waking, dreaming, and sleep states. It can thus be located in the gaps between the other states, which are the fluctuations of ordinary consciousness. Soyinka's characters are continually

passing through these gaps as they move back and forth between waking and dreaming, mortality and immortality.

The dead pair listen in suspense to whether or not the future will be more auspicious than the past or present. During the welcoming dance the Dean Woman's Half-Child walks away from his mother's side. He is followed by a Figure in Red, the disguised god Eshuoro who seeks revenge against Demoke for having killed Oremole. At this point Demoke finally comes to his senses and tries to rescue the Half-Child from the fate of being continually "born dead." Demoke's attempt to free the Half-Child has been interpreted in many ways (N. Wilkinnson, " Demoke's Choice in Soyinka's *A Dance of the Forests*," 1980, 69-73), but the deeper significance of his intervention, which occurs immediately after an experience of the fourth state or expanded consciousness, the basis of utopia, lies in the fact that it represents his first tangible step toward his own redemption. He cannot intervene directly in someone else's fate. The Forest Head could intervene if he desired, but he prefers to create a setting conducive to the mortal's self-discovery. Yet even though Demoke cannot free the Half-Child, any attempt to free oneself through self-pruification increases the coherence of the social collective. Demoke's integration of self and community stems from an integration on the level of consciousness achieved through his "rapport with the realm of infinity" (Soyinka, *Myth*, 1976, 2). This coexistence of opposites cannot be understood in terms of *vaikharī* or *madhyamā*, which are limited to the field of phenomenalization. Rather, the integration of apparent opposites into a primal wholeness, one not susceptible to infinite deferral by the play of *différance*, consists of the unity of sound and meaning that characterizes *pashyantī* as available only in expanded awareness, the ground of utopia. But how do Soyinka's characters achieve this experience? At the end of the play the god Eshuoro, who demands vengeance against Demoke for killing his apprentice Oremole, sets fire to Demoke's tree, from which he falls into the arms of Ogun, the patron god of carvers.

Demoke's rebirth is symbolized no so much with words as with ritual dance and music. It is not abstract conceptual knowledge that redeems, but the total embodiment of knowledge through physiological renewal, as in Demoke's ritual experience. Throughout the play, gods and mortals strive for the unity that is always latent, but this unity can only be stabilized in the awareness by means of a self-referral that unites the knower, known, and knowledge, the ground of utopia. The impulse toward unity originates not only from the Forest Dwellers *per se* or from the outside, but also from within each mortal, from his or her inner god as personified by the Forest. Obaniji is not only the Forest Head; he is also a mortal. In his being, he synthesizes mortality and immortality.

In a psychological sense, the position of the other in this play is occupied by the past lives of the four characters who are compelled by the Forest Head to undergo the process of self-discovery. The apparent opposition here between the knower (the present self), and the object of knowledge (the past self) is dispelled through the process of knowing provided by the deities, rituals, and ceremonies that Soyinka portrays. When the knower, the known, and the process of knowing are perceived as one in terms of consciousness, this unity can be said to characterize the self-referral experience of the transitional fourth space as well as utopia. As Soyinka's characters move toward the unity of self-referral consciousness, the audience also moves toward this experience by way of devices which, although aesthetic or formal, are nevertheless historically based. These devices cause the awareness of the characters and audience to swing from the concrete to the abstract, from madhyamā toward pashyantī, from the sensory and intellectual boundaries of ordinary consciousness toward the unboundedness of transcendental consciousness, which as we have seen is also the process of reaching utopia. One such device is the play's use of formal and thematic gaps such as those between self and other, past and present, mortality and immortality. The gap between Demoke's present and past lives allows the audience to turn inward, to refer back to the self and to settle momentarily into the realm of infinity. One could even claim that all knowledge has its source in the structure of the gap, the most fundamental gap being the historical and material (that is, physiologically based) difference between the finite waking state of consciousness and unbounded pure consciousness (Maharishi, "The Structure of Pure Knowledge," 1980,73). The gap underlies all other historical differences, such as that between Soyinka's characters and their deities, as well as that between the various levels of language.

Another aesthetic device related to the gap is Soyinka's figurative language, which he employs as a key to the self. His use of Yoruba symbolism is significant in that it swings the awareness of the audience from the immediate concrete image, such as that of Rola reliving her past crimes as Madame Tortoise, to the abstract concept of that image, which implies the transcending of temporal and spatial boundaries necessary to reach utopia. What matters in Soyinka's use of metaphor is not the referent itself, but reference as an act of pointing. Reference in this sense has the effect of shifting the awareness from concrete rhetorical boundaries to an abstract unboundedness through which consciousness is stretched. This movement allows the awareness of both audience and characters to expand from the temporality and difference of *madhyamā* toward the "difference-cum-identity" of *pashyantī* (Chakrabarti, *Indian Aesthetics and Science of Language*, 1971, 81). The mistake of the intellect, in its projection toward ever

more complex diversity, is corrected through the memory of *samhita* or the three-in-one dynamics of consciousness, which underlies utopia.

Even Derrida's theory of the trace suggests how the awareness swings from the concrete to the abstract, from the finite to the infinite. In *Superstructuralism*, Richard Harland makes the analogy between the trace and Eastern meditation (1987, 150-1). Both the trace and meditation spontaneously expand the awareness by means of the empty signifier in its move toward a general meaningfulness—defined as the negation or absence of temporal boundaries—thereby swinging the awareness from the concrete to the abstract. While apparently deferring meaning "ad infinitum," the notion of the trace in fact expands awareness toward transcendental consciousness, which is also the ground for the unity of sound and meaning in *pashyantī* that the characters and audience in *A Dance of the Forests* approach through the process of self-discovery, an essential component of utopia.

By giving spiritual power to the protagonist through its choric support, the audience is, as Soyinka says, an integral part of a ritual drama: "The drama would be non-existent except within and against this symbolic representation of earth and cosmos, except within this communal compact whose choric essence supplies the collective energy for the challenger of chthonic realms" (Soyinka, "Myth," 1976, 39). Soyinka says that the "ritualistic sense of space" that encompases the audience is a medium (*Ibid*.). The spatial/temporal apparatus of this dramatic medium, which affects all the senses, "parallel[s] [. . .] the experiences or intuitions of man in that for more disturbing environment which he defines variously as void, emptiness or infinity" (*Ibid*., 39-40). The enactment of Soyinka's drama establishes a spatial medium in which the metaphysical self is materialized through a unity of poetry and dance, name and form, and the "cosmic envelope" is contracted to a dimension manageable by the community (*Ibid*., 41). For both the protagonist and the audience, entering this microcosm involves a "loss of individuation, a self-submergence in universal essence" (*Ibid*., 42). The physical and symbolic enactment of Soyinka's ritual theatre represents "the archetypal struggle of the mortal being against exterior forces," and the medium or stage for this cosmic struggle is created for, and brought into existence by, the communal presence of the audience (*Ibid*., 43). Through its power of suggestion, or *dhvani* in Sanskrit poetics, the objective medium of Soyinka's ritual drama evokes from the audience a self-referral response that leads to utopia. In a process of mutual reciprocity, the awareness of the audience moves from the concrete condition of its terrestrial existence to the spiritual essence suggested by the dramatic medium, whose metaphysical dimension is in turn concretized in the life and consciousness of the audience. For the individual reader of the play, the experience of expansion only lacks

the resonance of group coherence. In terms of language, the awareness of both the reader and audience moves from the sensory, rational realm of *vaikharī* and *madhyamā* toward the abstract, holistic realm of *pashyantī* and *parā*, the ground of utopia.

Soyinka's method of stretching the consciousness of the characters and audience through a ritual process of mutual reciprocity or dialogue can be elucidated by the Indian theories of *rasa* and *dhvani*. Soyinka's plays elicit the experience of *rasa* or aesthetic bliss by means of images and other devices intended to produce the loss of individuation and the resulting flavor of unboundedness or bliss—or, one might say, the flavor of *rasa* itself. Soyinka's themes of individual quest and self-discovery and their corresponding devices serve as vehicles to induce the self-referral experience of freedom from any one emotional response. Nkosi criticizes such non-attachment in what he regards as Soyinka's lack of ideological commitment—which in terms of Sanskrit poetics is really a commitment to the silent source of ideology. Because the freedom of knowing the whole gamut of possible responses (the known) constitutes the experience of pure awareness or the Self (the knower), *rasa* produces the experience of the three-fold unity of the knower, the know and knowledge—a process analogous to the experience of the fourth stage of Soyinka's ritual drama. Through the ritual experience of transcending binary oppositions, Soyinka resolves the paradox of destructiveness and creativity in Ogun, and the structural paradox of "the stasis of tragedy and the dynamism of the rebellious spirit" (Andrew Gurr, "Third-World Drama: Soyinka and Tragedy," 1980, 143). The experience of the fourth stage is thus one of silence and dynamism, an integration of unity and diversity on the level of expanded consciousness, the only means of achieving utopia. Though accused of being elitist, A Dance of the Forests produces an effect that goes beyond the intellect and moves toward the simplest form of awareness; Soyinka himself claims that the play is most popular among stewards and cooks (Ola Akaraogun, "Interview with Wole Soyinka," 1966, 19).

As elucidated by his view of Yoruba mythology and the notion of language and consciousness in Vedic poetics, the best way to reach utopia, Soyinka's ritual drama portrays how literature is always implicated in the process of change. In *A Dance of the Forests*, Soyinka represents Yoruba mythology not as an isolated ahistorical ideal, but as a cultural system enmeshed in the conflicted environments of modern Africa.

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